

Handbook of the History of Social Psychology



Edited by
Arie W. Kruglanski and
Wolfgang Stroebe

Handbook of the History of Social Psychology



Endorsements

“This is a rich assortment of contributions to mapping the history of social psychology and an essential contribution to the field’s capacity to understand itself. Sometimes it seems that social psychology lurches from one topic and fad to another. In this book, one can appreciate how the scientific study of social life has moved steadily forward, accumulating and refining methods, and building toward a profound understanding of human interaction. This wonderful book will be deeply enlightening to anyone interested in social psychology, from beginning students to advanced scholars.”

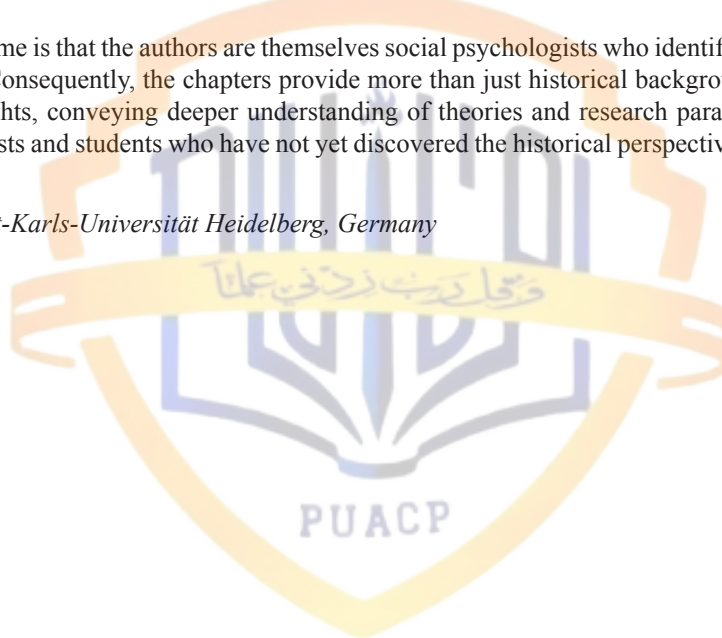
Roy F. Baumeister, Ph.D., Florida State University, USA

“An intimate knowledge of history is essential for the progress of any science, and is especially so for a field like social psychology. Yet we have long lacked a comprehensive volume covering the history of our field. This landmark book fills an important gap in the literature. The chapters, written by a stellar group of international contributors, offer a detailed review of the history of our discipline that is encyclopedic and scholarly, yet highly readable and even entertaining. The coverage is comprehensive, covering all the major research domains of social psychology. I am sure that this seminal book will become an essential reference work for anybody teaching and doing research in social psychology, and should be required reading for all undergraduate and graduate students in the field for many years to come.”

Joseph Paul Forgas, Ph.D., Scientia Professor of Psychology, University of New South Wales, Australia

“The greatest asset of this volume is that the authors are themselves social psychologists who identify with the discipline and participated to its amazing growth. Consequently, the chapters provide more than just historical background data. They afford a treasure trove of meta-theoretical insights, conveying deeper understanding of theories and research paradigms than can be gained from journals and textbooks. Scientists and students who have not yet discovered the historical perspective may become converts through this remarkable handbook.”

Klaus Fiedler, Ph.D., Ruprecht-Karls-Universität Heidelberg, Germany



Handbook of the History of Social Psychology

Edited by

Arie W. Kruglanski and Wolfgang Stroebe



Published in 2012
by Psychology Press
711 Third Avenue, New York, NY 10017
www.psypress.com

Published in Great Britain
by Psychology Press
27 Church Road, Hove, East Sussex, BN3 2FA

Copyright © 2012 by Taylor & Francis Group

Psychology Press is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an Informa business

Typeset in Times New Roman by RefineCatch Limited, Bungay, Suffolk, UK
Printed and bound by Sheridan Books, Inc. in the USA on acid-free paper

10 9 8 7 6 5 4 3 2 1

All rights reserved. No part of this book may be reprinted or reproduced or utilized in any form or by any electronic, mechanical, or other means, now known or hereafter invented, including photocopying and recording, or in any information storage or retrieval system, without permission in writing from the publishers.

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data

Handbook of the history of social psychology / edited by Arie W. Kruglanski, Wolfgang Stroebe.
p. cm.

Summary: "This is the first ever handbook to comprehensively cover the historical development of the field of social psychology, including the main overarching approaches and all the major individual topics. Contributors are all world-renowned scientists in their subfields who engagingly describe the people, dynamics, and events that have shaped the discipline"—Provided by publisher.

Includes bibliographical references.

ISBN 978-1-84872-868-4 (hardback)

1. Social psychology—History—Handbooks, manuals, etc. 2. Social psychology. I. Kruglanski, Arie W. II. Stroebe, Wolfgang.
HM1025.H36 2011
302.09—dc23

2011019470

A catalog record for this book is available from the Library of Congress
ISBN: 978-1-84872-868-4 (hbk)

Contents

<i>About the editors</i>	vii	8 The evolution of research methodologies in social psychology: A historical analysis	159
<i>List of contributors</i>	ix	WILLIAM D. CRANO AND ANDREW LAC	
<i>Preface</i>	xi		
Part I		Part III	
Introduction	1	Domains of Inquiry	175
1 The making of social psychology	3	9 A history of affect and emotion research in social psychology	177
ARIE W. KRUGLANSKI AND WOLFGANG STROEBE		ANTONY S. R. MANSTEAD	
2 The importance of history to social psychology	19	10 Motivation science in social psychology: A tale of two histories	199
JILL MORAWSKI		E. TORY HIGGINS	
Part II		11 A history of social judgment research	219
Approaches	43	J. RICHARD EISER	
3 The emergence of cognitive social psychology: A historical analysis	45	12 A history of prosocial behavior research	243
DENIS HILTON		C. DANIEL BATSON	
4 A history of social cognition	81	13 A history of social psychological research on aggression	265
MICHAEL S. NORTH AND SUSAN T. FISKE		LEONARD BERKOWITZ	
5 A history of evolutionary social psychology	101	14 A history of attitudes and persuasion research	283
DOUGLAS T. KENRICK AND ADAM B. COHEN		PABLO BRIÑOL AND RICHARD E. PETTY	
6 A history of social neuroscience	123	15 A history of social influence research	321
JOHN T. CACIOPPO, GARY G. BERNTSON, AND JEAN DECETY		RADMILA PRISLIN AND WILLIAM D. CRANO	
7 The social dimension of social psychology: A historical analysis	137	16 A history of interdependence: Theory and research	341
KENNETH J. GERGEN		PAUL A. M. VAN LANGE	

17 A history of relationship research in social psychology	363	21 A history of justice and morality research	453
HARRY T. REIS		TOM R. TYLER	
18 A history of small group research	383	22 A history of social psychological research on gender	475
JOHN M. LEVINE AND RICHARD L. MORELAND		MONICA BIERNAT AND KAY DEAUX	
19 A history of intergroup relations research	407	23 A history of culture in psychology	499
JOHN F. DOVIDIO, ANNA-KAISA NEWHEISER, AND JACQUES-PHILIPPE LEYENS		YOSHIHISA KASHIMA AND MICHELE J. GELFAND	
20 A history of social conflict and negotiation research	431	<i>Index</i>	521
DEAN G. PRUITT			



About the editors

Arie W. Kruglanski is Professor of Psychology at the University of Maryland. He is recipient of the National Institute of Mental Health Research Scientist Award, the Donald Campbell Award for Outstanding Contributions to Social Psychology, the University of Maryland Regents Award for Scholarship and Creativity and the Distinguished Scientific Contribution Award from the Society for Experimental Social Psychology. He was Fellow at the Center for Advanced Studies in the Behavioral Sciences, and is Fellow of the American Psychological Association and the American Psychological Society. He has served as editor of *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology: Attitudes and Social Cognition*, as editor of *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, and as Associate Editor of *American Psychologist*. His interests have been in the domains of human judgment and decision making, the motivation–cognition interface, group and intergroup processes, the psychology of human goals, and the social psychological aspects of terrorism. His work has been disseminated in over 250 articles, chapters and books and has been supported by grants from the National Science Foundation, the National Institute of Mental Health, Deutsche Forschungs Gemeinschaft, the Ford Foundation and the Israeli Academy of Science. He has been a member of several NAS panels on the social and behavioral aspects of terrorism and at present serves as co-director of the National Center for the Study of Terrorism and the Response to Terrorism.

Wolfgang Stroebe received PhDs from the University of Muenster (Germany) and the London School of Economics (UK) in 1966 and 1968, after which he held academic positions in the USA, Great Britain, and Germany, before moving to the Netherlands as Professor of Social Psychology at Utrecht University. He has recently also taken up a position at the University of Groningen. A past president of the European Association of Social Psychology, he is Fellow of many associations, including the Association for Psychological Science, the Society of Personality and Social Psychology, and the British Psychological Society. He is founding editor (jointly with Miles Hewstone) of the *European Review of Social Psychology* and also (co)edits the highly successful *Introduction to Social Psychology: A European Perspective*. He has published half a dozen books and more than 200 articles and chapters on topics that range from productivity loss in brainstorming groups to the health consequences of bereavement. His most recent research focus has been on subliminal advertising and the self-regulation of eating. He has received numerous awards, including the Tajfel distinguished scientist award of the European Association of Social Psychology, the lifetime achievement award from the German Psychological Association, the research award from the American Association of Death Counseling and Education, and an honorary doctorate from the University of Louvain (Belgium). In 2006 he was made a Knight of the Royal Order of the Nederlandsche Liew in recognition of his contribution to Dutch and European social psychology.

List of contributors

- C. Daniel Batson**, University of Kansas, Lawrence, Kansas
Leonard Berkowitz, University of Wisconsin, Madison, Wisconsin
Gary G. Berntson, Ohio State University, Columbus, Ohio
Monica Biernat, University of Kansas, Lawrence, Kansas
Pablo Briñol, Universidad Autónoma de Madrid, Madrid, Spain
John T. Cacioppo, University of Chicago, Chicago, Illinois
Adam B. Cohen, Arizona State University, Tempe, Arizona
William D. Crano, Claremont Graduate University, Claremont, California
Kay Deaux, New York University and City University of New York, Graduate Center, New York, New York
Jean Decety, University of Chicago, Chicago, Illinois
John F. Dovidio, Yale University, New Haven, Connecticut
J. Richard Eiser, University of Sheffield, Sheffield, UK
Susan T. Fiske, Princeton University, Princeton, New Jersey
Michele J. Gelfand, University of Maryland, College Park, Maryland
Kenneth J. Gergen, Swarthmore College, Swarthmore, Pennsylvania
E. Tory Higgins, Columbia University, New York, New York
Denis Hilton, University of Toulouse, Toulouse, France
Yoshihisa Kashima, University of Melbourne, Melbourne, Australia
Douglas T. Kenrick, Arizona State University, Tempe, Arizona
Arie W. Kruglanski, University of Maryland, College Park, Maryland
Andrew Lac, Claremont Graduate University, Claremont, California
John M. Levine, University of Pittsburgh, Pittsburgh, Pennsylvania
Jacques-Philippe Leyens, Catholic University of Louvain, Louvain, Belgium
Antony S. R. Manstead, Cardiff University, Cardiff, UK
Jill Morawski, Wesleyan University, Middletown, Connecticut
Richard L. Moreland, University of Pittsburgh, Pittsburgh, Pennsylvania
Anna-Kaisa Newheiser, Yale University, New Haven, Connecticut
Michael S. North, Princeton University, Princeton, New Jersey
Richard E. Petty, Ohio State University, Columbus, Ohio
Radmila Prislin, San Diego State University, San Diego, California
Dean G. Pruitt, George Mason University, Fairfax, Virginia
Harry T. Reis, University of Rochester, Rochester, New York
Wolfgang Stroebe, University of Utrecht, Utrecht, The Netherlands and University of Groningen, Groningen, The Netherlands
Tom R. Tyler, New York University, New York, New York
Paul A. M. Van Lange, VU University Amsterdam, Amsterdam, The Netherlands

Preface

George Santayana (1905) famously proclaimed that “Those who cannot remember the past are condemned to repeat it.” Nowhere does this aphorism ring truer than in the realm of science, an enterprise quintessentially committed to progress and innovation. The latter, by definition, can only be gauged in reference to what has come before; oblivion to one’s history thus carries the danger of wasteful duplication, and a recycling of hoary ideas under the guise of originality. To overtake the past it is essential that we know it.

Importance of historical consciousness transcends the specific concept of scientific progress one subscribes to: Whether one views the march of theories in science as smooth and linear, following Popper’s (1959) notion that each falsification eliminates a theory and invites its successor, or as stepwise following Kuhn’s (1962) insight that falsifying anomalies may be temporarily ignored, or as taking place within sequential research programs, as Lakatos (1970) had it, scientists need to be aware of their predecessors’ work in order to build upon it meaningfully.

From an ethical perspective, too, it seems desirable to give credit where it is due and to celebrate one’s discipline’s past accomplishments. In addition, recognizing one’s disciplinary heritage and honoring one’s scientific “heroes” seems essential for community building, and forging the sense of professional identity among members of a scientific discipline; it carries the gratifying assurance that one forms part of a transcendental enterprise whose significance is timeless rather than ephemeral. Finally, historical perspective may highlight the field’s enduring aims and disentangle them from the vicissitudes of the *Zeitgeist*, and the fads and fashions of the moment.

Though historical awareness is crucially important, major psychological factors may conspire to undermine it. First, and most mundanely, active researchers’ work load is incredibly heavy these days and seemingly getting worse all the time. Historical awareness may require delving into musty volumes and long forgotten manuscripts. For many, it is a luxury they cannot afford. More subtly and implicitly, the stress in science on perennial innovation and originality, and the career requirements of carving a unique niche in the problem space of one’s discipline, may induce an unconscious motivation to ignore the past, for it might threaten to expose one’s pet ideas as mere repackaging of old notions.

Indeed, our impression has been that contemporary social psychology is quite ahistorical in its approach. Although

throwaway references to venerated fathers of our discipline (the likes of William James or Kurt Lewin) are not particularly rare, the seriously considered ideas, and research findings—those that shape the actual work in our field—seem to have a “half-life” of only a few years. And the preponderance of citations in social psychology’s major journals seems to fall in a rather brief period preceding an article’s publication. To be characterized as a classic, an article need not be very ancient; it suffices that it had appeared a decade or so ago. Our relative absence of historical consciousness goes hand in hand with our emphasis on methodology, and on empirical findings and our relative neglect of a broader theoretical context for viewing research results. One of us (Kruglanski, 2006, p. 24) has commented that “Because our theories are narrow and phenomenon centered, we often do not look beyond our immediate pale, nor are we comparing what we are doing to what others have done, or presently are doing.” It is in this vein that Miller and Pedersen (1999, p. 150) also commented on the “invention of new names for old concepts,” which they considered “first on the list of impediments to scientific progress in contemporary social psychology [and as a consequence of which] contemporary social psychology is rife with implicit, but unsubstantiated claims of discriminative construct validity.”

The present volume, thus, is intended as antidote to our excessive preoccupation with the immediate “here and now”; it aims to alert social psychologists to the intriguing and occasionally surprising lessons that the history of our field has to offer. Admittedly, our concern with the history of social psychology is not unique. Outstanding chapters on this topic have been offered by no lesser figures than Gordon Allport (1968) and Edward Jones (1985). Why then the need for a voluminous historical handbook like the present one? It seemed to us that a single history chapter, however brilliantly narrated, by necessity reflected the historical perspective of its author, which again was biased by his biography and his idiosyncratic view of the field. Furthermore, given the sheer mass of contributions to our field, such a chapter would of necessity skim important developments within social psychology. In other words, social psychology’s numerous subfields boast by now a rich historical heritage of their own, which is well worth recounting. It is this realization that fueled our enthusiasm for a volume that would depict such separate histories and devote to them unique chapters.

As should be obvious, such specific histories of areas of social psychology could only be written by experts in that particular area. We were therefore delighted that the response of leading social psychologists to our concept has been overwhelmingly positive, and that their contributions to this volume were both fascinating and extremely valuable. This we found quite impressive, for the mission we asked our contributors to embark on wasn't easy: It was far removed from social psychologists' "straight and narrow," and bore little resemblance to what most of us would call "business as usual." By asking our authors to don the hats of historians we charged them with the hard work of reconstructing the past and tracing the intricate whys and wherefores of their domain's evolution. Indeed, several authors shared with us their experience that the preparation of chapters for the present volume has been the hardest writing task they had ever attempted. Yet most also remarked that they found the enterprise highly significant and gratifying. Nor do these positive sentiments merely reflect "effort justification." For in reading the volume's various chapters we too were struck how informative, fascinating and instructive are the distinct historical tales being recounted.

The contributions to this handbook vary considerably in their historical scope. Some find traces of their areas' concerns in the work of seminal thinkers from thousands of years ago; others' historical perspective extends to less than a century. The chapters differ also in how they interpret the very concept of scientific history. Some emphasize the intellectual issues that have occupied their specialty domain over time; others include the depiction of women and men (the "grand people" approach) whose work has revolutionized and transformed work in an area; yet others have tracked the ebb and flow of interest in major topics as it may have reflected the overall *Zeitgeist* in psychology as a whole, and/or the sociocultural concerns of the time.

All history is interpretive and constructive. Hence, chapters in this handbook reflect their authors' points of view, biases,

and predilections. These chapters do not constitute definite histories of the respective fields, but are themselves historical documents reflecting the perspectives of individuals who as leading researchers have been responsible for shaping the fields they are writing about. Collectively, they put a conceptual mirror to our field and weave the intricate tapestry of people, dynamics and events whose workings combined to produce the vibrant discipline that social psychology is today.

References

- Allport, G. W. (1968). The historical background of modern social psychology. In G. Lindzey & E. Aronson (Eds.), *Handbook of social psychology, 2nd edition* (Vol. 1, pp. 1–80). Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley.
- Jones, E. E. (1985). Major developments in social psychology during the past five decades. In G. Lindzey & E. Aronson (Eds.), *Handbook of social psychology, 3rd edition* (Vol. 1, pp. 47–107). New York, NY: Random House.
- Kruglanski, A. W. (2006). Theories as bridges. In P. A. M. Van Lange (Ed.), *Bridging social psychology: Benefits of transdisciplinary approaches* (pp. 3–20). Mahwah, NJ: Erlbaum.
- Kuhn, T. S. (1962). *The structure of scientific revolutions*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Lakatos, I. (1970). Falsification and the methodology of research programmes. In I. Lakatos and A. Musgrave (Eds.), *Criticism and the growth of knowledge* (pp. 91–196). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Miller, N., & Pedersen, W. C. (1999). Assessing process distinctiveness. *Psychological Inquiry*, 10, 150–155.
- Popper, K. R. (1959). *The logic of scientific discovery*. New York, NY: Harper. (Original work published as *Logik der Forschung*. Tuebingen, Germany: Mohr Siebeck, 1934.)
- Santayana, G. (1905). *Reason in common sense*. Vol. 1 of *The life of reason: The phases of human progress*. New York, NY: Charles Scribner's Sons.

Part I

Introduction



1 The making of social psychology

Arie W. Kruglanski and Wolfgang Stroebe

Endowed with an inherently social nature and the ability to think and to reflect, humans likely have entertained, since the dawn of time, varied “social psychological” hunches about interpersonal issues, relationships, and collective phenomena. Recorded history of human thought is rich in intriguing (and often profound) insights into people’s social nature, variously divined by authors, playwrights, philosophers, and others. Yet the “official” history of social psychology as a field of science is, understandably, much briefer. In what follows, we offer a thumbnail sketch of the “meteoric” rise of scientific social psychology and its global expansion over the past century or so. This introductory chapter is intended to give readers a mere “bird’s eye” view on major developments *en route* to our field’s current status as a crucible where a variety of psychological approaches and levels of analysis productively intersect. A more detailed look at these trends and their intriguing impact on social psychology’s many subfields is featured in the substantive chapters that make up this handbook.

But before we start our brief review, we would like to make a disclaimer. The history of a science is always written from the perspective of the “here and now”—the position one is in at that moment. The historian is looking back trying to figure out how it all started, and how we got from there to here (Farr, 1996). It should be obvious that the “here and now” is not a position that is fixed in space and time. A European social psychologist might see the history of social psychology differently from a North American, and a discourse analyst or social constructionist differently from an experimental social psychologist. And had the sociological social psychology approach become dominant in modern social psychology, our history would highlight a different group of heroes and a different type of themes altogether (Lubek & Apfelbaum, 2000). We would certainly be unlikely to attempt to trace our origins back to the first social psychological experiment. But since science develops over time, even an experimental social psychologist writing in 2010 might perceive our history differently from somebody writing in 1950. Researchers who seemed to have made major contributions to our field from the perspective of the year 1950 might loom much less large in 2010, while others might only now be recognized. Thus, the historical perspective presented in this chapter is strongly influenced by our biographies as social psychologists, which in turn influenced our perspective on the field. However, the argument that there are multiple histories

should not lessen the value of each individual history. On the contrary, each history becomes itself a historical document that tells us what the history of social psychology looked like at that particular time and space and from the scientific perspective from which it was written.

The beginnings

The term *social psychology* was coined by the Italian journalist and politician Carlo Cattaneo in an article published in 1864 in *Il Politecnico*, a journal he had founded himself (Jahoda, 2007). However, the article was not really about social psychology in general, but attempted to apply Hegel’s ideas to interpersonal interactions and argued that in all spheres of human endeavor, the clash of conflicting ideas resulted in the generation of new ones (Jahoda, 2007). Since *Il Politecnico* was not a widely read journal, Jahoda suggests that the wider adoption of the concept should probably be traced back to Gustav Adolph Lindner (1871), a professor at Prague University, who used the term in his book *Ideen zur Psychologie der Gesellschaft als Grundlage der Sozialwissenschaft* (Ideas for a Psychology of Society as Foundation of Social Science). Lindner’s discussion of the position of social psychology is reminiscent of later definitions by Floyd Allport and therefore is worth citing: “The task of social psychology is the description and explanation of those phenomena that depend on the mutual psychic effects of individuals, and on which the total mental life of society rests. Society is nothing apart from individuals; hence its mental life cannot be other than that which occurs within the individual consciousness of its members” (1871, p. 14; translation Jahoda). However, Lindner continues somewhat inconsistently: “Yet that social psychology none the less has its own sphere different from that of individual psychology arises from the fact that the mutual psychological effects, which constitute its subject matter, can only be observed in society” (1871, p. 14).

Although important contributions to social psychology were made in the following four decades by Gustave Le Bon and Gabriel Tarde in France, Georg Simmel in Germany, and James Mark Baldwin and George Herbert Mead in the USA, the recorded beginning of scientific social psychology is often traced to the year 1908, when the first two textbooks of social psychology were published—one by a sociologist (Ross, 1908); the other by a psychologist (McDougall, 1908). An alternative,

even earlier, date is the 1898 publication of a study by Norman Triplett, generally believed to report the first social psychological experiment. Triplett had young boys and girls pull in a fishing reel as fast as possible and they had to perform this task either in pairs or alone. Rather than randomly assigning his participants to the two conditions, Triplett had each participant do three trials alone and three in pairs, alternating these conditions (i.e., a within-subject design). A few children were slower in competition, some were unaffected, but the majority was faster and the experiment is usually cited as demonstrating the effects of what later became known as social facilitation, the phenomenon whereby the performance of simple tasks is facilitated by the presence of an audience or of others working on the same task.

Haines and Vaughan (1979) have argued that there were other experiments before 1898 deserving to be called social psychological, such as studies on suggestibility (e.g., Binet, Phillipe, Coutier, & Henri, 1894). But social psychological experiments may have been performed even earlier by the French agricultural engineer, Max Ringelmann, who between 1882 and 1887 conducted investigations into the maximum performance of workers who pull a load horizontally (Kravitz & Martin, 1986). Although the comparison of individual and group performance was of secondary interest to him, he found the first evidence of productivity loss in groups—a phenomenon that was later named “social loafing.” Ringelmann found that eight men who pull at a rope together achieve only about 50% of the pulling power that could be expected on the basis of their pulling measured individually. However, since Ringelmann only published this research in 1913, Triplett predates him certainly as far as publication is concerned.

This search for the origins of social psychology raises an interesting question, namely whether the first textbook or the first empirical study is a more important marker of the origin of our field. For a textbook to be written on social psychology, there need to be social psychological theorizing and research with which to fill the pages of that book. This would suggest that one needs to search beyond the first textbook for the roots of social psychology. However, we would argue that the first textbook is more important, because it defines the field. It categorizes certain research and certain issues as social psychological, which previously might have been considered part of sport psychology or industrial psychology, while other research and other issues are not included. In contrast, it seems less important whether Triplett or Ringelmann conducted the first experiment that we might now consider social psychological because neither researcher was really interested in the social psychological implications of his study. However, our urge to mark the origin of our discipline with the first experiment rather than the first social psychological theory or social psychological field study is another illustration of the fact that historical accounts are always biased by the here and now.

Though the 1908 date is significant, a more meaningful date for the emergence of scientific social psychology is the year 1924, because it marks the appearance of Floyd Allport's

seminal textbook, which explicitly delineates the domain of social psychology as the *experimental* study of social behavior. In turn, the latter was defined as “behavior in which the responses either serve as social stimuli or are evoked by social stimuli” (p. 148). Significantly, Allport postulated that social psychology “is part of the psychology of the individual, whose behavior it studies in relation to that sector of the environment comprised by his fellows” (p. 4; emphasis in original). “For . . . only within the individual can we find the behavioral mechanisms and the consciousness which are fundamental in the interactions between individuals” (p. vi).

Given the importance we attach to Allport's (1924) book, it is worth noting that his methodological approach was only made feasible by his break with the more traditional conceptions of the social that were accepted by other social scientists around the turn of the century. As Danziger (2000) commented, the social effects that primarily concerned such disciplines as political economy, ethnology, sociology, historical linguistics, or *Völkerpsychologie*¹ had characteristics that would have been impossible to study in the laboratory. By reducing social psychology to the study of individual responses to social stimuli, with social stimuli being other people, the laboratory experiment became a feasible method for the study of social behavior.

This raises the question how Allport came to arrive at this specific conception of social psychology. Allport's research program developed from the experimental research on social facilitation, which he did for his doctorate. This topic had been suggested to him by Hugo Münsterberg, a German, who was professor of psychology at Harvard University. As Allport acknowledged in the preface of his textbook: “For the origin of my interest in social psychology I am indebted to the memory of Hugo Münsterberg. It was he who suggested the setting for my first experiments and who foresaw many of the possibilities which have been developed in this book” (Allport, 1924, p. vii).

In his social facilitation research, Allport studied the impact that the presence (or absence) of co-acting individuals had on individual performance. This experimental paradigm, which had the defining characteristics that Allport attributed to all social psychological research, had been developed “in Germany by August Mayer, Meumann, Moede and others . . . prior to 1915” (Allport, 1924, p. 304). Allport's research was most strongly influenced by the work of Walther Moede. Although Moede's monograph *Experimentelle Massenpsychologie: Beiträge zur Experimentalpsychologie der Gruppe* (Experimental Crowd Psychology: Contributions to the Experimental Psychology of the Group) was published only in 1920, the actual research had been done in 1913 (Moede, 1920), but publication was delayed because of the First World War. As Jahoda (2007, p. 173) stated: “The book contains the first systematic and detailed consideration as to how the methods of general experimental psychology could be adapted to the study of groups. Although the experiments used a great variety of tasks, they all dealt with the effects of the presence of varying numbers of others on performance, mere presence being distinguished from competitive situations.”

The fact that Allport's conception of social psychology has been strongly influenced by the use of an experimental paradigm that had been developed in Germany suggests a strong German influence on the very conception of social psychology in the USA. It is therefore interesting to speculate why Moede's research did not stimulate a similar development in Germany. There are several reasons: First, Moede's monograph was his "Habilitationsschrift," a second higher-level dissertation required in Germany to qualify for a professorship (i.e., the "Venia Legendi"). Writing a textbook would not be appropriate for such a qualification in most departments with an experimental tradition. Second, Moede considered his experimental paradigm as an analogue for a very specific social situation, namely being in a crowd. Like the participants in his experiments, individuals in crowds typically have no joint past history. Crowd effects are due to individuals functioning as social stimuli for each other (Danziger, 2000). Thus, as Danziger (2000) argued, Moede limited his insights to the field of crowd psychology (i.e., *Massenpsychologie*), whereas Allport generalized them to the social as such and could thus present his experimental program as a contribution to the much broader field of social psychology. Finally, and most importantly, the First World War interrupted Moede's experimental research. During the war he developed and applied aptitude tests for military drivers. After the war Germany had other problems and Moede became a pioneer of applied psychology in Germany. It is therefore ironic that although his influence did not stimulate the development of social psychology in Germany at that time, it exerted a delayed effect after the Second World War, when German social psychology developed under American influence.

The early phase

Despite Floyd Allport's precise definition of social psychology in 1924, the young field continued to grope for its identity in the years immediately following. Carl Murchison's 1935 publication of the first *Handbook of Social Psychology* reflects the fluidity of the field at the time, covering topics nobody would consider social psychological these days, from the "population behavior of bacteria" to the "social history of the yellow man." Only three chapters in this volume are truly social psychological in the modern sense (i.e., that they are also covered in contemporary handbooks): Gordon Allport's chapter on attitudes, Dashiell's chapter on the influence of the social situation on the behavior of "individual human adults," and Cox Miles's chapter on gender differences. But there are other chapters that remind one of how much narrower social psychology has become over the years. For example, there are chapters on language by Esper, on age in human society by Miles, on material culture by Wissler, and on the physical environment by Shelford.

There were other significant contributions in the years between the two World Wars, which had a lasting influence in shaping social psychology. To name only a few: Thurstone (1928) published a paper with the provocative title, "Attitudes

can be measured," which not only started research on attitude measurement but later also influenced research on social judgments (see Eiser, and Briñol & Petty, this volume). Thurstone became interested in the measurement of attitudes after reading Bogardus' (1925) publication on measuring social distance. To understand the title of his paper, it is important to know that the gurus of the period took the view that such measurement was impossible (Jahoda, 2007). Sherif (1936) published *The Psychology of Social Norms* based on his dissertation supervised by Gardner Murphy at Columbia University. His theoretical framework shows a strong influence of Gestalt psychology, probably due to his stay at Berlin in 1933 to 1934 where he attended the lectures of Wolfgang Köhler. Finally, Newcomb (1943) published *Personality and Social Change*, a study of attitude formation in the student community of Bennington College. Newcomb's study is important not only because it demonstrated the impact of social influence on attitudes in a field setting (see Briñol & Petty, and Prislín & Crano, this volume), but also because it illustrates the attitude change that occurs when new members are socialized into a group (Levine & Moreland, this volume).

Growth and expansion in the 1930s and 1940s

The Second World War greatly stimulated interest in social psychological research. The Information and Education Branch of the US Army initiated surveys and experiments to assess the impact of Army propaganda films on the morale of their soldiers. One social psychologist who became heavily involved in this work was Carl Iver Hovland. Originally a learning theorist, Hovland became fascinated by the experimental study of the determinants of attitude change, and the work he directed during his army years on "experiments in mass communication" was eventually published as one of the volumes of the *American Soldier* series under the editorship of the sociologist Stouffer (Hovland, Lumsdaine, & Sheffield, 1949).

After the war, Hovland founded the Yale Communication and Attitude Change Program, which he directed until his premature death in 1961. This program attracted young researchers from a variety of universities and generated a stream of collaborative studies that set the research agenda for attitude change research well into the 1980s. The program resulted in the publication of four highly influential volumes on studies of the determinants of persuasion and attitude change (Hovland, Janis, & Kelley, 1953; Hovland, 1957; Hovland & Janis, 1959; Rosenberg, Hovland, McGuire, Abelson, & Brehm, 1960; Sherif & Hovland, 1961).

Beyond the war effort itself, which stimulated social psychological research, the field has benefited from the fact that Hitler's regime forced the emigration of Jewish academics from Germany, some of whom were psychologists of considerable stature (e.g., Köhler, Koffka, Lewin, Wertheimer). For social psychology, the most important of these *émigrés* was Kurt Lewin. Lewin left the Berlin Psychological Institute in 1933 for the Department of Home Economics at Cornell University, and moved to the Iowa Child Research Station in 1935. In 1945 he established the

Research Center for Group Dynamics at the Massachusetts Institute of Technology, which after his premature death in 1947 (aged 57 years) was moved to the University of Michigan.

Lewin's approach to social psychology had two characteristics that were novel at the time and account for the considerable impact he had on social psychology. For him, a problem was only worth studying if addressing it would make a difference with regard to real-world problems (Festinger, 1980). Second, and more importantly, he insisted on studying such problems experimentally and on creating in the laboratory powerful situations that made a big difference (Festinger, 1980).

He instilled these ideas in his graduate students, and his impact on social psychology was mainly due to these graduate students, who nearly all became leaders of the field during the second half of the last century. Figures such as Kurt Back, Alex Bavelas, Dorwin Cartwright, Morton Deutsch, Leon Festinger, Harold Kelley, Stanley Schachter, John Thibaut, Eric Wright, and Alvin Zander were among Lewin's graduate students, the "apostles" who spread his scientific philosophy and approach, and whose work significantly shaped the field of experimental social psychology (Marrow, 1969). Lewin's most influential student was undoubtedly Leon Festinger, whose theory of cognitive dissonance (Festinger, 1957) dominated the research agenda in social psychology during the 1960s and 1970s. Festinger's prior work on communication in small groups (Festinger, 1950) and on social comparison processes (Festinger, 1954) had lesser impact though these are generally regarded as seminal contributions to social psychology and are still referred to today.

Most of Lewin's graduate students became experimentalists, but they did not all adopt the Lewinian approach of conducting experiments. Although Festinger (1980) wrote admiringly, "out of . . . an orientation in which a priori 'importance of problem' reigned supreme there emerged a methodological approach that was distinctive . . . Who would have imagined doing a 'scientific experiment' in which the independent variable to be manipulated was autocratic versus democratic atmospheres?" (p. 239). In fact, variables such as group atmosphere, group cohesiveness, and group goals would have been considered blatant examples of the group fallacy (i.e., the assumption of the existence of a collective or group mind) by Allport (1924). However, Festinger's attitude towards Lewin's methodological approach was not without ambivalence. He also commented that "no one can describe with reasonable precision, all the facets that were experimentally varied in those studies . . . I still have no conceptual understanding of what all the differences were between these procedures" (p. 239). As Danziger (2000) argued, for Festinger the manipulation of a large and complex set of variables rather than isolating and precisely manipulating a single variable or a small set of variables was highly dubious. And the Campbell and Stanley (1967) chapter on experimental methods, which served as a guide for experimental social psychologists in the following decades, certainly had more affinity with Allport's than with Lewin's approach to doing experiments.

The arrival in the US of the Austrian Fritz Heider had another major impact, although in this case Hitler cannot take credit for

the contribution (Heider, 1983). Heider came to the States in 1930 to work with Kurt Koffka, who was then at Smith College in Northampton, Massachusetts. He had initially planned to stay for only one year, but decided to remain when he fell in love with Grace Moore, whom he later married. He moved to the University of Kansas in 1947, where he remained until his retirement in 1966.

Heider's impact on the field is intriguing, because he was not a prolific writer, attracted few graduate students, and, with the exception of one classic study (Heider & Simmel, 1944), published no experimental research in social psychology. And yet he stimulated two of the theoretical traditions that dominated social psychology during the second half of the last century, namely consistency theory and attribution theory.

With his paper on balance theory in 1946, Heider developed the notion central to consistency theories that inconsistency between our attitudes and beliefs creates tension in our cognitive system and a tendency to establish consistency. Although only a limited amount of research has been conducted to test Heider's balance theory, the theory stimulated the development of other consistency theories, most importantly the theory of cognitive dissonance.

With his paper on phenomenal causality published in 1944 and his monograph *The Psychology of Interpersonal Relations* published in 1958, Heider initiated another important theoretical perspective, namely attribution theory. Attribution theory is a social psychological theory about how individuals manage to infer the "causes" underlying their own and others' behavior. The impact of attribution theory in stimulating a great deal of research in the 1960s and 1970s is intriguing, because neither Heider's (1958) monograph nor his 1944 article was written in a way that would make it accessible or appealing to the average researcher in North America. There was also very little research to back up Heider's ideas. We suspect that attribution theory became influential because three major figures in the field of social psychology adopted it and translated it into a language that was more accessible to social psychologists (Jones & Davis, 1965; Kelley, 1967; Weiner, 1979). Probably most influential was Kelley's (1967) covariation model of attribution. This model was appealing because Kelley argued that in inferring causes of behavior, our inference process would be analogous to conducting an analysis of variance, a statistical procedure highly familiar to social psychologists. Other influential adaptations of attribution theory were the correspondent inference theory of Jones and Davis (1965) and Weiner's (1979) application of attribution theory to achievement motivation and emotion.

A final way in which the rise of Nazism and the Second World War influenced the development of social psychology was by stimulating interest in particular topics. For example, the question of how the German people could accept such an authoritarian regime, and how people could execute commands they must have perceived as criminal even at the time, stimulated some of the most influential research in social psychology. Thus, researchers studied the authoritarian personality (Adorno, Frenkel-Brunswick, Levinson, & Sanford, 1950), and the

determinants of conformity (Asch, 1955) and obedience (Milgram, 1963). Lewin's interest in the effects of authoritarian and democratic leadership style can be seen as an attempt to demonstrate the superiority of the democratic style—an attempt that was only partly effective, because autocratically led groups actually outperformed the democratic groups with regard to quantity of production (White & Lippitt, 1968).

The crisis in social psychology

In the late 1960s and early 1970s social psychological research expanded enormously and there was soon no single psychology department at a top university that did not also have a strong social psychology unit. But just when social psychology was on the up and up, it ran into a crisis of confidence that led to years of infighting about the right course of social psychology. Instrumental to the launching of the crisis were, arguably, two critical papers published in 1967 and 1973.

The critique

Kenneth Ring's 1967 paper was provocatively entitled "Experimental social psychology: Some sober questions about some frivolous values," and it contrasted the vision of Kurt Lewin of a social psychology aimed at solving important social problems with what Ring called the "fun and games" attitude of the social psychology of his own days.

Ring, although a respected researcher, was not a very central figure in the social psychology of his days; accordingly, the paper stimulated some discussion but did not really have a serious impact on the field. However, in 1973, a rising star of experimental social psychology, Kenneth Gergen, published a paper entitled "Social psychology as history" in the *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*. Unlike Ring's paper, which questioned social psychology's values, Gergen's questioned its scientific status and its very potential to elucidate human social behavior. His two most important arguments were (1) that knowledge of social psychological principles could change our behavior in ways that would negate these principles, and (2) that since the basic motives assumed by many of our theories are unlikely to be genetically determined, they might be affected by cultural change. Gergen's (1973) critique evoked a spirited and thoughtful reaction from Barry Schlenker (1974), and the debate raged on.

At that time, the collective self-esteem of social psychologists had been undermined by other developments as well. For one, there was an attack on the attitude concept, and the notion that attitudes can predict behavior. In a review of studies that empirically assessed the attitude-behavior relation, the sociologist Alan Wicker (1969) drew the devastating conclusion that considerable bodies of research belie the major *raison d'être* for studying attitudes in the first place, namely the expectation that attitudes are meaningfully related to behavior.

Around the same time, a series of papers were published that were highly critical of the experimental method used in social

psychological studies. Thus, Orne (1962) had suggested that most experimental situations contained "demand characteristics" that would help research participants to guess the hypothesis to be tested in a given study. Since participants typically tried to be "good subjects," Orne argued, they would then do their best to support these hypotheses. Even more damaging was the suggestion of Rosenthal (Rosenthal & Fode, 1963) that the expectations of the experimenter might influence the behavior of research participants, even without their knowledge. The impact of these expectations on the behavior of research participants could, for example, be mediated by experimenters reacting positively to responses that supported their hypotheses and negatively to responses that were inconsistent with expectations. Critiques of the social psychology experiment were responded to, and their specific allegations reconsidered in several papers devoted to this topic (e.g., Kruglanski, 1975, 1976; Weber & Cook, 1974).

In addition, numerous conferences were organized in which the crisis was being discussed, sometimes in rather heated language. Although these conferences resulted in a number of crisis books (e.g., Strickland, Aboud, & Gergen, 1976), they failed to bridge the theoretical and methodological chasm that separated the critics from mainstream social psychology. The critics finally founded their own social psychological schools, such as social constructionism in the US (e.g., Gergen, 1999) and discourse analysis in Great Britain (e.g., Potter & Wetherell, 1987), which developed their own methodologies to address these problems (see Gergen, this volume).

Responding to the critique

In mainstream social psychology a number of developments were initiated, which over the years helped to alleviate some of the problems highlighted by these critics. The allegation that social psychology is unserious ("fun and games") was responded to by social psychologists' embracing of research paradigms associated with the more traditionally scientific domains of psychology, namely cognitive psychology and later biological psychology. The "social cognition" movement that began in the 1970s adopted the conceptual terminology (e.g., reflecting concern with issues of "retrieval," "encoding," "storage," and so on) as well as the methods (priming, cognitive load placement, reaction time techniques) of cognitive science. About a decade later the field of social neuroscience began to emerge (see Cacioppo, Berntson, & Decety, this volume) with strong substantive (concern with the autonomic nervous system and the brain) and methodological (e.g., magnetic imaging) ties to the general neuroscience community. A different, biologically oriented, area of psychology that witnessed a strong development in the post-crisis years was the field of evolutionary social psychology (see Kenrick & Cohen, this volume). By their deep-reaching ties to venerated scientific traditions these new developments readily evaded the criticisms of flippancy and levity leveled at the earlier social psychological experimentation.

In the post-crisis era social psychologists in general have tried to design their experimental manipulations in ways that would minimize the threat of demand characteristics. Also, the fact that many research participants do not even meet experimenters any more, because experiments are often run on the computer by computer programs, certainly rule out experimenter expectancy effects. Finally, the depressing fact that most experiments do not work out the way they were expected to by the experimenter, who designed them, also appeared to suggest that these effects cannot be all that powerful. Festinger (1980) most aptly expressed these feelings when he wrote: "I've always wondered why, if these spurious experimenter effects were so strong, so many of my own experiments did not show the expected results" (p. 252).

In a rather different vein, social psychologists have begun to demonstrate their ability to contribute to the solution of real-life problems by developing several applied areas, such as health psychology, social psychology of the law, and political social psychology.

The notion that social psychological research did not result in cumulative knowledge has been addressed by the development of meta-analytic procedures (see Crano & Lac, this volume). Meta-analytic procedures allow researchers to integrate statistically the results of independent studies of a given phenomenon, with a view to establishing whether the findings exhibit a pattern of relationships that is reliable across studies (Cooper & Hedges, 1994).

The critique that attitudes fail to predict behavior was countered by theorizing aimed at identifying the conditions under which they do. In this vein, Ajzen and Fishbein (1977) demonstrated that attitudes are related to behavior, if both components are assessed with measures that are reliable and compatible. To be reliable, measures have to consist of multiple items rather than a single item. To be compatible, attitude and behavior have to be assessed at the same level of specificity. Fazio and Zanna (1981) additionally proposed that attitudes are likely to affect behavior if they are based on direct experience, and Fazio (1990) introduced the notion of attitude accessibility as another major factor affecting attitude-behavior consistency.

The most fundamental criticism of the scientific status of social psychology was Gergen's argument that social psychological laws assume human dispositions (e.g., desire to evaluate oneself; need to be consistent), which are likely to be culturally dependent. They would therefore not only vary across cultures but also be affected by cultural change within our culture. Therefore Gergen concluded that theories of social behavior are primarily reflections of contemporary history.

In a spirited response to Gergen (1973), Schlenker (1974) rejected Gergen's arguments on epistemological grounds, but added that many of Gergen's "apparently philosophical arguments against the existence of certain transcultural and trans-theoretical theories are really empirical issues, and the available evidence fails to support his claims" (p. 12).

More recent research (Nisbett, Peng, Choi, & Norenzayan, 2001) has been interpreted in ways compatible with Gergen's

(1973) relativistic argument. For example, based on a review of their work on cultural differences in "holistic" versus "analytic" cognitions, Nisbett and colleagues (2001) concluded "that the results discussed here force consideration of the possibility that an indefinitely large number of presumably 'basic' cognitive processes may be highly malleable" (p. 305). Whereas the jury is still out on whether there exist universal psychological processes versus qualitatively different thinking processes for different cultures, it is important to meet the challenge empirically (see Kashima & Gelfand, this volume). We can then investigate whether observed cultural differences invalidate present social psychological theories or mainly reflect different specific culturally determined operations of the same universal processes. An effective way to achieve this is to develop a global network of social psychological research departments at universities on different continents and in different cultures. We have come some way towards achieving this, as we will discuss in the last section of this chapter.

It is interesting that Festinger suggested this solution as early as 1962 in a proposal to the US Social Science Research Council (SSRC), the main funding source for social psychological research at that time. He argued that since 99% of research in social psychology had been carried out in the USA, one could question whether something was being learned from this research about humans in general (Moscovici & Marková, 2006). Festinger rejected the idea that this problem could be rectified by simply replicating experiments around the globe. This had been tried in the past, for example by replicating the Schachter study on deviation and rejection simultaneously in seven different European countries (Schachter et al., 1954). The problem with this type of endeavor was that evidence neither of differences nor of the lack of differences is clearly interpretable.² Festinger proposed the formation of an international committee, which would bring together some of the most active and promising researchers in different countries in order to locate some areas of common theoretical interest from which indigenous research in each country could start. According to a report given by the president of the SSRC, Festinger had argued that "what is necessary is sufficient training of, interaction with, and opportunities for research for social psychologists in widely diverse places so that within each country there are indigenous research programs developed, sparked by the ideas which the local investigator has and nourished by theoretical interaction with psychologists in other countries. The international social psychology will gradually come about as a result of having to formulate theories and explanations of diverse data" (cited in Moscovici & Marková, p. 17).

The development of social psychology in other parts of the world

European social psychology

Until the end of the Second World War, the development of social psychology as a discipline was largely restricted to the

USA. However, as mentioned earlier, even before the influx of academic refugees in the 1930s there was a great deal of European influence on this development. Allport's (1924) work on social facilitation had been stimulated by one of his academic teachers at Harvard, the German Hugo Münsterberg, who in turn was familiar with similar work that had been done in Germany by Moede (1920). The experimental work of Bartlett (1932) in Britain on remembering can be viewed as a major precursor of contemporary research on social cognition. And finally, the theorizing underlying Sherif's (1936) studies of norm development is influenced by Gestalt psychology.

However, even though there were individuals in Europe who conducted research that could be considered social psychological, there was no unitary social psychology on this continent, nor an interactive community of social psychological researchers that afforded contact and cross-stimulation. This situation continued into the 1960s, although social psychology groups had been established at a number of European universities. For example, in Germany, Irle held a chair in social psychology at Mannheim (in the department of sociology), *Irle* occupied a social psychology chair at Cologne and *Hofstätter* at Hamburg. In Great Britain, *Hilde Himmelweit* had a chair at the London School of Economics, *Argyle* and *Tajfel* were lecturers at Oxford, and *Jahoda* had a chair of social psychology at Glasgow. In Belgium, *Nuttin (Jr.)* was Professor of Social Psychology at the University of Louvain. In the Netherlands, *Rabbie* and *Mulder* were at Utrecht and *Jaspars* was at Nijmegen. And in France, *Pagès* and *Moscovici* were at the Sorbonne (Paris), with *Moscovici* later moving to the *Ecole Pratique des Hautes Études* (later known as the *Ecole des Hautes Etudes En Sciences Sociales*) in Paris. Thus, there was social psychology in Europe, but there was no European social psychology: There was no European collaboration and most of these researchers had not met each other, nor were they even aware of each others' work.

Given the dominance of North American social psychology at that time, it is no coincidence that it was again an American, namely *John Lanzetta*, who set things in motion in 1963. There had been an earlier initiative by *Erik Rinde* from Norway, who, together with *David Krech* from the United States, brought together several American and more than 30 European social psychologists and sociologists to collaborate on the cross-national study of threat and rejection in the 1950s. However, the effects of this initiative had long disappeared when *Lanzetta*, then Professor of Social Psychology at the University of Delaware, spent his first sabbatical year in London in 1963 as a liaison scientist for the US Office of Naval Research (ONR). During his travels around Europe, where he visited various social psychology groups, *Lanzetta* was struck by the fact that many of these colleagues, though well informed about US social psychology, were not really aware of social psychological research in neighboring European countries. He decided to change this and proceeded to raise funds for a first European Conference on Experimental Social Psychology held in Sorrento, Italy in 1963 (*Nuttin, 1990*). This conference was jointly financed by the SSRC and the ONR.

The planning committee for this conference (*Mulder, Pagès, Tajfel, Rommetveit, and Thibaut*) decided to prepare a proposal for the development of experimental social psychology in Europe (actually written by *Lanzetta*). Among the initiatives suggested in this proposal were short exchange visits between European departments, a second European conference, and, perhaps most importantly, a 4–6 week Summer Research Training Institute for advanced students who had difficulty in obtaining training in experimental social psychology at their own universities, to be held at a European location (*Nuttin, 1990*). The planning committee decided to submit this proposal again to the SSRC. It was therefore fortunate that in line with *Festinger's* proposal, the SSRC had established a "Committee on Transnational Social Psychology" in 1964, of which *Lanzetta* was also a member. The committee was chaired by *Festinger* and had an equal number of American and European members. At its first meeting in 1964 this Transnational Committee enthusiastically supported the proposals of the Sorrento planning committee.

Thus, the Second European Conference on Social Psychology was held in 1964 in Frascati, Italy. At that meeting, it was decided to elect a "European Planning Committee," consisting of *Jahoda, Moscovici, Mulder, Nuttin (Jr.), and Tajfel (Nuttin, 1990)*. This committee, charged with developing some organizational structure for European social psychology, met just a few weeks later in Louvain. There *Moscovici* suggested a third European conference to be held in Paris. Funding was likely to be provided by the *École Pratique des Hautes Études*, where he had just been appointed professor of social psychology. Although other committee members made other suggestions, the Paris conference was the only one that had the backing of an institution (*Moscovici & Marková, 2006*). As planned, the Third European Conference on Experimental Social Psychology was held at the beautiful *Royaumont Abbey* near Paris in 1966, with board, lodging, and travel expenses for all 30 participants (28 Europeans, two Americans) paid through grants from the *Royaumont Foundation* and the *École des Hautes Études*. During a business meeting *Moscovici* was elected the first president of what now became formally known as the European Association of Experimental Social Psychology (later "Experimental" was dropped, and its abbreviation became EASP). Joined by *Irle* and *Rommetveit*, the members of the planning committee formed the first Executive Committee of the new association.

The European Association engaged in a number of regular activities, which had great impact on the development of social psychology in Europe. In the early years, the EASP continued to collaborate closely with the Transnational Committee of the SSRC, even though most of the EASP activities were now funded by other sources (e.g., Ford Foundation, Volkswagen Stiftung). Arguably, the most important of these were the summer schools for advanced students. In the early years, the faculty at these training institutes was nearly exclusively American. In later years, the summer school faculty became predominantly European, an indication of the growing quality

and self-confidence of European social psychologists. To appreciate the importance of these summer schools, one has to remember that in the early 1960s there were no social psychologists at most European universities, and that most students knew the area only from reading books. Furthermore, students from Eastern European countries, for whose travel and attendance the association usually raised grant money, often had little if any chance to be trained in social psychology at their home universities. Now they had the opportunity to receive training from stellar social psychological theorists and researchers. And since the participants at these summer schools often became leading researchers in the field themselves, the summer schools also contributed to the development of social networks and established strong and long-lasting ties between young European researchers.

Also noteworthy was the decision to publish a uniquely European journal and to launch several European book series. The importance of these initiatives can hardly be overestimated. Editors have an often underestimated role as gatekeepers. They ultimately decide what gets published or not, and this decision is undoubtedly influenced by value judgments. Having Europeans as gatekeepers made it easier for European social psychologists to publish research that might not have appealed to American social psychologists, at least not at first. Indeed, the *European Journal of Social Psychology*, established in 1970, initially published what was then considered typically “European” research (e.g., minimal group studies; experiments on minority influence). Other European publications were the *European Monograph* series (edited by Tajfel) and the *European Review of Social Psychology* (edited by Stroebe and Hewstone). The first edition of the European textbook (by Hewstone, Stroebe, Codol and Stephenson) was published in 1988. Its important objective was to feature social psychological research in Europe, which tended to be underrepresented in American textbooks.

A third important initiative was the regular organization of conferences. There were first the plenary meetings of the full membership, held every three years, and secondly the smaller East–West meetings. The latter were small conferences on specific topics, where half the participants came from Eastern European countries. In those days, the fact that the currencies of Eastern European countries often could not be converted into Western currencies was a great barrier for the travel of Eastern European academics to the West (at least as concerns travels that were not financed by the government). Furthermore, some academics working in Eastern bloc countries were not even allowed to travel to the West. Since the East–West meetings as well as the plenary meetings were alternately held in the East and the West of Europe, and since the organizers did not collect fees from participants, these were important forums where social psychologists from East and West could meet and interact.

Because it delivered useful services to its members, the European Association was highly attractive to European social psychologists. It is thus not surprising, that, despite self-imposed caps on annual admission written into the statutes of the Association, its membership grew at a phenomenal rate, from

fewer than 100 members in 1970 to more than 1,000 in 2005. During this period, scientific development in social psychology also changed from constituting largely a “one-way street,” with American ideas being adopted in Europe but not vice versa, to a state of reciprocal influence, where Europeans increasingly contributed significant theoretical ideas and research findings to effect general scientific progress in the field.

Probably the two most important examples of European ideas influencing social psychology in the States are research on intergroup behavior and on minority influence (see chapters by Dovidio et al. and Prisman & Crano). Investigations of intergroup behavior turned into a major research area only after the research of Tajfel and colleagues with the minimal group paradigm (Tajfel, 1970; Tajfel, Billig, Bundy, & Flament, 1971). This paradigm was developed to investigate the minimal conditions required for discrimination to occur between groups, and offered an easy and economical procedure for the study of intergroup behavior. Studies with the minimal group paradigm have demonstrated that even totally meaningless distinctions between groups can trigger a tendency to favour one’s own group over the outgroup. Some years later, social identity theory put forth by Tajfel and Turner offered a theoretical framework to account for findings obtained in that paradigm (Tajfel, 1974; Tajfel & Turner, 1979; Turner, 1975).

The second major theoretical innovation initiated in Europe was research on minority influence. Social influence research in the States, carried out in the 1950s and the 1960s, focused exclusively on conformity to majority pressures, exemplifying majority influence. It was Moscovici who first pointed out that this type of theorizing could hardly explain social or religious innovations, where powerless minorities influenced powerful majorities (e.g., women’s rights, Christianity). After Moscovici and his colleagues at Paris (Moscovici, Lage, & Naffrechoux, 1969) had published a number of studies demonstrating minority influence, and offered a theory capable of accounting for these effects, minority influence became a major research area both in the US and in Europe (Moscovici, 1976).

Asian social psychology

American and European social psychologies have been inherently interconnected not only by dint of their common cultural heritage but also because US social psychology was to a large extent shaped by European *émigrés*, as described earlier. Asian social psychology developed against a very different cultural background, which contained rich commentary on psychological topics. Although indigenous psychological thought has existed in China and India for thousands of years, for instance in the writings of Confucius and Mencius, the appearance of Western psychology in Asia dates to the late 19th and early 20th centuries. In the initial phase, Asia primarily supplied raw materials for Western (European and American) researchers, specifically data collected by indigenous researchers who served as collaborators of Western investigators. At that time, Western psychology was imported to Asia whole-cloth,

including theories, paradigms and methods. In the late 1960s, a movement toward uniquely Asian psychology had begun. Thus, Murphy and Murphy edited a book entitled *Asian psychology* in 1968. And in 1987 a symposium took place titled “Historical Development of Psychology in Asia,” followed by an edited volume (Blowers & Turtle, 1987). Haslam and Kashima’s (2010) recent bibliometric study showed a strong presence of Indian research in the 1970s, which was overtaken by a growth of Hong Kong and Japanese research in the 1980s. An exponential increase in Asian publication began in the 1990s, coinciding with the growth of research in culture and psychology.

Prompted by this trend, the Asian Association of Social Psychology (AASP) was formed in 1995. Its stated objectives were to promote the development of social psychological research and application in the Asia-Pacific region, including the exploration of indigenous contributions from Asian psychological traditions to the discipline of psychology. The formation of a cohesive Asian social psychology faced the obstacle of defining what is common to the various Asian cultures, beyond their national uniqueness. Arguably, this feat was more difficult to accomplish than the formation of a unified European social psychology, which benefited from political and economic drivers behind the formation of the European Union (Liu & Ng, 2007).

Uichol Kim (1998, p. iv) defined the purpose of forming Asian social psychology as a response to the “need to create a ‘third force’ in social psychology.” Asian social psychology has been branded as “cultural” in the same way that American social psychology has been branded as “individual” and European social psychology as “societal.” At present the center of Asian social psychology consists of communities of researchers in Japan, South Korea and several countries with significant Chinese populations (primarily Hong Kong, Taiwan, and Singapore). It also has strong ties to Australia and New Zealand, where its fourth and sixth conferences took place. In particular, the 4th conference in Melbourne was held jointly with the Society for Australasian Social Psychologists, the association that encompasses both Australia and New Zealand.

Uichol Kim was the main architect of the Asian Association, and it was he who brought Kwok Leung, Susumu Yamaguchi, and Yoshihisa Kashima on board, and organized a preparatory workshop in Seoul with San-Chin Choi (first AASP president). Kwok Leung organized the first official meeting of the AASP in 1995 at the Chinese University of Hong Kong. Subsequent AASP conferences took place biannually. The second conference was held in Kyoto, Japan in 1997. The third was in Taipei in 1999. The following ones were successively in Melbourne (2001), Manila (2003), Wellington (2005), Kota Kinabalu (2007), and Delhi (2009).

In 1998 the *Asian Journal of Social Psychology* was founded. It quickly developed into a major publication outlet which, under the able editorships of Uichol Kim, Kwok Leung, and Yoshihisa Kashima, attained a respectable impact factor of .97 in 2004, and a rank of 23 out of 46 international journals in social psychology.

The challenges confronting AASP are intellectual as well as geopolitical. On the intellectual front, Asian social psychology attempts to straddle the divide between the parochial and the “Olympian.” The parochial aspect strives for an indigenously Asian social psychology (Kim & Berry, 1993); that is, culturally informed social psychology “connected to Asian soil; knowledgeable of Asian behavior and its cultural meanings; and for the betterment of Asian people” (Liu & Ng, 2007, p. 2). Useful in this connection is Enriquez’s (1990) distinction between indigenization from within and from without. Indigenization from without can be characterized as “top-down”; it concerns the importation of universal social psychological theories developed outside of a given culture, and their translation into specific cultural terms. Indigenization from within may be characterized as “bottom-up”; it concerns insights gleaned from cultural observations and the construction of theories and methods uniquely informed by those insights. Highly cited scholars with an indigenous perspective have been Kuo-Shu Yang and Uichol Kim (both writing on indigenous psychologies), Kwang-Kuo Hwang (writing on Chinese social behavior), and Fanny Cheung (writing on the Chinese personality).

A discussion related to the indigenous facet of Asian social psychology concerned the role of social psychology in addressing real-world problems of society. Atsumi (2007) voiced a strong plea for an emphasis on applied Asian social psychology. As he put it (p. 32): “Because we, social psychologists, are specialists of human relations, there must be many human or humanitarian issues we could contribute to.” Indeed, the dynamic economic development, political tensions, and climatic challenges that characterize the Asian continent in the 21st century would seem to call for a social psychological discipline that lends a helping hand in addressing the problems of society (Liu & Ng, 2007).

The Olympian aspect recognizes the need of Asian researchers to contribute to the global dialogue within the social psychological community toward uncovering the universal principles of social behavior that transcend geography and culture. This emphasis is strengthened by the fact that most leading Asian social psychologists have been educated either in Europe or in the USA, and maintain strong collaborative ties with colleagues on these continents (Chiu, 2007). There also exists increasing pressure in Asian countries (e.g., China, Japan, Singapore and Taiwan) for academia to internationalize and for scholars to publish their articles in the English language and in high-impact outlets listed in the Social Science Citation Index (SSCI). Highly cited Asian scholars, or scholars who have long worked in Asian universities, with an international perspective have been Durganad Sinha, Yoshi Kashima, Michael Bond, Kwok Leung, Uichol Choi, Susumu Yamaguchi, Colleen Ward, Harry Hui, C. Y. Chiu, and Ying Yi Hong (writing on culture and social psychology), Jyuji Misumi (on leadership), Ramadhar Singh (on judgmental processes and resource allocation), Kenichi Ohbuchi (on conflict and apology), James Liu (on social identity and intergroup relations), Robert Wyer (on social

cognition), Sik-Hung Ng (on power and group relations), Yoshi Kashima (on person perception), Kwok Leung (on justice and conflict), Toshio Yamagishi (on social dilemmas), and Tatsuya Kameda (on group processes) (see Leung, 2007, p. 9).

On the geopolitical front, Asian social psychology faces the challenges of forging a unified community across the many historical divides and fault lines that run through the Asian continent. The conflicts, occupation, and violence that took place there over the past century have left a residue of apprehension and distrust that needs to be overcome in shaping a society of scholars centered around a truly pan-Asian identity. The dominance of Japan during the Second World War, the political divides between China and Taiwan, the wars in Vietnam and Cambodia, the conflict between India and Pakistan, and the tension between the two Koreas have all contributed to a somewhat tense international climate that could be refractory to common scientific initiatives. Yet the science of social psychology is uniquely placed to contribute to international reconciliation from its extensive knowledge base on intergroup relations, so the challenge of getting involved and offering scholarly counsel to the policy community in one's respective countries is considerable. The first step on this road could be the creation of a vibrant "region-wide collaboration" among Asian social psychologists across the continent (Liu & Ng, 2007).

How successful academically has Asian social psychology been so far? Kwok Leung (2007, p. 13) offered the sober assessment that "Asian social psychology [still] lags behind European and American social psychology significantly in terms of the number of active researchers and the overall research quality" and that "Within Asia, social psychology also lags behind science disciplines significantly in terms of achievements and recognition on an international level." Similarly, Ward (2007, p. 28) observed that "when one looks at the publications as a whole, Asian social psychology on the American scene is still next to invisible." Her content analysis of *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* from 1995 to 2004 revealed that 4.1% of the research published included Asian participants and 7.4% included Asian authors.

Nonetheless, it is also true that Asian social psychology is still relatively young, and that it has come an impressively long way since its inception. To quote Ward (2007, p. 29): "A decade of the *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, six international conferences, and four volumes of *Progress in Asian Social Psychology* attest to the vibrancy in the field," and the goals that AASP has set for itself "have been achieved many times over." Substantiating this observation, a bibliometric study of Asian social psychology from 1970 to 2008 (Haslam & Kashima, 2010) has shown a strong growth of Asian-authored publications in social psychology over the four decades, especially since the 1990s, and a particularly strong rising tide of social psychological research in Taiwan and the People's Republic of China in the 21st century. By the counts of Asian first-authored and single-nation publications, Asian social psychology is becoming increasingly autonomous and distinctive.

Social psychology in Australia and New Zealand

Over the past half-century, social psychology has undergone an impressive growth in Australia and New Zealand. Unlike Asian social psychology, which strove to fashion its own unique identity, Australian and New Zealander social psychologists have largely maintained an international focus, and contributed to research efforts on topics common to the scientific communities in the US, the UK, and Europe (Feather, 2005).

In Australia, the beginnings of social psychology can be traced to the first half of the twentieth century. In the 1930s Hugh Fowler, whose doctoral degree was with Charles Spearman at University College, London, initiated social psychological research by drawing on anthropological findings, incorporating Bartlett's insights concerning social influences on cognition, and including in his lectures discussions of Kurt Lewin's dynamic psychology.

The early generations of Australian social psychologists received their graduate training in the US and the UK, following their completion of an undergraduate education in Australia. Typically, they returned to academic posts in their native Australia while maintaining scientific ties with their graduate alma mater. Some of the early "founders" of Australian social psychology were expatriates from North America and Europe, who also had strong scientific and personal connections with centers in the US and the UK.

In 1946, Oscar Oser was appointed to the foundation chair of psychology at the University of Melbourne, and he developed a strong research focus on social psychology informed by sociological analysis (emphasizing issues of social structure, social roles, and social norms). Under Oser's leadership, the program at Melbourne flourished and became a major Australian center of social psychological research informed by cutting-edge theories and methods inspired by the works of Paul Lazarsfeld, Herbert Mead, and Kurt Lewin, among others.

In the 1950s and 1960s, Ronald Taft and Alan Richardson at the University of Western Australia (UWA) in Perth carried out seminal research on the acculturation of immigrants. In those days, social psychological research at UWA constituted a blend of sociological and psychological approaches and emphasized naturalistic research rather than experimental methods.

In the 1960s, several new universities were created in Australia that incorporated social psychological programs into their psychology curricula. These included Macquarie University (1964), La Trobe University (1965), University of Newcastle (1965), and Flinders University (1966). In 1968, Norman Feather (with a PhD from Michigan) was appointed to the foundational chair in psychology at Flinders University and proceeded to develop social psychology as a central academic emphasis within the university. The appointment of Leon Mann (PhD from Yale) to a readership (1972) and then professorship (1973) gave an additional boost to the Flinders social psychology program. Feather and Mann organized a nationwide meeting of social psychologists at Flinders in 1973, known as the Flinders Conference on Social Psychology. This meeting was the first of

what became annual national meetings of Australian social psychologists held at different locations. In 1995, the annual meetings gave rise to an incorporated organization, the Society of Australasian Social Psychology (SASP), representing social psychologists from both Australia and New Zealand.

In those years, social psychological programs were also established in other Australian universities including Macquarie University in Sydney, James Cook University in Townsville, University of New South Wales, University of Adelaide, University of Queensland, and University of Newcastle in New South Wales, among others (Feather, 2005). John Turner, who initially served as faculty at Macquarie University, moved to the Australian National University in Canberra. Turner had previously collaborated with Tajfel on the development of social identity theory, and later developed his own self-categorization theory. Michael Hogg, who moved from Melbourne to the University of Queensland, contributed to the propagation of social identity theory and related concepts, and together with John Turner was responsible for establishing Australia as a major international center for the study of social identity/self-categorization ideas. The Brisbane symposium on social identity is held annually at the University of Queensland.

A major center for social psychological research emerged in the 1990s at the University of New South Wales under the leadership of Joe Forgas. It is known internationally for, among other things, the annual Sydney Symposium on Social Psychology (SSSP) that it offers, which features an international group of invited speakers. The topics of SSSP meetings vary from year to year and reflect the major cutting-edge research programs in social psychology worldwide. A series of volumes containing chapters based on the presentations at each SSSP meeting is published annually.

Throughout its history, New Zealand social psychologists have actively participated in SASP meetings. Two presidents of the society were from New Zealand—Graham Vaughan (University of Auckland) and Lucy Johnston (University of Canterbury)—and there have always been NZ presenters at the annual SSSP conference.

According to Feather (2005), one feature that is unique to Australian social psychology is its eclecticism. As he put it, “This great openness to different ideas is probably a legacy of the different backgrounds of social psychologists in Australia, some with postgraduate training in the United States, others with training in the United Kingdom and Europe. The mixing of traditions from other countries is also an outcome of a strong need to reduce the effects of Australia’s remoteness from the major centres of activity in social psychology and to travel overseas so as to contribute to and learn about new developments in the field” (Feather, 2005, p. 271).

Social Psychology in Latin America³

Social psychologists have been active in Latin American nations such as Mexico, Brazil, Venezuela, Colombia and El Salvador at least since the 1960s. In the mid-1960s two Latin

American social psychologists, Jorge Garcia Bouza from the Instituto Corcuato Di Tella in Buenos Aires, Argentina, and Arnoldo Rodrigues from Pontificia Universidade Catolica in Rio de Janeiro, Brazil, approached the Transnational Committee independently suggesting that the Committee should attempt the same strategy that had been successful in establishing a European social psychology (Moscovici & Marková, 2006). This idea appealed to the members of the committee and in 1968, Festinger, Lanzetta, and Hereford (Texas) traveled through Venezuela, Brazil, Uruguay, Argentina, and Mexico to identify promising social psychologists who would be willing and able to participate in such an endeavor. It was decided that the next Congress of the Inter-American Society of Psychology in Montevideo, Uruguay in 1969 would be used for a special meeting of social psychologists. A planning committee consisting of eight Latin Americans and three members of the Transnational Committee met in Mexico City earlier that year to prepare for the meeting.

The Uruguay meeting was a great success, and the planning committee started to prepare a summer seminar along the lines that had been successful in Europe. This training seminar, financed by the SSRC, took place in Chile, at the campus Vina del Mar of the Universidad Frederico Santa Maria in Valparaiso, early in 1970. The teaching staff included Berkowitz, Deutsch, Gerard, and one Latin American social psychologist (Ramallo). There were 21 students in the course. This seminar also appears to have been a success. In order to enable Latin American social psychologists to organize such activities themselves, the Latin American Association for Social Psychology (La Asociacion Latinoamericana de Psicologia Social; ALAPSO) was founded in 1973 at a meeting in Bogotá, Colombia.

Until the 1970s, the social psychology in Latin America largely followed the North American experimental paradigm. By the end of that decade, a movement emerged in Latin America that was critical of the individualistic emphasis of American social psychology and its reliance on the laboratory experiment as a main investigative tool. Instead, proponents of this critique favored a more contextualized brand of social psychology that is more attuned to the specific political and social problems that often generated acute crises in the region. These views resulted in a rift between Latin and North American brands of social psychology, with the former adapting an approach based on critical social psychology, assumed to be more relevant to the arbitrariness of military regimes on the continent, and to the huge social inequalities that created fault lines and social strains all over Latin America (Spink & Spink, 2005).

The critical approach to social psychology advocated in Latin America was prescriptive rather than merely explanatory. It argued for an active involvement of social psychologists in addressing problems of society, and maintained that the main task of social psychology is consciousness raising and developing a self-critical perspective. This was assumed to increase people’s ability to control their lives and ameliorate their condition. This argument was forcefully advanced by Ignacio

Martín-Baró, a Spanish Jesuit priest who settled in El Salvador. Another major figure has been Maritza Montero of Venezuela, who in her work juxtaposed her perspective with the positivist and individualistic approaches, and advocated contextualized, participative knowledge constructed by researchers in the dual role of scientists and social actors. The critical psychology approach also has characterized social psychological work in other Latin American countries such as Colombia and Brazil. Though the critical approach to social psychology has been particularly prominent in Latin America, some social psychologists in the region have been carrying out work from the traditional experimental paradigms characteristic of the US approach, while others have been taking the sociological approach to social psychology (Álvarez & Garrido, 2006).

Social psychology in Africa⁴

Although social psychology courses are being taught at many African universities, the only African country with strong research groups in social psychology appears to be South Africa, a country that has its own psychology journals. A search through the table of contents of the two Pan-African psychology journals, *Journal of Psychology in Africa* (founded in 1990) and *African Journal for the Psychological Study of Social Issues* (founded in 1994) reveals no social psychological research articles. One reason could be that even the general psychology journal specifies in its author instructions that “all papers must show an awareness of the cultural context of the research questions asked, the measures used, and the results obtained . . . the papers should be practical, based on local experience, and applicable to crucial development efforts in key areas of psychology” (www.elliottfitzpatrick.com/downloads/JPAGuidelines.pdf). However, since the South African example shows that one could conduct social psychological research that meets these requirements, the absence of such publications in the two Pan-African journals suggest that no such research is being conducted outside South Africa.

Social psychology in South Africa is problem-driven, it uses modern social psychological theories and methods. Because race relations are a problem that historically has been salient in South Africa, much of the social psychological research conducted in that country is on this topic. There are other topics such as social influence, social psychology of language, equity theory, and psychology and law that are pursued by individual researchers, but according to the estimate of one leading South African social psychologist, over 80% of social psychological research has been on race relations (Colin Tredoux, personal communication). It is interesting to note that this research has a long tradition in South Africa. Early research on race relations was conducted as early as the 1920s and 1930s by I. D. MacCrone (e.g., 1937), who later became vice-chancellor of the University of the Witwatersrand. He was actively engaged in empirical research into racial attitudes from the late 1920 to the mid-1950s. He did pioneering research on the development of objective measures of race attitudes in South Africa. His scale for measuring

attitudes of White people toward Africans was constructed on the basis of Thurstone’s method of equal appearing intervals. It was known as the “Attitudes towards the Native Scale” and was used to assess attitudes at two-year intervals from 1934 to 1944 (Louw & Foster, 2004, p. 180). Two of MacCrone’s most noteworthy contributions to research and theorizing about racism were his distinction between conscious and unconscious factors underlying racial attitudes and his recognition that White attitudes were the primary source of race-related social problems in South Africa (Bowman, Duncan, & Swart, 2008). MacCrone’s work on racial attitudes had a lasting influence on South African psychology. It is due to his work that the themes of prejudice, racial attitudes, and authoritarianism dominated the local social psychology scene after the Second World War (Louw & Foster, 2004, p. 180).

After 1950, research on racism-related problems received further stimulation through the visit of two US psychologists, Gordon Allport and Thomas Pettigrew. Of particular importance was Pettigrew’s research on authoritarianism in South Africa and its correlation with prejudice. His finding of a relationship between ethnic group and political affiliation on one hand and prejudice on the other stimulated a great deal of South African research (Bowman et al., 2008). More recently, the major research focus has been on intergroup contact, and the effects of contact on improving intergroup attitudes.

There is no formal social psychology organization in South Africa nor a journal devoted exclusively to social psychology. The central professional organization is the Psychological Society of South Africa (PsySSA), and many social psychologists are members of this organization. The key psychology journal in South Africa in which most social psychological research is being published is *South African Journal of Psychology*, which was founded in 1970. The critical social psychology movement, which is quite strong in South Africa, has its own journal *Psychology in Society*, which according to its website “aims to foster a socio-historical and critical theory perspective by focusing on the theory and practice of psychology in the southern African context” (www.pins.org.za/about.htm).

There are several social psychology research groups in South Africa. The University of Cape Town has had a strong social psychology group for more than 30 years. Present members are Colin Tredoux, Don Foster, Liberty Eaton, and Shose Kessi. Other strong groups are at the University of Kwa-Zulu Natal (Kevin Durrheim, Michael Quayle, Anthony Collins, Lindsay Brown, and Nhlanhla Mkhize) and the University of Witwatersrand (Gillian Finchilescu, Brett Bowman, and Norman Duncan). Finally, the University of Stellenbosch has recently reinforced its fledgling social psychology group with the appointment of Herman Swart, who obtained his doctorate at Oxford, where he worked with Miles Hewstone.

Conclusions

In the past hundred years, the discipline of social psychology has undergone a truly spectacular growth. It has come a long

way from the early theoretical works of pioneers such as McDougall (1908), Ross (1908) and Floyd Allport (1924). As it enters the second decade of the 21st century, social psychology counts among the central pillars of psychology as a science. It boasts its unique empirical paradigms (such as the social psychology experiment), which, “crises” and critiques notwithstanding, have succeeded in informing and inspiring thinkers and doers worldwide. Perhaps more than other subdisciplines of psychology, social psychology has managed to constitute an intellectual hub where diverse approaches, levels of analysis, and perspectives productively intersect; these include the evolutionary, neuroscience, cultural, and constructionist ways of thinking about human social behavior. At the same time, social psychology has had a major influence on a variety of practical domains addressing major real-world societal problems. Whether one considers organizational behavior, consumer psychology, political behavior, culture, international security, or health concerns, the impact of social psychological theories and findings is incontrovertible and vast. To a growing extent, one finds social psychological ideas and commentaries in major popular media and trade books, and social psychological concepts are increasingly insinuating themselves into ways in which people talk about and understand individuals and societies.

The intellectual vibrancy and sweep of social psychology has been paralleled by its growing impact and presence worldwide. Today social psychology is strongly represented in almost all psychology departments at major universities around the world; it commands a tightening network of international organizations and a growing number of national societies and associations that cultivate research and practice devoted to its varied topics. As a discipline at the crossroads of science and praxis, social psychological analyses are uniquely suited to afford insights into the fast-paced world in which we live, and into ourselves as we strive to adapt to the ever-shifting social realities around us.

The emergence of social psychology as an intellectual force is vividly illustrated by its history. The initiatives, the controversies, the discoveries, and the struggles, as well as the people and societal forces that jointly produced them, depict a fascinating journey across time and space that our discipline has traversed. The chapters in this volume reflect the many facets of this voyage, which jointly paint the portrait of a vital and by now indispensable social science discipline.

Acknowledgments

We are grateful to Gustav Jahoda and Miles Hewstone for their helpful comments on an earlier version of this chapter.

Notes

1. Although the term *Völkerpsychologie* (psychology of peoples) was coined by Lazarus (1851), it became internationally known through the monumental 10 volumes written by Wundt between 1900 and 1920. It is a historical and comparative sociocultural psychology

dealing with the cultural products (language, myth, and custom) resulting from social interaction (Jahoda, 2007).

2. It is interesting that this discussion is still being continued today (e.g., Arnett, 2008; Stroebe & Nijstad, 2009).
3. The description of activities that led to the founding of a Latin American social psychology association is based on Moscovici and Marková (2006). The discussion of later developments is based on Ferreira (2010).
4. We are grateful to Colin Tredoux from the University of Cape Town for providing us with information about social psychology in South Africa.

References

- Adorno, T. W., Frenkel-Brunswick, E., Levinson, D. J., & Sanford, N. (1950). *The authoritarian personality*. New York, NY: Harper.
- Ajzen, I., & Fishbein, M. (1977). Attitude-behavior relations: A theoretical analysis and review of empirical research. *Psychological Bulletin*, 84, 888–918.
- Allport, F. H. (1924). *Social psychology*. Cambridge, MA: Riverside Press.
- Allport, G. W. (1935). Attitudes. In C. Murchison (Ed.), *Handbook of social psychology* (pp. 797–844). Worcester, MA: Clark University Press.
- Álvarez, J. L., & Garrido, A. (2006). *Psicologia social: Perspectivas psicológicas e sociológicas*. São Paulo, Brazil: McGraw-Hill.
- Arnett, J. J. (2008). The neglected 95%: Why American psychology needs to become less American. *American Psychologist*, 63, 602–614.
- Asch, S. E. (1955). Studies of independence and conformity: A minority against a unanimous majority. *Psychological Monographs*, 70, 1–70.
- Atsumi, T. (2007). Aviation with fraternal twin wings over the Asian context: Using nomothetic epistemic and narrative design paradigms in social psychology. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 32–40.
- Bartlett, F. C. (1932). *Remembering*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Binet, A., Philippe, J., Coutier, J., & Henri, V., (1894). *Introduction à la psychologie expérimentale*. Paris, France: Alcan.
- Blowers, G., & Tuttle, A. M. (Eds.). (1987). *Psychology moving east: The status of Western psychology in Asia and Oceania*. Boulder, CO: Westview Press.
- Bogardus, E. S. (1925). Social distance and its origins. *Sociology and Social Research*, 9, 216–225.
- Bowman, B., Duncan, N., & Swart, T. M. (2008). *Social psychology in South Africa: Towards a critical history*. In C. van Ommen & D. Painter (Eds.), *Interiors: A history of psychology in South Africa* (pp. 324–357). Pretoria, South Africa: University of South Africa Press.
- Campbell, D. T., & Stanley, J. C. (1967). *Experimental and quasi-experimental designs for research*. Chicago, IL: Rand McNally.
- Cattaneo, C. (1864). Dell'antitesi come metodo di psicologia sociale (On antithesis as a method of social psychology). *Il Politecnico*, 20, 262–270.
- Chiu, C.-Y. (2007). How can Asian social psychology succeed globally? *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 41–44.
- Cooper, H., & Hedges, L. V. (1994). *The handbook of research synthesis*. New York, NY: Russell Sage.

- Danziger, K. (2000). Making social psychology experimental: A conceptual history, 1920–1970. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36, 329–347.
- Dashiell, J. F. (1935). Experimental studies of the influence of social situations on the behavior of individual human adults. In C. Murchison (Ed.), *Handbook of social psychology* (pp. 1097–1158). Worcester, MA: Clark University Press.
- Enriquez, V. G. (1990). Cross-indigenous methods and perspectives. In V. G. Enriquez (Ed.), *Indigenous psychology: A book of readings* (pp. 210–230). Quezon City, The Philippines: Philippine Psychology Research and Training House.
- Farr, R. M. (1996). *The roots of modern social psychology*. Oxford, UK: Blackwell.
- Fazio, R. H. (1990). Multiple processes by which attitudes guide behavior: The MODE model as an integrative framework. *Advances in Experimental Social Psychology*, 23, 75–109.
- Fazio, R. H., & Zanna, M. P. (1981). Direct experience and attitude–behavior consistency. *Advances in Experimental Social Psychology*, 14, 161–202.
- Feather, N. T. (2005). Social psychology in Australia: Past and present. *International Journal of Psychology*, 40, 263–276.
- Ferreira, M. C. (2010). A psicologia social contemporânea: Principais tendências e perspectivas nacionais e internacionais [Contemporary social psychology: Main national and international tendencies and perspectives]. *Psicologia: Teoria e Pesquisa*, 26, special issue, 51–64.
- Festinger, L. (1950). Informal social communication. *Psychological Review*, 57, 271–282.
- Festinger, L. (1954). A theory of social comparison. *Human Relations*, 7, 117–140.
- Festinger, L. (1957). *A theory of cognitive dissonance*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press.
- Festinger, L. (Ed.). (1980). *Retrospections on social psychology*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press.
- Gergen, K. J. (1973). Social psychology as history. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 26, 309–320.
- Gergen, K. J. (1999). *An invitation to social construction*. London, UK: Sage.
- Haines, H., & Vaughan, G. M. (1979). Was 1898 a great date in the history of social psychology? *Journal for the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 15, 323–332.
- Haslam, N., & Kashima, Y. (2010). The rise and rise of social psychology in Asia: A bibliometric analysis. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 13, 202–207.
- Heider, F. (1944). Social perception and phenomenal causality. *Psychological Review*, 51, 358–374.
- Heider, F. (1946). Attitudes and cognitive organization. *Journal of Psychology*, 21, 107–112.
- Heider, F. (1958). *The psychology of interpersonal relations*. New York, NY: Wiley.
- Heider, F. (1983). *The autobiography of a psychologist*. Lawrence, KS: Kansas University Press.
- Heider, F., & Simmel, M. (1944). An experimental study of apparent behavior. *American Journal of Psychology*, 57, 243–259.
- Hovland, C. I. (Ed.). (1957). *The order of presentation in persuasion*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Hovland, C. I., & Janis, I. L. (ed.) (1959). *Personality and persuasibility*. New Haven: Yale University Press.
- Hovland, C. I., Janis, I. L., & Kelley, H. H. (1953). *Communication and persuasion*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Hovland, C. I., Lumsdaine, A. A., & Sheffield, F. D. (1949). *Experiments on mass communications*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Jahoda, G. (2007). *A history of social psychology*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Jones, E. E., & Davis, K. E. (1965). From acts to dispositions: The attribution process in person perception. In L. Berkowitz (Ed.), *Advances in Experimental Social Psychology*, 2, 219–266.
- Kelley, H. H. (1967). Attribution theory in social psychology. In D. Levine (Ed.), *Nebraska symposium on motivation* (pp. 192–238). Lincoln, NE: University of Nebraska Press.
- Kim, U. (1998). Editor's preface. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 1, iii–iv.
- Kim, U., & Berry, J. W. (Eds.). (1993). *Indigenous psychologies: Research and experience in cultural context*. Newbury Park, CA: Sage.
- Kravitz, D. A., & Martin, B. (1986). Ringelmann rediscovered: The original article. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 50, 936–941.
- Kruglanski, A. (1975). Theory, experiment and the shifting publication scene in personality and social psychology. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 1, 489–493.
- Kruglanski, A. (1976). On the paradigmatic objections to experimental psychology: A reply to Gadlin and Ingle. *American Psychologist*, 31, 655–663.
- Lazarus, M. (1851). Über den Begriff und die Möglichkeit einer Völkerpsychologie. *Zeitschrift für Literatur, Kunst und öffentliches Leben*, 1, 112–126.
- Leung, K. (2007). Asian social psychology: Achievements, threats, and opportunities. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 8–15.
- Lindner, G. A. (1871). *Ideen zur Psychologie der Gesellschaft als Grundlage der Sozialwissenschaft* [Ideas for a psychology of society as foundation of social science]. Vienna, Austria: Gerold.
- Liu, J. H., & Ng, S. H. (2007). Concerning Asians in global perspective: Special issue on past contributions, current status and future prospects for Asian social psychology. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 1–7.
- Louw, J., & Foster, D. (2003). Race and psychology in Africa. In A. S. Winston (Ed.), *Defining difference: Race and racism in the history of psychology* (pp. 171–197). Washington, DC: American Psychological Association.
- Lubek, I., & Apfelbaum, E. (2000). A critical gaze and wistful glance at *Handbook* histories of social psychology: Did the successive accounts by Gordon Allport and successors historiographically succeed? *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36, 405–428.
- MacCrone, I. D. (1937). *Race attitudes in South Africa: Historical, experimental and psychological studies*. London, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Marrow, A. J. (1969). *The practical theorist: The life of Kurt Lewin*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- McDougall, W. (1908). *An introduction to social psychology*. London, UK: Methuen.
- Milgram, S. (1963). Behavioral study obedience. *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology*, 67, 371–378.
- Moede, W. (1920) *Experimentelle Massenpsychologie* [Experimental crowd psychology]. Leipzig, Germany: Hirzel.
- Moscovici, S. (1976). *Social influence and social change*. London: Academic Press.
- Moscovici, S., Lage, E., & Naffrechoux, M. (1969). Influence of a consistent minority on the responses of a majority in a color perception task. *Sociometry*, 32, 365–380.

- Moscovici, S., & Marková I. (2006). *The making of modern social psychology: The hidden story of how an international social science was created*. Cambridge, UK: Polity Press.
- Murchison, C. (Ed.). (1935). *Handbook of social psychology*. Worcester, MA: Clark University Press.
- Murphy, G., & Murphy, L. B. (Eds.). (1968). *Asian psychology*. New York, NY: Basic Books.
- Newcomb, T. M. (1943). *Personality and social change: Attitude formation in a student community*. New York, NY: Dryden Press.
- Nisbett, R. E., Peng, K., Choi, I., & Norenzayan, A. (2001). Culture and systems of thought: Holistic versus analytic cognition. *Psychological Review*, 108, 291–310.
- Nuttin, J. M., Jr. (1990). In memoriam: John T. Lanzetta. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 20, 363–367.
- Orne, M. T. (1962). On the social psychology of the psychological experiment: With particular reference to demand characteristics and their implications. *American Psychologist*, 17, 776–783.
- Potter, J., & Wetherell, M. (1987). *Discourse and social psychology: Beyond attitudes and behaviour*. London, UK: Sage.
- Ring, K. (1967). Experimental social psychology: Some sober questions about some frivolous values. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 3, 113–123.
- Ringelmann, M. (1913). Recherches sur les moteurs animés: Travaux de l'homme [Research on animate sources of power: the work of man]. *Annals de l'Institut National Agronomique*, 2e série – tome XII, 1–40.
- Rosenberg, M. J., Hovland, C. I., McGuire, W. J., Abelson, R. P., & Brehm, J. W. (1960). *Attitude organization and change: An analysis of consistency among attitudes components*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Rosenthal, R., & Fode, K. (1963). The effect of experimenter bias on the performance of the albino rat. *Behavioral Science*, 8, 183–189.
- Ross, E. A. (1908). *Social psychology*. New York, NY: Macmillan.
- Schachter, S., Nuttin, J. M., de Monchaux, C., Maucorps, P. H., Osmer, D., Duijker, H., Rommetveit, R., & Israel, J. (1954). Cross-cultural experiments on threat and rejection. *Human Relations*, 7, 403–440.
- Schlenker, B. R. (1974). Social psychology and science. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 29, 1–15.
- Sherif, M. (1936). *The psychology of social norms*. New York, NY: Harper.
- Sherif, M., & Hovland, C. I. (1961). *Social judgment*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Spink, M. J., & Spink, P. (2005). A psicologia social na atualidade. In A. M. Jacó-Vilela, A. A. L. Ferreira, & F. T. Portugal (Eds.), *História da psicologia: Rumos e percursos* (pp. 565–585). Rio de Janeiro, Brazil: Nau.
- Strickland, L. H., Aboud, F., & Gergen, K. (Eds.). *Social psychology in transition*. New York, NY: Plenum Press.
- Stroebe, W., & Nijstad, B. (2009). Do our psychological laws apply only to Americans? *American Psychologist*, 64, 569.
- Tajfel, H. (1970). Experiments in intergroup discrimination. *Scientific American*, 223, 96–102.
- Tajfel, H. (1974). Social identity and intergroup behaviour. *Social Science Information*, 13, 65–93.
- Tajfel, H., Billig, M., Bundy, R. P., & Flament, C. (1971). Social categorization and intergroup behaviour. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 2, 149–178.
- Tajfel, H. & Turner, J. C. (1979). An integrative theory of intergroup conflict. In W. G. Austin & S. Worchel (Eds.), *The psychology of intergroup relations* (pp. 33–48). Monterey, CA: Brooks/Cole.
- Thurstone, L. L. (1928). Attitudes can be measured. *Journal of Sociology*, 33, 529–554.
- Triplett, N. D. (1898). The dynamogenic factor in pacemaking and competition. *American Journal of Psychology*, 9, 507–533.
- Turner, J. C. (1975). Social comparison and social identity: Some prospects for intergroup behaviour. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 5, 5–34.
- Ward, C. (2007). Asian social psychology: Looking in and looking out. *Asian Journal of Social Psychology*, 10, 22–31.
- Weber, S. J., & Cook, T. D. (1972). Subject effects in laboratory research: An examination of subject roles, demand characteristics, and valid inferences. *Psychological Bulletin*, 77, 273–295.
- Weiner, B. (1979). A theory of motivation for some classroom experiences. *Journal of Educational Psychology*, 71, 3–25.
- White, R., & Lippitt, R. (1968). Leader behavior and member reactions in three social “climates”. In D. Cartwright & A. Zander (Eds.), *Group dynamics* (pp. 318–335). New York, NY: Harper.
- Wicker, A. W. (1969). Attitudes versus actions: The relationship of verbal and overt behavioral responses to attitude objects. *Journal of Social Issues*, 28(4), 41–78.

2 The importance of history to social psychology

Jill Morawski

When invited to contribute a chapter on the importance of history—on why social psychologists should consider their discipline’s history—I delighted at the opportunity to share some of the innovative, sometimes provocative histories that lay outside the purview of canonical histories familiar to social psychologists. Soon, however, the project encountered perplex, a sticking point: Readily available textbook histories of social psychology suffice in presenting an orderly narrative of the field’s evolution. Canonical (internal and textbook) histories recount a science that adopted a particular understanding of the social as quintessentially *psychological* phenomena along with methods that privileged experimentation and quantification. These insider chronicles highlight a social psychology that absorbed as well psychology’s presuppositions that phenomena are *transhistorical* and *universal* (holding for all humans across time). These narratives travel smoothly into the present, for contemporary social psychology still consorts with what became its master discipline, assimilating current trends toward cognitive, neuroscientific, and evolutionary psychology. In so much as official histories outline social psychology’s trajectory and scientific allegiance, why would social psychologists need or want more?

The perplex thickens when introducing the histories that I entreat fellow social psychologists to explore. These histories, broadly described as “contextual,” understand the discipline’s developments to be choices made: They were neither inevitable nor even empirically determined. More importantly, contextual histories scrutinize the consequences of disciplinary decisions along with options abandoned or overlooked. They trace social psychology’s theories and epistemological premises, examine its economic and political imperatives, and probe the cultural origins and meanings that made today’s social psychology possible. Why explore social psychology’s complicated, sometimes even messy, hidden, or vestigial heritage? This perplex stymied me notwithstanding training in experimental social psychology and a research program committed to the history of psychology. Yet in this rather idiosyncratic career lay a key to loosening the perplex: the commitments to science shared by both social psychologists and recent historians of science.

Three commitments highlight what importance history can have for social psychology: evidence, methods, and theory. Contextual, evidence-based histories bring to the fore the actual practices, decisions, and even elisions of social psychology. In

so doing they encounter theories that were abandoned and evidence laid aside, uncovering the ways that social psychology has both depended upon and contributed to material conditions of the social world—economics, technologies, institutions, public policy, and cultural beliefs. With attention to the evidence from the broader cultural and scientific context, they bring to the fore some of the intellectual developments in the human sciences, such as the revolution in linguistics and studies of reflexivity, that were largely eschewed by social psychology. These are facts about social psychology’s past from which the matter of methods follows. Mainstream histories, in outlining a trajectory that accords with contemporary self-understandings, use evidentiary bases akin to those of autobiography and, as such, they are susceptible to the evidentiary limitations of self-report found in autobiographical memory. The methods of contextual histories are hardly singular, yet they engage methodological standards more closely aligned with aims of empirical observation. Attending not only to esteemed experiments or research techniques, these studies also examine the financial incentives, political climates, personal influences, normative assumptions, and intellectual relations with other social sciences. In other words, they investigate more closely—and broadly—the actual scientific practices that made social psychology mature as it has. Contextual inquiries, then, have empirically rich grounds, making possible more comprehensive accounts of the circuits that link the science to technologies, culture, politics, money, and individual actors.

As for the matter of theory there are two notable points of congruence between social psychology’s enterprise and histories of the science. One convergence concerns an investment in assessing contemporary theory. Whereas canonical histories strive to provide a linear chronicle of scientific progress that points to contemporary work, contextual studies recover the variations and fates of theories; among the findings of the latter approach is a once capacious and creative theorizing about the social psychological world that was directed and ultimately diminished through incorporation of core precepts from psychology proper (and more recently from that master discipline’s interest in neuroscience, biology, and economics). Contextual histories thereby better inform us about social psychology’s once indigenous theorizing that, in turn, enables fuller knowledge about possibilities for future as well as current theories. Contextual history’s attention to the creativity,

variations, and fate of “native” theories signals yet another matter. Reliance on a confined or monolithic theoretical perspective, say information-processing models, inevitably compels a narrowing of hypothesis testing and a tendency to take that theory perspective as not just *descriptive* but *normative*, as not just a possible way for describing a phenomenon but as compelling (the world must be this way). Awareness of the once vivacious and plural theorizing returns to us the potentials and challenges of different theory choices. As legal theorist Janet Halley notes, “Sustaining competing theories for describing the same social arrangements can expand our sense of the stakes at stake when we make our choices about what to see as a social good and a social bad, how to understand their distribution, what to think of as normatively bad, and what to aspire to” (2006, p. 8). Recovering the dynamics of theory construction in social psychology can enrich the scientific enterprise, reintroduce comparison of theories, and uncover normative assumptions. Additionally, it might well refresh social psychology’s integrity.

These three commonalities—facts, methods, and theory—lay grounds for social psychologists to appreciate histories inspired by recent developments in the history of science. Yet even with these common grounds, thinking historically about social psychology is methodologically and conceptually complex; accordingly, the chapter will ask much of its readers. It bids readers to bracket conventional scientific self-conceptions, including some basic tenets about what is “social,” and to regard scientific undertakings as *normative* (as well as *descriptive*) acts in the making and sustaining of the modern social world. The gains might be modest, as in exposing implicit cultural premises of research, or they might be more far-reaching, intimating how a historically enriched social psychology ultimately benefits historical scholarship. My own stance allies with this latter potential for developing a historically grounded social psychology. Our discipline and history both could benefit from heeding each other’s work. In the messy project of understanding social life, all hands are needed on deck: Just as social psychology needs history, so history needs the skills and insights of social psychology. One potential project for forging this alliance is taken up at the chapter’s end.

The chapter proceeds first with brief review of advances in the historiography of the natural sciences, developments that register limitations of canonical, internal histories and suggest fertile partnerings of social psychology and history. Given notable advances in the study of reflexivity and language, the next two sections take up histories that relate these subjects to social psychology. They are followed by introduction to histories that examine scientific practices: These studies move from asking *what* knowledge is generated to asking *how* social psychological knowledge is produced. Studies of scientific practice (whether they entail microanalysis of a project or far-reaching mappings of material connections between the science and other realms) can yield a broad, empirically grounded purchase on social psychology. They expose significant if often unnoticed ingredients of research that are not explicated in

research programs or reported in scientific articles. The concluding section is forward looking, offering one generative possibility for an alliance of history and social psychology by borrowing from an unrealized late 19th century project. The conclusion thus is conjectural if promissory, intimating how what starts as an apparent perplex can open the way for innovation.

In the end, fuller historical understanding is important for all social psychologists, whether they want greater accuracy in their ongoing research programs or seek innovative, interdisciplinary models. Calling for fuller historical knowledge presumes no single theoretical or philosophical perspective. In this sense, appealing for greater awareness the field’s history is analogous to calls for representative sampling of research participants. The authors of a recent review of psychology’s biased sampling marshal evidence indicating that psychology research needs better representation of the world population. While one might readily presume that demands for diversity in subject selection would be made by researchers committed to a “cultural” or “nurture” perspective, the authors are, in fact, inclined toward more biological perspectives. For them, reliable knowledge is paramount and it is necessary to place any knowledge of “universal features of psychology on a firmer footing by empirically addressing, rather than *a priori* dismissing or ignoring, questions of population variability” (Henrich, Heine, & Norenzayan, 2010, p. 3). Similar logic holds for histories that are incomplete or partial. By ignoring, for instance, the varied aspirations underlying Floyd Allport’s mandate for “methodological individualism”—a mandate that dramatically altered the course of North American social psychology—grounds for continuing that now nearly hegemonic presupposition remain empirically (and philosophically) underdetermined, and its entanglement in behaviorist, populist, and psychoanalytic assumptions goes unquestioned (Graumann, 1996; Greenwood, 2004; Parkovnick, 2000). History thus can importantly inform science.

Histories of a science

During the past half-century, a transition generally marked by Thomas Kuhn’s thesis on scientific revolutions transported the historiography of science beyond formulaic narratives of scientific progress and great scientists, and beyond debates over whether scientific change is better explained by “internal” laboratory conditions or “external” ones of funding, politics, and *Zeitgeist*. Teleological chronicles of the march of scientific progress have since been replaced by a historicist or contextualist perspective that understands past science in the context of its unfolding. Historians now scrutinize details of the entire scientific field: conceptualizations of objects, variables, training, instruments, financial supports, culture, and language. They chart the vibrancy of scientific practices—the back-and-forth relays of information, materials, techniques, and customs between what is conventionally demarcated as “science” and “culture”—tracing the “connectivity of science” (Galison, 1997).

Until the past three decades, histories of the social sciences were considered apart from the history of the natural sciences; for the social sciences, psychology exemplary among them, historical narratives were crafted mostly by practicing social scientists themselves. These presentist (in portraying progressive paths to present science) canonical testimonies have served laudatory ends. They do disciplinary boundary work in claiming certain methods, excluding certain events, and defining the discipline's principal domain of inquiry in relation to other social sciences (Good, 2000). E. G. Boring's 1929 history text, long serving as psychology's official chronicle, exemplifies such systematic emphasis on certain subjects and methods while excluding or sidelining others. Among the discipline's unsung accomplishments in Boring's history are applied, developmental, and social psychology (O'Donnell, 1979).

Two intellectual movements came to challenge these presentist histories "without the past" (Leahey, 1986, p. 649). In the 1970s, many social scientists found history a fruitful means to better understand their discipline's trajectory, priorities, and exclusions. Around the same time, professional historians became more interested in the impact that the social sciences had on 20th-century culture and society (Porter and Ross, 2003). Among them, historians of science found in psychology, a near science, abundant opportunities for interrogating the extension of scientific ethos to traditionally humanist subjects such as rationality, sociality, and mind. Together, these scholars amended inaccuracies in presentist histories, excavated cultural impetuses behind social scientific undertakings, and promoted historiographic perspectives being forged in the history of science (Lubek, 2000; Samelson, 1974; Stocking, 1965).

These histories, alternatives to the canonical textbook chronicles, are retrieving a legacy of social psychology that is far more extensive, culturally consequential, and intriguingly complex. Contrary to accounts locating North American social psychology's inception in a specific discipline-based event such as the first experiment (Triplett), textbook (McDougall or Ross), or individual-centered theory (Floyd Allport), they discover other impulses motivating modern social psychology. An exemplary case is found in late 19th-century social psychology. Historian Jeffrey Sklansky (2002) has linked the mid-19th-century emergence of social-psychological theorizing with classical economics' failure to adequately explain ongoing transformations in economic behaviors and institutions. Economic thinkers in the antebellum era confronted problems in explaining structural changes in market behavior: Substantive economic transformations challenged classic economics' base assumptions about market actors and their interrelationships. In brief, they turned to understandings of the market "conceived not as a federation of autonomous agents but as an indivisible union of interdependent parts" (p. 228). Until then, American conceptions of society and political economy assumed an agent's independence or autonomy, taking his competitive self-interest as the basis for commerce. But these premises about individual actors and the market faltered as explanatory models after the Civil War, failing to account for changes in

manufacturing, labor and property ownership. No longer sufficient was the idea of independent "economic man"—"The self-governing individual, endowed with the natural faculties of rational will and productive labor, entitled to the natural rights of property and popular sovereignty . . ." (p. 3). New conceptions of interdependence and social-psychological cohesion gleaned from social psychological scholars better explained economic activity. Responding to economic changes and instructed by social-psychological writings, late 19th-century social scientists "reconceived market society as a fast-moving mainstream of culturally created desires, habits and mores, instead of an unchanging arena of contract and competition among independent proprietors" (p. 3). They forwarded a social psychology to describe and explain the "seamless relation between self and society" and a "newly socialized psyche freed from the confines of class and individual self-interest." According to Sklansky, social psychology of that era "represented a progressive challenge to the reigning ethic of competition and accumulation, which had become loosely identified with the old science of wealth" (pp. 9–10).

Sklansky's excavation of the dependence of economic models on social psychological knowledge illuminates how crucial was modern social psychology's overarching mission to decipher the shifting arrangements between the individual and the social world. His study shows, too, how only by situating social psychology in its historical context can we fully understand how its ideas (notably about individual/society relations) were directly connected with material events in the social world. Detailed historical exposition offered in this history provides insights into the material and social events that influence contemporary work just as it illuminates theories that differ from our contemporary individual-centered social psychology.

Historiographic emphasis on science-in-culture also brings to the fore economic or political motives underlying supposedly neutral scientific values. Close examination of social psychology's lean toward natural scientific inquiry does not confirm canonical lore that attributes the rapid ascent of experimental techniques to a natural maturation of the science after the Second World War. To the contrary, American social science in the postwar era met significant governmental pressures to adopt scientific modes of operation (Solovey, 2004). The social sciences were charged to become a certain kind of science in order to maintain funding and professional regard. Social sciences, including social psychology, implemented a natural science model for reasons other than strict logical reasoning or empirical evidence alone; they were fueled by and comported with political and cultural interests. If such histories seem to tarnish a discipline's image, what warrants appreciation is how they recover a more vibrant, intellectual, and culturally complex science.

Another advance in historiography of science is particularly relevant to social psychology, present as well as past. A number of philosophers of science, psychologists, and historians have independently argued for a category distinction between the natural and human sciences, one acknowledging the unique

difference between the objects of study in these two scientific domains. This distinction has crucial implications for social science. First, objects in the natural sciences are indifferent to the claims made about them; they do not change as a result of new scientific claims made about them. By contrast, humans, the objects of social science, can react and respond to claims posed about them. Second, in the human sciences the observer and object of observation are one and the same kind, and this reflexivity manifests in an array of empirical and theory implications. Finally, social knowledge and its making depend on the social world in important and inescapable ways that do not occur in the natural sciences. In other words, social knowledge is intrinsically culture-bound, as evidenced by the fact that it is unimaginable how we can know “even ourselves, except in terms that we acquire through living in a particular time and place. To conceive otherwise would be to conceive of having knowledge without language or symbols” (Smith, 1997, p. 17). These essential conditions of the human sciences are not entirely unknown to social psychologists. In fact, social psychologists have been pre-eminent in responding, however tactically, to some of them by creating techniques for their management in research situations. Perhaps because of such masterful laboratory management of reflexivity, researchers have neglected its fuller manifestations. We can turn to historical studies to better comprehend these intrinsic conditions of studying the human social life.

Reflexivity

In the opening pages of an exquisitely compiled history of the human sciences, Roger Smith states a core paradox of the human sciences, asking “How are we to stand back from being human in order to observe what it is to be human? Even to attempt this standing back—and there are many ways in which it has been undertaken in pursuit of scientific truth—is a way of being human that, in turn some other person will be able to study.” He continues questioning, “are we then condemned to travel in self-reflecting circles, to create knowledge of human beings only to find that what has been done is to create another mode of life rather than a lasting truth?” (1997, p. 13). Smith broaches what Steve Woolgar (1988) calls the “horrors of reflexivity,” and anticipates the dynamic, even generative consequence of reflexivity. These extensions of reflexivity are taken up in the next section but it is first necessary to corral and identify the several meanings of this essential property of the human sciences.

In its barest meaning, reflexivity is the inescapable, self-referential attribute of theory. Reflexivity inheres in “all social sciences since any statement that holds that humans act or believe in particular ways in particular circumstances refers as much to the social scientists as to anyone else” (Gruenberg, 1978, p. 322). To be valid, social-psychology theory should be predictive of or explain the relevant thoughts and actions of the scientist as well as those of his or her subjects. A second meaning of reflexivity implicates all sciences and scientists

who observe objects in the world insofar as their observations are necessarily guided by pre-existing understanding of those objects (Woolgar, 1988). Reflexivity here refers to the back-and-forth process through which an account of the world depends in fundamental ways on pre-existing knowledge of what that account refers to and vice versa. Modern psychology’s conceptions of “motivation,” for instance, depended on pre-existing understandings of “will” and residuals of that understanding of will persist in scientific studies of motivation. Both meanings posit reflexivity as at once unavoidable and integral to generating claims about the world. They take as fundamental the complex binding of research and the rest of the world. However, investigators differ appreciably in how they heed or engage reflexivity. Depending on their conscious awareness (self-conscious regard) and motives, reflexivity can be intended or inadvertent, engaged or eschewed, appreciated or scorned. When reflexivity entails a self-conscious regard, a turning back upon oneself, it allows “those who do science to better understand the social mechanisms orienting scientific practice, thus enabling them to become ‘masters and possessors’ not only of ‘nature,’ according to the old Cartesian ambition, but . . . of the social world in which knowledge about nature is produced” (Pierre Bourdieu, quoted in Miallet, 2003, p. 614). Psychologists of the social world have not been entirely blind to or dismissive of such reflection. A century ago William James observed the inescapable reflexive process and advised, “The knower is not simply a mirror floating with no foot-hold anywhere, and passively reflecting an order that he comes upon and finds simply existing. The knower is an actor, and co-efficient of the truth on one side, whilst on the other he registers the truth, which he helps create” (quoted in Leary, 1995, p. 93).

Twentieth-century researchers who practised such self-conscious reflection often targeted psychologists’ very blindness to reflexivity—their seeming unawareness of how newly honed, rigorously prescribed methods actually constrain or distort their purportedly objective observations of social life. Closely inspecting what Bourdieu would later call the “social mechanisms orienting scientific practice,” Horace Mann Bond (1927) delineated the tacit rules of the scientific “game” that governed avowedly objective, empirical studies of race differences in intelligence. He found that seemingly neutral methodological decisions actually skewed both observation and measurement, yielding results that complemented racial stereotypes. Bond’s list of these rules is extensive, including that the experimenters/examiners are white (nonwhite researchers either were not considered or barred access from research with white students, as Bond was); the tests are standardized on white children and by white researchers; subjects’ social status is ignored, being deemed irrelevant; nativist assumptions about race differences are assumed, as evidenced in the then commonly held notion that high-scoring whites come from families of high social status because the family is intelligent.

Saul Rosenzweig (1933) similarly explicated the social psychological processes transpiring underneath the actions being observed in experiments. He described how both subjects

and experimenters proceed with intentions and perceptions that are neither acknowledged nor represented in the experimental hypothesis, yet these intentions and perceptions shape experimental outcomes (Morawski, 2005). The psychology experiment, Rosenzweig concluded, has an additional, largely unobserved, social psychology. Likewise concerned with researchers' unacknowledged intentions, Gordon Allport devoted much of his APA Presidential address (1940) to this matter; for instance, psychologists' privileging of quantification as their "frame of reference"—a framing that constricts and distorts the phenomena being observed. (In a playful visualization of researchers' unawareness, Allport graphed this escalating quantification complete with a psychologist jauntily rocketing up the graph line.) Twenty years later, Donald Oliver and Alvin Langfield pronounced reflexivity an "unfaced" issue of psychology. It is, they held, a real property of human nature that must be figured in psychological research. Oliver and Langfield forcefully claimed that disregard of reflexivity undermined scientific psychology because "any psychology venture is a failure if in its accounting it fails, or refuses, to take into account its own accounting" (1962, p. 117). "Unfaced" rather aptly describes researchers' regard for reflexivity, for despite the uncertainty principle in physics, new self-interrogatory methods of literary theory, and a "linguistic turn" in many kindred social sciences in the 1970s, few psychologists—social psychologists included—have systematically interrogated the reflexive properties of research (Gadlin & Ingle, 1975; Morawski, 1992, 2005; Richards, 1987, 2002; Unger, 1983).

If the psychological sciences largely disregarded substantive forms of reflexivity, there was a brief period when it did come under sustained scientific scrutiny. Beginning with the innovative social-psychological experiments of Martin Orne and Robert Rosenthal, some researchers began to assess the ways that experimenters' expectations and biases (as well as those of subjects) influenced experimental outcomes. These sometimes alarming findings spurred creation of techniques for reducing or eliminating such contamination. Although the methodological correctives were adopted by many, they target only readily detectable biases present at the observational stage of research. The correctives, for the most part, leave unaddressed the first two forms of reflexivity discussed above. Important and potentially transformative research on these two other forms of reflexivity—the self-referential axiom of any human science and the double hermeneutics of human science—can be informed by historical case studies. Analyses of pre-existing understandings of psychological phenomena circulating through research serve as distinctive means to identify core precepts (as in the case of will lingering in constructs of motivation). Histories of reflexivity afford means for interrogating not only past conceptions but also contemporary ones. They offer methods as well as analytic frameworks, for example, to locate the moral and religious values underlying current concepts of "happiness" or clinical and cultural conceptions of the unconscious undergirding current research on implicit attitudes.

Although it is sometimes difficult or impossible to ascertain whether researchers' engagement with reflexivity is intended or unintended, the consequences of reflexivity can be detected through contextual or textual analyses. Several studies illumine the back-and-forth processes of reflexivity by chronicling vectors of self-regard/other regard that are constitutive of psychological knowledge. Investigating postwar conceptions of personhood, particularly researchers' thinking about thinking, Jamie Cohen-Cole (2003, 2005, in press) located a constellation of psychological attributes that captivated a group of psychologists in the 1950s. Through extensive examination of institutional and personal archives, debates among researchers, laboratory records, informal exchanges, think-tanks, and publications, Cohen-Cole traced social scientists' promotion of a new set of human attributes that constitutes an "open-minded character" and that soon became bedrock presuppositions for cognitive psychology. Reacting against the mechanistic, rather passive personhood presupposed in then-dominant learning theory and behaviorism more generally, and simultaneously desiring a model of personhood that bespoke a more promising sociopolitical life, researchers who were to become the vanguard of the cognitive perspective extended their own self-concepts as scientists—flexible, creative, autonomous, and rational—to their subject matter, other human beings. Consequently, work on authoritarian personality intimated the existence of and need for a different, more democratic, flexible character. Studies of closed-mindedness similarly inspired studies of cognitive openness; at the same time research on creativity boomed. Soon there emerged a new psychological type whose attributes of flexibility, reason, openness, and creativity mirrored the ideal attributes of a scientist. As George Miller remarked in 1963, "the scientist is Everyman, looking just as you and I. We go and look for the things we want, and when we find them we find part of ourselves" (quoted in Cohen-Cole, in press, p. 186). In keeping with their dissatisfaction with closed, mechanistic models (like those of behaviorism) researchers embraced an antipositivist philosophy of science that stressed the importance of "good thinking." They ultimately extended that desideratum to describe human nature generally. In so doing, they refashioned the human psyche in the likeness of the creative scientist, making it possible to observe a scientific object who was a thinking, creative, and cognitively complex actor, not a passive, rigidly socialized one. Self-imagining, then, begat a scientific model of personhood.

The reflexive play of self-regard/other regard at times has been influenced by scientists' direct experiences in research. In an insightful microanalysis of postwar psychologists' self-regard, Gerd Gigerenzer (1991, 1996) found that researchers' concerns about their own cognitive capacities—namely the accuracy of their judgments—led them to adopt techniques of statistical inference that they presumed to be superior to human decision making. The psychologists creatively drew upon these investigative tools to confect models of thinking, figuring the mind as statistical processor. Research tools, then, shaped a theory of mind.

Reflexive practices are not always consensual, even in a highly regulated discipline. In fact, despite a near hegemonic methodology, psychology in general and social psychology more specifically, have exhibited (although not necessarily admitted) conceptual pluralism (Richards, 2002; Smith, 2005). Researchers have harvested conceptions of persons from a culture rich in prototypes of human character. One particular conception that appealed to social psychologists is found in extensions of recent experiences of war, combat, and brainwashing to design models of the social self as vulnerable, fragile, and defensive. With a consequential awareness of human vulnerability along with defensive attitudes of Cold War American politics, some postwar researchers moved toward vesting persons with (and needing) a certain protective self-psychology, and they described that self in terms that Catherine Lutz (1997) has called an “epistemology of the bunker.” Cultural politics of permanent war and covert warfare along with psychologists’ war-related work experiences promoted construal of “a new more vigilant self, a self not so much explicitly disciplined as suspicious of itself” (p. 245). Given apprehension of a dangerous world, the mind was reconceived as having mechanisms to be protective and subversive, even self-subverting. This defensive yet vulnerable self made its appearance in empirical studies of compliance, coercion, defensiveness, and self-deception. It even prompted researchers to worry about subjects’ possible subversions of experimental situations. World events—or more accurately, perceptions of these events—engendered assumptions about the self. Cultural preoccupations, then, inspired models of human nature.

In addition to conceiving a self radically and defensively separate from others, a conception that notably influenced research on person perception and social interaction, other notions of human subjects resonated with postwar culture, thereby bearing imprints of inadvertent reflexivity. Both a cognitively complex, resilient type of human and a vulnerable one traveled through social-psychological thinking of the 1950s and 1960s. In an archival study of the ethical debates over the use of deception, Laura Stark (2010) corroborated the coexistence and liveliness of these two types of person. By the 1960s experimental deception had become arguably the most heated concern of research ethics; its prominence is evidenced by the attention given it by the APA committee mandated to develop a code of ethical practices for research with human subjects. Apprehending the possibility that regulations would be imposed on psychology research, the APA sought to pre-empt that undesirable outcome by producing its own regulations. The committee’s deliberations over whether it was appropriate to deceive subjects hinged on rudimentary assumptions about human nature. On one hand, taking subjects as vulnerable and susceptible to influence implied the need to restrict the use of deception techniques. On the other hand, seeing them as resilient and autonomous suggested that a modicum of deception would have no adverse or lasting effects. Legal, economic, and political contingencies, then, charged debates over basic assumptions of personhood and ultimate resolution of conflicting points of view.

Inadvertent reflexivity, the relay of self-conceptions and cultural conceptions (in and through social science) is ubiquitous. Rarer are self-conscious accounts of reflexivity such as forwarded by James, Bond, Rosenzweig, and Allport. Abeyance of reflexivity is understandable, especially in a science that seeks to differentiate its knowledge from common cultural understandings of social action. For enterprises like social psychology, reflexivity evokes a “horror” that distinctions between social psychology and everyday social knowledge might collapse. That is, if research encompasses or refashions pre-existing understandings of the world, then how does one distinguish scientific knowledge from other knowledge about the social world? What then privileges empirical knowledge from common-sense knowledge? (Perhaps that worrisome apprehensive helps explain why surprising and counterintuitive research findings are valorized in social psychology, for it is precisely such findings that dramatically depart from everyday accountings of social life.) Whatever the reason, evading reflexivity entails neglecting core human properties and capacities—to understand social life, iteratively interpret, and alter unfolding social actions. We neglect to consider if and how reflexivity is a social-psychological phenomenon in our objects of inquiry as well as in our own inquiries. The alternative, admitting reflexivity, permits researchers to identify how, when, and with what consequences their foreknowledge preconditions scientific knowing. We can see better the connectivity of scientific conceptions and worldly ones; such investigations turn feared collapse of scientific and everyday accountings of social life into an opportunity to observe their very interdependence. And acknowledging this connectivity makes visible the ingenious translations from one domain to the other. To recognize reflexivity, therefore, expands the entire investigative vista, granting opportunities to observe previously elided processes and track the dynamic relays between social psychological knowledge and ways of being persons.

Making the social

A provocative history of the human sciences by Bruce Mazlish (1998) aims to show how the human sciences can be at once “scientific” and also attentive to the diachronics of consciousness, including reflexivity. Mazlish proposes that the human sciences are emergent knowledge forms in the sense that significant intellectual advances ensue from transformations in those sciences’ objects—both societies and social actors. The human sciences, therefore, are dynamic (uncertain) sciences. He dismisses simplistic edicts that prediction, control, and determinism are grounds for social scientific knowledge. These classic social science aspirations are complicated if not crippled by a capacity of social actors that social psychologists observed and recorded nearly half a century ago: “if humans knew how they are supposed to behave, they may behave otherwise” (p. 17). In lieu of these canonical goals of social science, Mazlish argues for a cultural evolutionary conception of consciousness wherein large-scale changes in cultures (technologies, language, symbolism, social

relations) compel new social understandings or new consciousness that includes the human sciences themselves. He draws a strong cocausal relation between human life forms and the human sciences, a relation indicating that “there can be no economic science until a market economy has emerged. There can be no sociology until the concept of society emerges out of the changing forms of human co-habitation, as in the shift from the feudal to the industrial” (p. 75).

For Mazlish (1998) the intrinsic relationships among practices, consciousness, and scientific interrogations mean that the human sciences inevitably involve degrees of uncertainty. They are “uncertain sciences,” yet they are sciences nevertheless. The prescriptive and contingent characteristics of social knowledge assures uncertainty because, as he observes, “any law in the social sciences is part of a process including prescriptions that foster change, which then creates new conditions in which that law no longer effectively applies” (p. 189). In other words, the very scientific shortcomings of the human sciences are at least partially produced by their success. Transformations in human behavior result at least in part from the assimilation of social scientific knowledge, and these transformations can invalidate the knowledge that motivated them. Put otherwise, Mazlish proposes that the “social” of psychological and societal life is different kind of object than the objects studied in the natural sciences. The social is more mutable and generative than quartz; its evolution is far more rapid and diverse than genes. Implicit here is the need to retire the “methodological individualism” that undergirds social psychology for the individual is always social and this sociality changes over time.

Perspectives like Mazlish’s challenge the conventional boundaries between social life and formal scientific accounts of that reality; between knowledge and culture; and between the real and the nominal. In so doing they accord with Anthony Giddens’ (1984) concept of social sciences “double hermeneutic.” As the first part of this hermeneutic, Giddens posits that social scientists initially draw upon cultural interpretations to initially locate and define their object of inquiry—for instance to formulate working definitions of “frustration” or “romantic attraction.” This is the first hermeneutic or interpretive task. The second hermeneutic step transpires upon completion of the scientific analysis, when scientific interpretations of that object are returned to the rest of society. A growing number of scholars hailing from various disciplines are forging similarly historically grounded models of the relations of social/human science and social actions. In acknowledging reflexivity, these models articulate dynamic feedbacks—what Ian Hacking (1995a, 2002) calls “looping” of human kinds and Graham Richards (1987, 2002) terms the “circuitry” of the psychological. Scientific (and other authoritative) representation of social life changes the very ways of being social, of being persons; these changes in turn inform subsequent scientific investigations. As Hacking describes this relay, “To create new ways of classifying people is also to change how we can think of ourselves, to change our sense of self-worth, even how we remember our

own past. These, in turn, generate a looping effect because people of the kind behave differently and so are different. That is to say the kid changes, and so there is new causal knowledge to be gained perhaps, old causal knowledge to be jettisoned” (1995a, p. 369). Hacking claims not that self-worth is necessarily a relative phenomenon but, rather, that its form changes in significant ways and now does so in part because of the scientific knowledge found about it.

Apprehending these looping effects, philosopher Alasdair MacIntyre (1985) rather boldly asserts that people are not the same as they were before psychology was established, even proposing that “Psychologists have had varying (sometimes striking) success in interpreting the human world; but they have been systematically successful in changing it” (p. 897). According to MacIntyre, it could not be otherwise. To illustrate how psychology’s empirical descriptions inevitably make their way to ever more robust prescriptions and new actions, he draws upon social psychological studies of balance, dissonance, and attention—a theory mode he calls “the invisibility of rationality in other people.” Social psychologists’ demonstration of humans’ failure to be fully rational is “culturally influential” in conditions where individuals aim to affect others. He argues, “advertisers, political campaign managers, and others succeed, not only in acting on the hypothesis that the rest of us are by and large nonrational sheep, but also in communicating to us that is how they think about us” (p. 901). MacIntyre emphasizes researchers’ own cultural practices, such as the experimental arrangements that structure interactions between so-called rational actors (experimenters) and irrational ones (subjects), arguing that these very arrangements are constitutive of rationality and irrationality. Whenever other human practices (such as education and commerce) incorporate similar social arrangements, they tend to import such binaries (rational and irrational) as well as prescriptions for action.

The social sciences are hardly unique in effecting such changes in human thought and action, and social psychologists who consider the transformative effects of their science can be informed by other transformative actions and entities. Outside the realm of scientific research there is now considerable evidence of how technologies and technical practices alter human actions and self-conceptions. Invention of the internet and related computer technologies that made virtual reality possible also have made possible perceptions of self as plastic and alterable, perceptions that were previously merely theoretical conjectures about the self’s mutability, partiality, and fragmentation (Turtle, 1995). Inventions in robotics and cybernetics have, according to some, brought into being the “posthuman” who resigns material embodiment and consciousness in favor of privileging information flows and a human being “seamlessly articulated with intelligent machines” (Hayles, 1999, p. 3). The subjectivity of the posthuman is not the liberal humanist subject with will, body, and a “natural” self. The psychological sciences, charged with microscopic inspection of human nature and assessment of human action, occupy an important, but not the only, place in the making of forms of personhood.

The feedbacks through which scientific practices (methods, theory, and epistemology) engage and co-constitute ontology (the nature of human nature) is clearly evidenced in survey research. Sarah Igo's *The Averaged American* traces the rise of survey techniques that have aimed to calibrate the normative—the collective whole or “us” as well as the individual or “me”—of American society in the 20th century. Survey research designates the ordinary person as the subject and ultimately also consumer of the resultant knowledge. Survey data influence both the public sphere and individuals, providing the latter with ever changing indices of themselves. Survey findings at once describe the public and individuals' patterns of living, and they have come to serve as prescriptions for living. They entice people to ask questions and seek answers—about what is important about them, what is changing about them, and what specific ways they approximate or diverge from the norm. Survey information thus “enabled individuals to filter their experiences through tables and percentages, to fit themselves into social scientific categories and to identify with strangers” (Igo, 2007, p. 20). As Igo found, individuals were not always readily compliant participants or recipients of the findings: Just as they came to assess themselves and alter their consciousness of self and others, so they sometimes spoke up, contesting what was measured or researchers' interpretations of the measurements collected. If researchers cherished reformist or emancipatory aims—aspiring, as did Alfred Kinsey, to unleash individuals from social myths and conventions—the massive, nearly ubiquitous uses of survey techniques to probe virtually every aspect of life had the effect of making “statistical citizens” who reflect upon data about themselves and others in newspapers, magazines, television, textbooks, and the internet. Surveys soon became part of everyday thinking about society and a pertinent source of self-rumination, part of understanding the “public” and oneself. They served to delineate a “mass public” and “also shaped the selves who would inhabit it, affecting everything from beliefs about morality and individuals to visions of democracy and the nation” (Igo, 2007, p. 282).

These cases intimate historical ontology, the dynamic looping of self and knowledge about selves, but do not presume it to be a matter of social construction, some top-down scientific invention of human objects (Hacking, 1999). Instead, they detail the co-constitution of scientific knowledge and human forms (ontology), showing such co-constituting to involve cultural imaginings, economic arrangements, social structures, material conditions, and even abstract presuppositions of the science (such as determinism, reductionism, ameliorism). This circuit of social knowing and being “is flexible, often indeterminate in its effects, at some level ‘natural’ as opposed to ‘artificial’ and emanates . . . from its own reflexive struggles to know itself” (Richards, 2002, p. 30). The intricate, multiple connections between what Graham Richards has distinguished as “Psychology” (the science) and “psychology” (the psychological world) can and do sometimes yield unexpected, counterintuitive, and even inadvertent consequences.

The past half-century's investigations of menstrual experiences illustrate inadvertent outcomes of investigative projects

(Parlee, 1994). Aiming to promote unbiased research and challenge sexist assumptions about women's psychology—specifically notions of the psychological deficits imposed by female reproductive physiology—a number of feminist researchers, many of whom were social psychologists, called for more rigorous empirical research, including physiological measures, of women's experience throughout the menstrual cycle. They specifically urged research that distinguishes between cultural and biological influences on women's experience. At the time, the late 1960s, extant research on the possible effects of hormonal cycling was scant, although there existed popular conceptions of women's impaired psychological functioning at certain times in the menstrual cycle along with accompanying arguments that this impairment affects women's performance. With researchers' call for better-designed studies, the matter of women's periodicity soon garnered attention, yet this rising interest came not only from the feminist researchers themselves but also from differently interested groups, including medical researchers, physicians, clinical psychologists, pharmaceutical companies, and consumers. Further, researchers' demand for studies that distinguish between cultural and biological influences had the inadvertent effect of bifurcating the research program: Medical and life scientists seized the biological domain, leaving psychologists to investigate cultural and psychological ones. The research agenda thus was divided and feminist psychologists sidelined from important discussions. The extensive if fractured interrogations along with revived “hormone talk” ultimately if inadvertently magnified notions (and quite possibly experiences) of physiological gender differences. The very scientific focus raised public visibility of the matter. Also, the concomitant dramatic growth in pharmaceutical industry and emergence of biomedical notions of body and mind (understandings of individuals as products of biological processes) incited beliefs that the female hormonal cycle *must* have psychological effects. And as Parlee observed, these beliefs circulated during a period when gender relationships were particularly fraught and when men and women sought expert explanations for personal situations. The ensuing rhetoric of fluctuating hormones, emphasis on negative symptoms, and the new nomenclature of PMS (premenstrual syndrome) trumped contravening social-psychological studies that reported considerable cultural factors. Biologically inflected rhetoric likewise obscured new empirical work that indicated no significant effects of hormonal cycles, reported situational (not biological) influences on women's (and men's) moods, and detected methodological contaminants in some research (Parlee, 1994). Thus, heightened attention promoted the idea of premenstrual syndrome as a reasonable explanation of women's experiences.

Language

Psychologists take their scientific language very seriously. Cleaving precise statements about the human world and sculpting operative terms with impressive skill, they have

achieved a rigorous regulation of language, producing a manual of style that surpasses other disciplines in its comprehensiveness (Bazerman, 1988; Budge & Katz, 1995). The language of psychology is taken to be referential; that is, words are taken to refer more or less accurately to some aspect of reality or to denote some natural entity or event. While serving important epistemic and methodological commitments, this view of language—with “its virtual obliteration of personal opinion stated as such” (Brown, 1991, p. 135)—also under-appreciates the genealogies of the words, narratives, and rhetoric. Philosophers and linguists have long argued that there exists no neutral, acontextual description of persons or actions and proposed, instead, that statements, however assiduously constructed, acquire their meaning within the context of their appearances. They have demonstrated how conventions of terminology, style, and argumentation bring with them a rich linguistic and practical legacy: Language conventions are footprints of a usage journey that more often than not travels back and forth from everyday discourse to laboratory talk. By continuing to subscribe to a referential theory of language—and by aiming thereby toward transcending the vernacular—social psychologists (much like other social scientists) “tend to overlook the inherently rhetorical nature of the topics which they investigate as well as the rhetorical nature of the enterprise of social psychology itself” (Billig, 1990, p. 49). For example, while emotion research foregrounds the body, it nevertheless has relied on vernacular terms and storied tellings of emotion; as Theodore Sarbin argues, “Common emotion terms, such as anger, love, grief, and jealousy, are names for cultural narratives rather than bodily perturbations” (Sarbin, 1998, p. 302).

The names given to psychological phenomena and the narrative accounts through which knowledge is relayed, therefore, carry meanings beside or beyond proximal and technical ones. Historians of the social sciences have paid more attention to language as it became apparent how the “discourse of science and enlightenment were the principal medium in which social scientists formed their purposes, and in which they represented those purposes as true and legitimate” (Ross, 2003, p. 207). The “linguistic turn” taken by many working in the human and social sciences (but not psychology) prompted attention to the work that words actually do and the essential yet flexible ways that narratives are deployed to structure explanations (White, 1973). Heeding the linguistic turn, some historians excavate the language of social psychology, and their investigations illumine the field’s uses of metaphor, narrative, and rhetoric.

Metaphor

Perhaps no literary device in science has been subject to more inspection than that of metaphor. Interrogations undertaken by scientists themselves as well as philosophers, linguists, and historians suggest “that metaphor is not only a form of *speech* but more fundamentally a form of *thought*, having basic epistemological functions” (Leary, 1990, p. 1; emphasis in original).

Metaphors are ubiquitous in all the sciences, and the more potent ones form the bases of our conceptual vision, inviting us to comprehend something in terms of (qualities of) something else, to recognize some previously unseen yet revelatory similarity between the two things. Metaphors are at once cognitive constructions and powerful devices of communication: “By defining a particular object metaphorically we arouse certain expectations, focus attention on certain features, and thereby indicate certain priorities for practical action” (Danziger, 1990b, p. 351).

Theories of mental life have significantly relied upon extended metaphors. Nineteenth-century psychiatrists, neurologists, and psychologists drew on metaphors of energy from physics to describe mental functions; they eventually took the mind to be a system of nervous energy, which then would produce mental dysfunctions such as neurasthenia and neurosis if disrupted or interrupted. The idea of mental energy with its limits and discharges remains, framing everyday notions of stress and fatigue as well as scientific models of cognition.

Examining psychology’s language of affect, James Averill (1990) identified five major metaphors in modern research on emotion, i.e., theories of emotions drawn on metaphors of physiological process and responses; animal nature; driving forces or vital energies; diseases of the mind; and inner experiences. Each of these metaphors calls attention to particular features of psychic or social life; each disregards or denies other features. Locating these central metaphors provided the basis for imagining a sixth—emotions as social roles—that Averill developed as one that more accurately registers emotion’s cultural and moral functions. While the other prevailing metaphors take emotions as inward and internal, the “role” metaphor admits the sociality of emotions, highlighting “the role that emotions play within the social system, as well as any biological and psychological functions they might have” (p. 127). Although not a sole means of linguistic analysis, historical studies can complement or elucidate studies of contemporary language analysis and vice versa, as is the case with the language of emotions adopted in psychology. Historian Otneil Dror’s (1998) examination of late 19th-century laboratory experiments on emotion documents how emotion came to be taken as internal, physiological (determined) states. He found that those empirical studies of emotion were undertaken with the aim of creating laboratory and clinical conditions in which the subject is not in an emotional state and hence could serve as a superior object for experimentation or patient for physical examination. Rendering emotions as bodily states greatly advanced their measurement and strengthened belief in the laboratory as a controlled space for more objective observations. Dror’s history of laboratory work on emotion thus helps explain the specific metaphors that Averill identified in contemporary emotion research.

The metaphor of theater that underlies role theory and dramaturgical perspectives has extensively shaped social psychology’s understanding of social interaction. The theatrical or dramaturgic metaphor notably circumscribes what can be understood about the social self and social action, particularly

through an implicit assumption that scripts impose limits on persons' roles and, therefore, on their behavior. Assuming that behavior follows scripts and transpires on a managed stage eclipses certain aspects of the social self, notably the vicissitudes of self-reflection, innovative behaviors, and intersubjective relations. The limits imposed by the theater metaphor, argues Richard Walsh-Bowers, signal a need to rethink the social self and social roles as more fluid, fundamentally intersubjective, and involving "the social actor's experience of reflective consciousness, the development of selves within interpersonal relations, and the person's executive function or choice-making and self-monitoring capacities" (2006, p. 682).

Psychology's metaphors and analogies have often been drawn from natural science, engineering, and mathematics. These scientific domains are rich in imagery that imparts tacit certainty, validity, and precision to the less esteemed sciences of mental life (Brown, 1991). The metaphoric use of statistics to model mental processes illustrates such importations of imagery as well as technique. Only after the institution of inferential statistics were statistics taken seriously as an analogy of cognition, culminating in the idea of mind as intuitive statistician (Gigerenzer, 1991, 1996). The usage of a technical tool to fashion new theory shows how what has been called the "logic of justification" is not independent from the "logic of discovery"; it indicates how metaphors are importantly connected with creative development of theory. The statistics metaphor of mind has generated a massive body of psychological research, significantly shaping the architecture of social psychology. Gerd Gigerenzer named this metaphor case a "tools-to-theories heuristic" because it originates with researchers' practical utilization of statistics to resolve perceived problems of their own subjective judgments about experimental outcomes (judgments about hypothesis testing). By excavating the analogy's origins, Gigerenzer located its base assumptions, including its tacit premise that there is a singular statistics and only one interpretation of probability.

Another case where research tools come to metaphorically transform researchers' understanding of a phenomenon is the use of game theory to better understand the strategies of war. Introduced during the postwar era, game theory was especially appealing for its emphasis on rationality and mathematical formulations. As economic historian Mary Morgan (2007) found, this investigative tool soon transformed thinking about war: "Whereas game theory initially provided a mathematically formulated theory of rational action in certain situations that might be *applied* to the Cold War world, the process of using game theory to think about that world turned the relationship around: the Cold War came to be seen as a set of game situations" (p. 159; emphasis in original). Researchers in the 1950s and 1960s did not simply advance game theoretic models and methods, they also played the games such that "game theory was associated not so much with the civilization of war as the reduction of war studies to the playroom" (p. 160).

As these studies suggest, the power of metaphors and analogies extends well beyond that of literary device and can

engender literal descriptions of the social world. They foster not only novel ideas about psychological objects but also new features of those objects, even new entities. They kindle innovations and "in engineering such creations, psychology creates new capacities for itself—new ways of thinking, experiencing and behaving" (Richards, 2002, p. 20). Semantic innovations, then, eventually come to be taken as expressions of human nature, even ushering transformations of the object (Maasen, 1995).

Rhetoric

Although "rhetoric" is sometimes used to imply empty or florid language, the term also refers to the discipline, art, and methods of persuasive communication. Studies of rhetoric examine the production and use of argumentative or persuasive discourse, aiming to decipher discourse in the context of its enunciation. They address both past and contemporary social psychology, affording a broad perspective on its linguistic forms and inviting comparisons of those forms across time. Investigating the rhetorical strategies in recent social psychology, Michael Billig isolated claims about "common sense," comparing social psychologists' aims to understand and transcend (the confusions of) common sense of ordinary actors with their own internal, scientific arguments. He discovered that "the uncommon sense of social psychology resembles the more ordinary common sense, which it seeks to replace" (1990, p. 59). Both versions of common sense, social psychologists' and common persons', share similar structures of argumentation, vetting of conflicting claims, confusions in communication, and residual counterclaims.

Textbooks incorporate persuasive means to distinguish the discipline's knowledge claims from common knowledge, but early introductory psychology textbooks faced yet another challenge: how to persuade readers that they were distinct from the rather faulty human beings textually depicted as nonrational or moved by forces beyond their own volition. In other words, authors had to address the very subjects whose own experiences were being reinterpreted, sometimes radically, by the science. To persuade readers and establish an alliance with them, authors deployed rhetorical strategies to signal to readers that they (the readers) stood apart from ordinary beings, or that they could stand apart once they acquired the psychologists' perspective (Morawski, 1992, 1996, 1997). Their strategy resulted in a dual representation of persons. The texts contain a double discourse "of persons as at once organic forms and social entities. Just as they describe the determined, biomechanical body, so they present readers as social agents who could will and ultimately determine the direction of their lives" (Morawski, 1997, pp. 220–221). Social psychology textbook authors faced the same dilemma, only heightened by a greater need to secure the field's scientific legitimacy.

Textbooks provide exceptionally rich material for discursive and rhetorical analysis. Crafted without the stringent oversight of journal editors, and written for learners rather than professionals, these texts are more open, permitting their authors

latitude in claim making and justification. Clare MacMartin and Andrew Winston (2000) utilized discourse analysis to identify forms of talk about experimentation in social psychology texts published between 1930 and 1960. In their and related studies, language statements are understandable as forms of action. Following J. L. Austin's theory of performative speech acts, language can be seen as constitutive of practice rather than simply representational. Accordingly, MacMartin and Winston examined discussions of experimentation "in terms of the grammatical and rhetorical features with which it was constructed, variations in the way in which it was constructed and used within and across texts, and the possible functions of the way in which it was deployed" (p. 352). Comparison of Gardner Murphy and Lois Murphy's and Kurt Lewin's writings on research reveals how the latter enthusiastically and persuasively promoted the experiment as the central method in the discipline. Among the rhetorical tactics, Lewin foregrounded himself as exemplar; assiduously avoided examining grand assertions made about experimentation; invoked feelings of a social psychological community; and offered tantalizing analogies between the objects of social psychology and those of the physical sciences. Lewin's selective rhetoric compels a specific science, thereby providing substantively more directive than mere description or representation of actual scientific practices (see also Danziger, 1993; Korn, 1997).

Research methods textbooks have also played an important pedagogical role in promoting experimentation. A series of historical studies have found them to contain a justificatory rhetoric along with defensive arguments seeming to anticipate criticisms. In the 1950s, textbook authors began to actively defend experimentation and denigrate other conceptions of social psychology research (Stam, Radtke, & Lubek, 2000). They proclaimed a monolithic, systematic method in a field in which there existed at the time no certainty or consensus about either the objects of study or appropriate methods of inquiry. Not surprisingly, these accounts contain inconsistencies and what Stam et al. call "rhetorical strains." Prominent are tensions between the idea of rational experimenter and intuitive scientist; between insecurities about the experiment as ideal method and the exoneration of that method; between the nature of subjects as passively submissive and as subversively threatening; and between a fun-and-games attitude toward experimentation and a sober, scientific one. In another historical project, Stam, Lubek, and Radke (1998) examined the specific language used to distinguish subjects (as docile, cooperative, and machine-like) and the experimenter (conscious, ethics, and intuitive). Identification of rhetorical tropes like these depictions of subject and experimenter exposes inconsistencies in scientific practice that, in turn, invites further investigation into why such inconsistencies or contradictions arose and whether similar ones persist in current research practices. In this case, the mixed portrayals of subject and experimenter complicated explanations of subjects' behavior in experiments (Morawski, 2010) and decisions about what constituted ethical research (Stark, 2010). Additionally, they contrast with the

"automated, cookbook approach to research" that was being promoted in methods texts and chapters (Stam et al., 1998, p. 159).

One function of rhetorical slippage is particularly discernible in apparently incompatible prototypes of the social psychologist. One prototype represents a "scientific experimenter" who dutifully adheres to the logic and rules of method while the other depicts a fun-and-games researcher whose "ludicro-experimental" approach involves theatrical, creative, and high-impact techniques (Lubek & Stam, 1995). Despite the textual inconsistency, engaging *both* types of the scientist permitted representation of social psychology as a rigorous science *and* the seductive proselytizing of its performances. Championed in many methods texts, the ludicro-experimental icon eventually faced criticism, but for a period it served to promote the discipline and expand its investigative purview.

Narratives

Considerable scholarship has explored the narratives scientists have used to represent the world, sometimes producing provocative theses about the nature of science itself. One such thesis argues that experimental activities exceed any singular historical narrativity, and that "an experimental system has *more stories* to tell than the experimenter at a given moment is trying to tell with it" (Rheinberger, 1999, p. 425; emphasis in original). Another proposition suggests how narratives do not merely describe but also organize scientific thinking, specifically how narratives structure scientific actions, decisions, representations, and the science's official histories (their retrospective accounts of scientific advance). Whereas it was once assumed that narratives are compelled by the facts (whether the facts are historical, social, or scientific), they are now understood to be *more* flexible: Narratives entail selection, ordering, and interpretation as well as deletion and omission (White, 1973). Narrative analysis yields insights into writers' interests and commitments as well as their disavowals and aporias. Like empirical evidence, narratives do crucial work in forging explanations, dismissing alternative hypotheses, and delimiting the empirical field (Haraway, 1991).

Social psychology's self-produced narrative histories, the "official" histories, have received much attention. These histories are found to be not only laudatory and authoritative, but also mythic: They feature "origin myths" that claim precursors and founding events with exceptional partiality (Harris, 1979; Lubek & Apfelbaum, 2000; Samelson, 1974). More recently these mythic stories have been augmented with or supplanted by "production statistics" about the field whereby quantification tells the "story" of social psychology (Samselson, 2000). In order to craft a linear and progressive story, official histories omit much, including contestations over the very conception of the "social," methodological problems, political interests, and abandoned theories. Crafted as stories of success, for example, official histories fail to acknowledge that some of the field's heroes, including Floyd Allport and Leon Festinger, "later in

life found their old approaches wanting and forswore them totally, at the same time that novices in the field were being taught to follow in the old (abandoned) footsteps” (Samelson, 2000, p. 505). While truncated and partial, official chronicles of social psychology nevertheless often gesture toward counterstories or larger forces behind that life. Thus, the more prominent or “classic” histories, from F. B. Karpf’s 1932 monographic history to E. E. Jones’ 1998 *Handbook of Social Psychology* chapter, acknowledge social psychology’s organic connectedness with turbulent social conditions—crises, catastrophes, dysfunctions, tensions—whether these be the Civil War’s disruption of the social world or the post-Second World War global struggles and intergroup conflicts (Morawski & Bayer, 2003). Yet these accounts stop short of examining the substantive implications of the field’s cultural beginnings and do not investigate the political and economic interests that have substantially motivated the field. Had they attended to political and social conditions, a quite different narrative would have ensued. For instance, canonical histories often cite the influence of the Second World War and the Cold War that immediately followed, yet they do not ask how these events nurtured researchers’ preoccupations with defense, security, conformity, and trust and, more importantly, how these concerns found their way into social psychology laboratories. Nor do they consider how this culture prompted the abovementioned turn toward cognitive conceptions of creative, flexible, and rational human actors and away from dominant behavioral notions of passive, mechanistic ones. They similarly overlook economic factors, including how funding agencies encouraged defense-related research and certain scientific methods.

With an aspiration to compose a coherent, singular and linear account, canonical histories underplay contradictions and controversies (such as the “crisis in social psychology”), and omit alternative theories and perspectives (such as narrative psychology, feminist research, and non-experimental methods). Conventional accounts stop short of presenting the full story, for instance, of the immigrant social psychologists (such as Lewin and Asch) whose later “mainstream” researches are championed. Canonical chronicles likewise tend to erase family discords and errant relatives with the effect of constricting the social world that actually made social psychology as it is.

As one form of contextual inquiry, studies of social psychology’s language expose these ways that words, figures of speech and narrative structures meaningfully shape how objects come to be known. They illuminate researchers’ ambitions, ambivalences, and conceptions of themselves and the social world—motives and affects that fueled particular ventures. In so doing, they suggest the import of scientific language and offer means for considering the roots and implications of current linguistic practices. Attention to language serves not only historical insights but also contemporary work; for instance, showing how contemporary research on stereotypes and attitudes adopts the language (and deep concepts) of virtual reality with its aspirational ideal types, computer technology with its automaticity, and the economy with its equivalence of exchanges.

A note of caution is warranted here: Examinations of language do not presume that social psychology and its objects are thereby linguistic constructions—that they are simply worlds made up with words. On the contrary, language analysis can appreciate the real as it is discursively given form and meaning and how, in turn, semantic forms are constitutive of that real. Critically appraising rhetorical conventions, tensions, conflicts and elisions, for instance, permits better seeing how “rationality” and “irrationality” came to be affixed to certain forms of decision making and decision makers (Lopes, 1991). Examining these terms, Lopes discovered that prior to the 1970s, psychological and social psychological research recorded fairly competent decision-making among experimental subjects whereas later research found nonrational, even befuddled decision-making. The bias and heuristics literature arising in the 1980s abounded with clever and engaging experimental designs, intimations of researchers’ superior judgment, and ambiguous slippage from description of “heuristics” to that of “bias.” That research also incorporated a repetitive, evaluative language regarding what is “rational” and what “irrational.” Not surprisingly, the popular press echoed researchers’ descriptions of subjects’ judgments as “ludicrous,” “indefensible,” and “self-defeating” (Lopes quoting Tversky and Kahneman, p. 80). The reality of that irrationality, Lopes concluded, “is mostly in the rhetoric” (p. 80).

Histories of language use show how categories such as “attitude” were revised and refined over the past century to foster certain assumptions about morality, the relation of thoughts to the real, and the irrelevance of ideology (Danziger, 1997). Although initially described as observable phenomena, attitudes eventually came to be understood as internal, dispositional, and not directly observable. Through this transformation attitudes came to be defined as hypothetical internal states that the subjects themselves could only partially and inadequately report. The term came to refer to social, albeit strictly individual, attributes; to “an actually existing state of affairs inside the individual.” Discarding a conception of attitudes as an observable physical stance or as a conscious awareness, social psychology bestowed upon attitude “a whole metaphysics of unobservable but nevertheless real and distinct entities that push and direct the person from within” (Danziger, 1997, p. 145). This example of changing discourses acknowledges the reality of social psychology’s entities yet demonstrates how “psychological properties are intelligible features of the world only by virtue of their display within a discursive context” (p. 190). That is, entities are real (and lively) yet cannot be simply and directly observed as such; they are registered in language, including quantitative language. Words and discourse generally are pointing fingers that contribute to more accurate genealogies of our scientific practices. Language analyses thus serve contemporary researchers as well, providing background and techniques for examining how our scientific language functions and what world assumptions it brings along and conveys via empirical research. Beyond its presumed representational function, scientific language does do work, and recent language

studies advance a larger project to better understand scientific practices beyond abstract philosophical notions of them.

Practices

Historians and science studies scholars are exploring questions about *how* science happens, augmenting studies of *what* happens in science. In lieu of documenting scientific achievements and presuming certain epistemological precepts, they ask, *how* is science produced? The question is direct, yet the answers are proving to be complex and multiple. Seeing science as practice impels fuller appreciation of the myriad tools, actors, social relations, resources, languages, and material conditions through which knowledge is imagined, generated, validated, and shared. (Many of the studies of scientific language and reflexivity, although treated separately in this chapter, fit within the purview of scientific practices.) The move from asking the *why* to the *how* of science shifts analytic emphasis from theory to method, foregrounding instruments, experiments, cognitive styles or personas, marketing, and social exchanges. For some scholars, understanding scientific practice ultimately entails a “decentering” of the human subject (Pickering, 1995), acknowledging plural realities (Law, 2004), or mapping affinities among actors and actants or networks (Latour, 2005). Investigations of practice sometimes trouble cherished tenets finding, for example, that against beliefs that science is unified and orderly, it can be disunified (Galison, 1996). Studies of scientific practice are especially promising for social psychology with its complex and rich connections with private as well as social life.

Attending to scientific practices need presume neither debunking nor celebratory ambitions. As philosopher Joseph Rouse proposes, “critical engagement with scientific practices might variously articulate and reinforce dominant epistemic and political alignments, contribute to or extend oppositional discourses and practices, or shift the field to envision new possibilities” (1999, p. 453). Engaging scientific practices typically entails bracketing epistemology and its dualisms (theory and methods, objects and representations of objects, human and nonhuman agents) in order to investigate how these cognitive tools are produced. In so doing, these projects assess science in the making—the techniques, skills, reasoning styles, and professional cultures of scientists as well as the material conditions (machines, bodies, spaces, objects and economics).

Just as these investigations yield insights into what procedures, machines, reasoning styles, space, economics, objects, and interactions make science, so they cast light upon what is backgrounded or unexplicated. Analyses of practice can bring to the fore tacit moral and political impulses accompanying technical choices. The history of statistics in the social sciences reveals how their wholesale adoption by researchers was tied to the rise of a democratic ethos of fairness, the replacement of an elite group of decision-makers with experts, and a culture of suspiciousness about truth claims (Porter, 1986, 1994, 1995). Statistics thereby promised “truths” that transcended those based on privilege, tradition, character, or brute political power.

As evidenced with statistics, political alliances and social imperatives influenced seemingly unlikely projects of instrument making, editorial duties, national crisis, or recording devices. In other words, even presumed stable epistemic matters such as quantification convey political and moral commitments and change over time: They emerge, grow, and sometimes pass away. “Objectivity” too is illustrative of this liveliness of epistemology: Its appearance and alterations over the past two centuries are closely tied to changes in conceptions of human subjectivity, machine technologies, gender, and professional struggles (Bernstein, 1983; Bordo, 1987; Daston and Galison, 2007; Keller, 1985, 1994; Porter, 1994).

Attention to investigative practices ultimately exposes the extensiveness of science, revealing how knowledge—its inception, execution, and reception—involves commerce, personal lives, governments, economics, technologies, material cultures, and social arrangements. Such studies chart the vibrancy of scientific practices: the back and forth relays of information, materials, techniques, and customs between what demarcated as “science” and “culture.” These capacious relays can be productive of new events and objects, generating novel events and entities and indicating that scientific objects can change. For instance, shifts in modern economics are fully explicable only by considering its tools, theories, changes in the economic world, and the interaction between these: Modern economics influences the economic world as it lends models and instruments to explain it. Taking account of these extended practices explains how “the economic science of the 20th century has, by means of its engineering interventions in the economy, engendered new economic ‘events,’ to be reckoned with by new generations of economists” (Morgan, 2003, p. 305). Similarly, the classification of multiple personality changed over the 20th century in response to new evidence, imported assessment techniques and theories, and changes in the phenomenon itself—in those individuals classified as such (Hacking, 1995b). Histories of scientific objects thus can reveal them to be real and historical, weighty with biographical detail, and traveling across delineated boundaries of science and culture.

There are several distinctive features of social psychology that make the field at once an enticing and also a challenging candidate for study of scientific practices. First, the discipline’s intimate relatedness to social life—its direct relevance to nearly all social interaction—and its long championed utility for social policy signals its extensive connections outside the discipline (Good, 2000). Perceiving the extended and extensive circuits prepares us to ask, what exchanges are made between the laboratory and the street? How do trades of resources and ideas transpire? With what consequences? Apprehending this circuitry likewise invites asking how might social psychology alter its scientific objects? How might persons act or think differently upon learning of social psychology’s discoveries or living in environments designed according to them? How, for instance, are people changed by knowledge of bystander intervention dynamics or heuristic bias?

The second feature of social psychology that distinguishes its practices is its methods, specifically the harnessing of methods of its master discipline (psychology) to study social, exterior actions and things. In other words, modern social psychology has adopted and adapted methods fabricated for studying interior states and deploying them to investigate what might be very different sorts of worldly phenomena—social ones. How was this transposition of intrapsychic methods onto external social affairs effected? With what consequences? How has what we take to be “social” changed through these investigative transpositions? What, if any, aspects of the social world have consequently been laid aside? Social psychology’s distinctive practices thus are most evident in two arenas: its methods and objects of inquiry. Examining the field’s methods exposes some of the ways that everyday sociality was translated to render it amenable to precision research techniques. And close analysis of the objects of research uncovers overlooked moral and political premises that accompany empirical work.

Methods

The social psychology attached to (and located within) psychology has substantively utilized the principal methods of psychology, consequently privileging experimental techniques, quantification, and individual-centered procedures (despite the longstanding utilization of other methodologies). Curricula and textbooks’ nearly singular concentration on experimentation omits discussing that method’s philosophical and epistemological presuppositions. Yet the design and implementation of research methods are far more than an empirical matter. They involve extensive negotiations among researchers that are often guided by ideals of efficiency, expediency, and aesthetics as well as epistemic ones. Sometimes these negotiations are internal to the science, as is the case with the invention of “variables.” The history of “variables”—the coming into being of a uniform, mandatory technique in experimentation—shows how this methodological entity was crucial to the making of consensus among researchers. Identifying a laboratory entity or event as a “variable” greatly reduced observational variability. It also invoked a sense of observer neutrality and promoted an engineering attitude through which research was more readily translatable into social life outside the lab (Danziger, 1997; Winston, 1988, 1990, 2004; Winston & Blais, 1996). The emergence of variables occurred over a short period of time and entailed transfiguring 19th-century terminology and operations of statistics into signifiers of psychological constructs. Disbanding common talk of stimulus and response for variables began in the 1930s, and by the 1950s “variable” came to be used “to refer to anything that was the object of psychological investigation” (Danziger, 1997, p. 167). Events happening within the organism (initially described as “intervening variables”) thus could become part of observable reality. Introduction of variables sidelined matters of subjective meaning: As variables shifted from being a statistical concept to a natural, psychological force, researchers could more readily

translate common cultural understandings into precise, measurable ones; cultural importations, then, acquired scientific life. The birth of variables, adopted from statistics, enabled techniques that, in turn, could designate the reality of psychological phenomena. Winston and Blais (1996) note a certain irony in psychology’s adoption of variables as a scientific advance when, in fact, that technique departed from the scientific practices of the physical sciences.

Research methods have rarely been architected by scientists alone and often involve elaborate and extended negotiations with others, including public and private funding agencies, departmental colleagues, subjects, university officials, and interested third parties (educators, clinicians, government agencies, companies). Much can be learned about the design of tests and scales from archival evidence of the extensive negotiations between researchers and the military (Carson, 1993). Psychologists charged with creating a uniform intelligence test for First World War army recruits worked intensively with members of the military, heeding their conceptions of the desired soldier, ideal personal characteristics, and test validity. Similarly, the genealogy of survey research described above necessitated important, ongoing interactions between researchers and the public—exchanges that substantively shaped subsequent survey development as well as interpretation of findings (Igo, 2007). Even methods conceived and refined in laboratories have larger histories where other individuals outside the laboratory influenced the form and use of methods. And sometimes experimental techniques are moved outside the laboratory; the application of B. F. Skinner’s behavior analysis to “real world” situations attests to the transportability of laboratory technologies to everyday settings (Rutherford, 2009). While the psychology research community increasingly disregarded the methods and findings of radical behaviorism, its techniques were borrowed, re-engineered, and sometimes flourished in hospitals, clinics, and schools. Today, variants of behavior change techniques continue to be used in practical settings.

Connections between scientific methods and the world outside the laboratory are vibrantly evidenced in two studies of a classic social psychology experiment. Stanley Milgram’s experiments on obedience have been subject to a plethora of analyses, reflections, and judgments: Along with biographies and ethical reprises, they have been singled out to illustrate counterintuitive findings and the social impact of research. With assiduous attention to the cultural meanings circulating through Milgram’s project, however, much more can be learned. Anna McCarthy’s (2005) examination of Milgram’s affinity to early reality television documents his prescience about virtual reality as well as his vital interest in reforming citizenship. Pursuing commonalities between Milgram and reality television innovator Allen Funt, McCarthy found that they shared an investment in shaping a model citizen. For both men, “covertly filmed behavior was a tool for teaching responsible citizenship on multiple scales, from the interpersonal to the institutional to the national” (2005, p. 23). Both Funt’s and Milgram’s staged

accomplishments required extensive theatricality, a dramatic enactment or simulation of real life that was hailed as realism. Rooted in these projects were tensions between what was fictional and what was real, and that fictional/realist equivocalism still poses “persistent dilemmas” for social scientists and critics alike. Milgram himself appreciated (both directly and indirectly) the ideological affinities between real and fictional, sometimes blurring distinctions between them. He cowrote a paper promoting *Candid Camera* as social science, and while undertaking his own film project in 1965, he described his work as “an amalgam of science and art” (quoted in McCarthy, p. 32). It is not surprising, then, that Philip Zimbardo identified Funt, Milgram, and himself as intellectual grandsons of Kurt Lewin.

Seeing these connections, especially in a classic experiment, compels us to ask how researchers distinguish reality from pretense of reality, from actings and maskings? How do we come to decide what about the social stuff of everyday life—or laboratory life—is real? Common confusions between artifice and real, performance and authenticity, thus raise a central epistemic question: What about the social is “real”? And how do we know this real of the social? Apprehending how epistemic decisions are intricately tied to commercial culture and political ideals opens the way for potentially insightful, if complex, reflection on how these decisions are made in contemporary research. Are the recent virtual reality replications of Milgram’s experiments as real as Milgram’s experiment? Are the simulations of his experiment? And are any of these as real as everyday obedience? McCarthy’s study thus locates a scientific premise that social psychologists should not leave untouched if research is to accurately inform us about the social world. These questions are not only historical ones but remain concerns of contemporary research; in fact, they exemplify how historical reflection can provide background lighting for better seeing persistent if sometimes latent scientific problems in current research.

Ian Nicholson (in press), too, examines Milgram’s project in terms of cultural atmosphere of the era, namely the postwar thinking about masculinity. His detailed analysis of the experimental design, confederates, actors, subjects, and experimenter’s self-regard reveals the circulation of anxiety-inflected representations of masculinity. In those documents he found that Milgram’s experiments and their sensationalized reception signal postwar worries about the deterioration of manhood, disappearance of the inner-directed man, and arrival of the compliant organizational man. These worries were taken to be signs of larger changes, namely male emasculation and surrender to authority. Milgram’s studies addressed (and his results further indicated) these very concerns about masculinity by creating an experimental version of the broader cultural circumstance—fears of the fragility of human character. The research program’s central and dramatic representation of masculinity is further evidenced in Milgram’s persona. Nicholson drew upon archival materials and published accounts of Milgram’s behavior and personal style that describe him as

often harsh and interpersonally detached—fitting the cultural idea of masculinity in that period. Additional evidence of the masculine atmosphere of the project is found in the experimental setting fully furnished with machinery, shock, and danger. In its rudimentary theatric form, the experimental situation was gendered through featuring “a man using technology to do violence to another man at the behest of a ‘scientific’ male authority” (p. 22). Even the ethical criticisms of Milgram’s project contain a gendered subtext. Additionally, Milgram heeded masculine attributes in selecting confederates, and seemed uninterested in female performances. Of the 1,000 subjects who participated in the experiments, 960 were male; men alone served in 17 of the 18 experimental conditions; and only in a 1974 publication did Milgram comment on the female participants. He never explained their near absence among the ranks of experimenters, confederates, and subjects. His analysis informed by recent work on what previously stood as an unmarked category, “masculinity,” Nicholson detected how masculinity, as a stereotype and a social way of being, actually permeated a scientific project. Here again historical investigations excavate and bring to the fore practices and premises that are not readily observed or examined in otherwise precise scientific work. Common or tacit ways of being, like masculine ideals in the postwar era, transpire within research projects; historical inquiry makes them visible to us. A bevy of analysts of social psychology’s most renowned experiment failed to observe this significant feature (an exception is Stam et al., 1998).

These two studies of Milgram’s classic experiment find a place among contemporary histories of science that aim to “understand science of the past in its own terms, reconstructing the reasonableness if not timeless rationality of the arguments on all sides” (Daston, 2009, p. 802). McCarthy and Nicholson’s studies demonstrate such relations, and they perceptibly accord with philosopher of science Joseph Rouse’s observation that “Laboratory practices guide a massive continuing effort to reconstruct the world in the image of the laboratory” (2006, p. 11).

Social psychology’s enthusiastic adoption of experimental techniques introduced major challenges to isolate, define, and measure “social” phenomena without altering those often elusive entities. And the multifold transportation of psychology’s experimental techniques to the study of social phenomena testifies to the field’s ingenuity in doing so. “Debriefing,” “confederates,” and “deception” (all techniques refined and commonly employed by social psychologists) intimate the challenges of applying scientific techniques designed for studying intrapsychic, individual events to investigate social ones. One important technique invented to make the psychology laboratory more amenable to investigating the social is the confederate. The role of the confederate, once called “phantom” or “stooge,” relies on pre-existing social types such as the confidence man or the earlier manifestation, the trickster. Yet at the same time these individuals introduced into the laboratory a modern, technological equivalent of ghosts. The confederate is at once a named

social actor and also a nonsocial entity, taken to be a stimulus relaying information and whose nonrecognized presence (by the subjects) takes scientific precedence (by the experimenter). Betty Bayer's (1998) comprehensive historical survey located an array of social-psychology phantoms that have taken nominal forms of confederates, stooges, paid participants, bogus pipelines, false feedback, accomplices, cover stories, cynanoids, and the like. These phantoms "denaturalize the 'nature' of scientific relations and investigative practices" thereby representing subjectivity as human information processing (not any social materiality or relationships) and endowing mechanization with phantasmic (invisible) powers (Bayer, 1998, p. 189). Vested with this special subjectivity *and* scientific essence, "Phantoms make seeable not only how scientific discourse constructs the boundaries between subjectivity and objectivity, but also how scientific discourse trades guise and disguise off one another to bring these very entities into being" (p. 195). At once made visible and invisible, phantoms help realize new understandings of persons in which internal or information processing can become foregrounded and the concrete social relations of laboratory actions are discounted or elided.

Debriefing practices have a similarly rich life involving the trade of cultural practices and scientific ones. Ben Harris' (1988) detailed chronicle of "debriefing" found the word's origins in military warfare practices: It has a paradoxical history in "the adoption of a military metaphor for an ethical *desideratum*" (p. 189). The practice was variously reconfigured over the course of experimental use, ambiguously changing who was to be debriefed and who was debriefing. Throughout these shifts, debriefing practices apparently served to satisfy two research problems: one ethical (to achieve honesty in research) and the other methodological (to reduce contamination of experiments). Perhaps as significant, however, was how its technical, bureaucratic origins bestowed added legitimacy on social psychologists' experimental roles and authority.

Deception is another investigative tool important to social psychologists who, like other psychologists, sought to guarantee subjects' naiveté during experimentation but who also needed means to recreate experimental conditions as similar to the social world as possible. James Korn's (1997) expansive history shows how deception techniques were formulated and legitimated on cultural as well as academic and scientific grounds. Attaining the desired experimental realism involved creating "illusions of reality" that would engage subjects and persuade colleagues of the validity of experiments. Deception importantly served the goal of realism yet it was made possible by more than scientific precepts of control and realism: Longstanding cultural ideas inflected these understandings. The acceptability of deception depended on individualist values with its logic "that it was all right to break the law because, as individuals, they concluded that their action would produce more benefit than harm" and those others would concur because of the positive outcomes (p. 163). Deceptive practices were enabled, too, by a cultural conception of experts as beneficent along with experts' paternalist "view that sometimes people

should be helped even if they don't ask for it because what they are made to do is for their own good and is something they later will appreciate" (p. 163).

Histories of social psychology's practices, distinctive in their multivalent connection with the world outside the laboratory and resolute honing of scientific definitions of ordinary social phenomena, are in an inaugural stage. But we already have enticing prolegomena to guide the historical work ahead. More needs to be learned about social psychology's manifest focus on methods and its relative abeyance of theory (Kruglanski, 2001) including theories of the "social" (Stam, 2006); the transport of folk understandings to laboratory entities (Graumann, 1993); the colonization of North American models (Van Strien, 1996); and the variegated yet largely unacknowledged accomplishments of applied social psychology (Hill, 2006). While the project is young, extant histories afford a better understanding of the field's objects of analysis and the political currents flowing through its investigations.

Objects and their politics

Social psychology's origins and subsequent missions are marked by a double play of political and moral commitments. Although these commitments are perceived to lie outside scientific work (serving only as aspirations or consequences), they actually impress the entire project. From its inception, the discipline has promoted itself through ameliorative (if not Utopian) aspirations. Researchers have routinely asserted that their field's knowledge would guide projects to realize social adjustment, justice, and remediation of social problems generally (Finison, 1976, 1986). Echoed in its canonical histories, social psychology has claimed a notable place among 20th-century social sciences as a discipline especially equipped to make knowledge that benefits human welfare. And the field has retained its position within psychology as a leading arena for producing socially beneficial knowledge. Thus, social psychology's political and moral aim is its foundational and ongoing desire to produce scientifically validated means for realizing social order, democratic justice, sound social relations, and cooperation.

A second political and moral axis inheres in prime object of study, in the very conception of the "social." The North American social psychology that flourished within psychology departments meticulously if perhaps unselfconsciously aligned its definition of the social with (psychology's) assumptions about the individual as existing prior to and apart from the social. Adoption of this individualist perspective had several implications. First, it required abandoning conceptions that diverged, including conceptions of the self as socially constituted (e.g., G. H. Mead) and of social interaction as emergent, potentially transformative phenomena. Social psychology committed itself to understanding an essentially nonsocial individual as she thought and behaved in social situations such as work, intimate relationships, and public actions. This ontological presupposition—that the individual exists as an independent entity constituted prior to or outside any historical

and social influences—is both moral and political. That is, as an autonomous agent, the individual ultimately is (morally as well as causally) responsible for navigating, interpreting, and responding to social conditions. This presupposition is premised and dependent on democratic and economic ideas of the liberal citizen that were articulated in the 18th and 19th centuries (Smith, 1997). This vision of the individual (and his relations to the social world) has substantive implications for *what* is studied about social processes. And the field's concordance with psychology's autonomous individual, in turn, continues to compel assimilation of psychology's current models; thus has social psychology readily adopted cognitive perspectives after the fashion and, more recently, those of neuroscience and evolutionary psychology.

Political and moral stances inflect the very objects of social psychology—its ontology of social beings. These roots engender what are taken to be objects of inquiry and relay assumptions about the intrinsic qualities of those objects. Political assumptions about the individual as an independent being in society thus undergird practices of locating the social as something that acts on the individual and consequently exploring just how social “variables” affect (through internal processes) his actions and thoughts. Appreciating such assumptive roots makes more understandable the field's tendency to study violence and aggression in terms of internal psychological processes and not economic or political ones. This tendency to focus on internal dynamics of violence is apparent in social psychologists' scientific response to Kitty Genovese's murder. To explain why individuals hesitated or failed to assist the victim, researchers undertook experiments on bystander's behavior, studies that probed several immediate, individual, and local variables as the most likely determinants of those behaviors. They identified several bystander variables rather than investigating extra-individual ones, notably community relations, gendered forms of violence, or poverty (Cherry, 1995). In selecting certain variables to study, researchers subscribed to the precepts established by psychology's experimental paradigm “by moving in as closely as possible to the behavioural phenomenon and casting the event in terms of independent variables such as size of group that affect dependent variables such as intervening behaviour” (p. 19). Other salient social variables distinguishing that environment were left unexamined. However, the paradigm (with its intra-individual foci and experimental techniques) adopted from psychology was not the sole influence on the studies. The research also was structured through emphasis on certain social actors: It concentrated on bystanders, not on victims or perpetrators. This selectivity of objects for investigation resonates with then dominant cultural understandings of the period, including an attenuated fear and mystification of urban violence, certain stereotypic (gendered and class-based) notions of victims and perpetrators, and relative blindness to gendered forms of violence.

Popular models of self-control, including classic studies of locus of control, concord with a politics of individual responsibility and self-management. They, too, have backgrounded social

and economic conditions that differently enable or constrain control for different persons (Baistow, 2000; Furby, 1979). Armed with a political and epistemic conviction that “the path is set for empiricist science to intervene with methodologies which can constrain the individual from the non-rational” (Henriques, Hollway, Urwin, Venn, & Walkerdine, 1984, p. 90), researchers have typically proceeded with the assumption that their empiricism is without politics or morals or that any political or moral origins of their work are removed from empirical research. Additionally, certainty about the purity of scientific practices has fostered general abeyance of other cultural knowledge that is imported into research and sometimes becomes essential components in the staging of experiments.

Historical studies uncover just how moral and political matters enter into and circulate through research programs. In doing so, they also signal how our scientific objects are not pre-existing forms to be discovered in controlled, observational situations. Rather, our objects come to us as both embodied *and* imagined in their emergences. What is routinely taken as the scientific discovery or observation of objects thus needs to be supplemented with better understanding of how scientific objects take shape and can change. Such inquiries illumine the “ontological fecundity of the sciences” both inside and outside designated scientific spaces (Daston, 2000). In their liveliness, scientific objects can and often do exceed the properties formally ascribed to them either through particular hypotheses or the experimental roles they are assigned.

“Socialization,” a key object in social psychology's past that retains a recognized place in scientific (and popular) discourse exemplifies an object that was neither wholly “discovered” through empirical research nor simply borrowed from ordinary language or common understandings (Morawski & St. Martin, 2011). In its 19th-century usage, socialization explicitly referred to an economic arrangement of production: It referred to a social organization out there in the world. Shortly afterwards the term came to be used to describe coordinations of the social world and individuals: It was taken to be an interactive object, described as such in the writings of sociologist Georg Simmel. (Even the 1934 *Encyclopedia of the Social Sciences* defines and attributes the term “socialization” to Karl Marx's definition as a particular social organization of industry, and notes as well Simmel's definition of socialization as a process of group formation and association.) By the second decade of the 20th century, psychologists and budding social psychologists took up the word to describe a process whereby individuals learn and internalize social conventions. This definitional turn revised Simmel's sociological model by emphasizing a dynamic relation (an ontological link) between individual consciousness and the social world. By the third decade of the 20th century, researchers forged an unlikely amalgamation of psychoanalysis and learning theory (and eventually role theory) to present socialization as something that happens within the individual as a response or accommodation to social forces. By mid-century, socialization appeared as a bricolage: a concept variously combining notions of adaptation, learning, conformity,

identification, internalization, conditioning, assimilation, unconscious drives, attitudes, personality, culture, social norms, and the very idea of “human nature.” The chapter on socialization in the 1954 *Handbook of Social Psychology* commences by stating “socialization refers to a problem which is old and pervasive in human life—the problem of how to rear children so that they will become adequate members of the society to which they belong.” The author also noted that “the use of a fairly uniform label for socialization in scientific discussion is new, and there is not even yet complete agreement on the terminology” (Child, 1954, p. 655). This was a rare caveat, for socialization already had become a lively object, taken as a valid construct in textbooks as well as empirical studies. As Theodore Newcomb instructed student readers of his 1950 social psychology textbook, socialization was a *bona fide* social psychological object showing that “in common with other members of your group, you have interiorized many social norms so that they are now part of your own psychological make-up” (p. 5). Socialization came to indicate that personhood is, in Urie Bronfenbrenner’s words, “a matter of social rather than biological inheritance” (1970, p. xxv). By this time, however, nascent cognitive psychology’s conceptions of flexible, rational actors were already reshaping conceptions of socialization, enabling Lawrence Kohlberg to propose that socialization must be understood in terms of “active processes of attention, information-gathering strategies, motivated thinking, etc.” within the person (1969, p. 349).

The evolution of socialization as a scientific object, therefore, was not driven simply by empirical findings, nor was the concept itself submitted to much empirical testing. There ensued no systemic or comparative examination of the various mechanisms attributed to the socialization process, and its definition often remained an odd admixture of what were taken as discordant theories (combining behaviorism, psychoanalysis, role theory, and more). By the postwar period socialization stood as an established object, a thing done by or happening to individuals. Researchers continued to suppose it to be an essential human capacity. Even today, few researchers and laypersons question the object’s existence, and socialization endures as a common and effective explanation of behavior (Morawski and St. Martin, 2011).

The very idea of the “social” has an even more complex history. Given the ontological, political, and practical implications of any definition of the social, historians have investigated the life of this central concept. The individualistic definition of social psychology, a definition generally attributed to Floyd Allport’s 1924 text, successfully displaced theories about the ways individuals are socially constituted, their perceptions mediated through social arrangements, ongoing interactions, and agreements. For John Greenwood (2004), abandoning these theories in favor of an individual-centered orientation (and a concordant adoption of methodological individualism) literally affected a “disappearance of the social.” As discussed above, adherence to an individualist definition of the social has significant cultural, economic, and political dimensions. It has

permitted making social-psychological knowledge that is compatible with prevailing political beliefs about individual responsibility, sound citizenship, and work ethics (Rose, 1990, 1996; Sampson, 1977, 1981). The individualist grounding of social psychology’s modern enterprise accordingly fits with larger systems of competition and exchange: Its conceptualization of the social fixes the focus on experience at the level of individual (and subjective) life experiences. As a consequence, social psychological knowledge encourages people “to accept a change in their subjective experiences as a substitute for changes in their objective reality” (Cushman, 1990; Sampson, 1981, p. 735). Macroanalytic histories indicate how the presupposition of a certain kind of individualism has yielded knowledge that is well suited to the societal regulation and administration of individuals (Danziger, 1990a; Henriques et al., 1984; Rose, 1990).

The absolutism of such mainstream presuppositions is evidenced in failed if ingenious attempts to promote alternative conceptions of social psychological phenomena. One such contestation occurred in the 1920s and 1930s when a small group of social psychologists challenged presiding models of the individual and the version of empiricism forwarded in the emerging experimental program of research. Gardner Murphy, Lois Barclay Murphy, and Gordon Allport designed an alternative perspective based on William James’s radical empiricism and a social activist stance. These researchers, according to Katherine Pandora, “rejected the image of the laboratory as an ivory tower, contested the canons of objectivity that characterized current research practices, and argued against reducing nature and the social worlds to the lowest possible terms” (1997, p. 3). In turn, these researchers called for an understanding of persons as culturally situated and, therefore, as fully explicable only in terms of the cultural conditions of their lives. They also opposed psychology’s incorporation of culturally prevalent notions of democracy and its commitment to adjusting individuals to fit into society. As Allport stated, “To a large degree our division of labor is forced, not free; young people leaving our schools for a career of unemployment become victims of arrested emotional intellectual development; our civil liberties fall short of our expressed ideal” (quoted in Pandora, p. 1). For Allport and his colleagues these unfortunate conditions called for an expanded understanding of both democracy and the individual as socially situated. They also proposed what Pandora called “experimental modernism”: a pursuit of scientific knowing that would connect reason with morals and feeling. They beckoned the generation of scientific knowledge that would challenge conventional understandings of persons and the world that psychology had assumed.

Looking forward while looking back

Histories (beyond canonical chronicles) illumine vibrant scientific landscapes upon which social psychologists can more fully and accurately appraise the field’s fundamental aspirations and commitments. They show the vital connectivity of science,

including fertile connections between theory and methods, scientific objects and cultural life, social psychologists and creative entertainers, and psychological models and economic ones. Far from revisiting antiquated debates or quaint metaphysics of the social, histories make visible to us multiple forces and agencies (besides scientists' logical decisions) that have shaped the discipline. Their significance lies not in pondering how things might have been different, but rather in providing analytic lens for better appraising scientific choices and constraints. Historical and critical reflection thereby connects with the present by providing tools and ideas for present-day researchers to assess their own choices and constraints. Such appraisal also makes space for thought experiments. Imagine setting aside the compelling research programs afforded by cognitive psychology and asking, what would a social psychology be if its conception of the social were about networks and assemblages (Latour, 2005; Law, 2004)? Or cybernetics of the posthuman (Hayles, 1999)? How might social psychology proceed should researchers explore biomedicine's new conception of persons' vitality, capacities, experiences, and responsibilities (Rose, 2007)? What would come from considering performativity, a theoretical perspective that understands psychic experience in terms of the powers of speech and language to regulate action (Butler, 1997; Sedgwick, 2003)?

This chapter's conclusion, then, ends by looking forward and glancing backward; by asking what social psychology could accomplish by taking its reflexive circuitry as a working conceptualization. Consider for a moment how scientific investigations can make new entities (e.g., "cognitive dissonance," "stress," "Freudian slip") and how new entities can arise in the social world (e.g., "virtue reality," "transgender," "surrogate mothers"). These inventions—discoveries, in turn, create further opportunities and capacities for scientists (to study) and other persons (to incorporate or resist). The discoveries, makings and namings of our scientific objects always entail relays of understanding and acting between science and the rest of culture. They can involve ruptures or radical interventions. More often the lively circuits are reiterative, iterative, and reflexive.

What if social psychology took up the project of forging models of the circuitries of the psychological? What if the conceptual and technical resources of social psychology writ large were extended to explore the (spatial and temporal) transports, translations, and circulation of the social psychological? Such a research program would permit examining not only stasis but also change; not simply a phenomenon's mechanics and reductions but also its emergence and growth; not merely stability of social-psychological objects but also movements within and between them; not linear models alone but reflexive and reiterative ones as well; not merely empirical tests of theory but also theory-based appraisals of methods; and not just the participants who generously grant data but also other cultural actors, including the experimenters themselves. Empirically registering these social dynamics, however historical the methods, is an inescapably psychological undertaking. Any account of the dynamics of making social-psychological

knowledge and persons, according to Richards, "Must itself be a Psychological model" (2002, p. 8). Or, in Smith's terms: "the history of the human sciences is itself a human science" (1997, p. 870). This historical awareness enables us to reconsider Kenneth Gergen's (1973) famed critique of social psychology as history. That is, one benefit of more accurate and comprehensive historical knowledge is that we can extend his observations to consider the possibilities of a historical social psychology. Historical social psychology could map the circuitry linking the social world, ordinary actors, scientific practices, and the scientists themselves. It would require thinking anew about our objects, for despite stolid presuppositions that social psychological phenomena stand still—that they are fixed, unfluctuating processes or entities—histories of circuits and their loopings soundly suggest otherwise. History is significant, then, not only for providing tools for reappraising the language, techniques, moral bases, and practical consequences of contemporary research but also for suggesting opportunities for developing theory.

Should imagining the theoretical possibilities of historical thinking seem beyond the purview of social psychology, history itself offers insight. Wilhelm Wundt, a "founder" of modern scientific psychology, proposed that one main avenue of psychology be *volkerpsychologie* or folk psychology, and that this strand of scientific psychology would deploy historical methods to gather, record, and assess artifacts of social and cultural life (Kroger & Scheibe, 1990). Another founding figure, G. Stanley Hall, categorized psychology's structure as threefold, consisting of comparative, experimental, and historical approaches. The historical would trace the lives of all "finished systems," including those of comparative and experimental psychology (Leary, 2009). Indeed, in psychology's nascent decades journals published historical and cultural-historical articles, although this diversity was short-lived and its proponents are all but forgotten (Pettit, 2008).

The propaedeutics of Wundt and Hall along with their colleague William James's resonant calls for diversity in psychology remind us that no single method was advanced as sufficient for the challenge of understanding and explaining mental life. These founders from the outset apprehended the limits as well as advantages of any single method. They understood that the ontology (of mind, brain, behavior, and sociality) amounted to more than invariance and mechanics and that its constitution also involved accommodations, emergences, mutations, and evolution. This yet unrealized project affords social psychologists with capacious opportunities for investigating the dynamics of the social-psychological world.

References

- Allport, G. W. (1940). The psychologist's frame of reference. *Psychological Bulletin*, 37, 1–28.
- Averill, J. R. (1990). Inner feelings, works of the flesh, the beast within, diseases of the mind, driving force, and putting on a show: Six metaphors of emotion and their theoretical extensions. In D. E.

- Leary (Ed.), *Metaphors in the history of psychology* (104–132). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Baistow, K. (2000). Problems of powerlessness: Psychological explanations of social inequality and civil unrest in post-war America. *History of the Human Sciences*, 13(3), 95–116.
- Bayer, B. M. (1998). Between apparatuses and apparition: Phantoms of the laboratory. In B. M. Bayer & J. Shotter (Eds.), *Reconstructing the psychological subject* (187–213). London, UK: Sage.
- Bazerman, C. (1988). *Shaping written knowledge: The genre and activity of experimental article in science*. Madison, WI: University of Wisconsin Press.
- Bernstein, R. J. (1983). *Beyond objectivism and relativism: Science, hermeneutics, and praxis*. Philadelphia, PA: University of Pennsylvania Press.
- Billig, M. (1990). Rhetoric of social psychology. In I. Parker & J. Shotter (Eds.), *Rhetoric of social psychology* (pp. 47–60). London: Routledge.
- Bond, H. M. (1927). Some exceptional negro children. *The Crisis*, 34, 257–280.
- Bordo, S. (1987). *The flight to objectivity: Essays on Cartesianism and culture*. Albany, NY: State University of New York Press.
- Bronfenbrenner, U. (1970). *Two worlds of childhood*. New York, NY: Russell Sage Foundation.
- Brown, J. (1991). Mental measurements and the rhetorical force of numbers. In J. Brown & D. K. van Keuren (Eds.), *The estate of social knowledge* (pp. 134–152). Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press.
- Budge, G. S. & Katz, B. (1995). Constructing psychological knowledge: Reflections on science, scientists and epistemology in the APA Publication Manual. *Theory & Psychology*, 5(2), 217–231.
- Butler, J. (1997). *Excitable speech: A politics of the performative*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Carson, J. (1993). Army alpha, Army brass, and the search for Army intelligence. *Isis*, 84, 278–309.
- Cherry, F. (1995). *The 'stubborn particulars' of social psychology: Essays on the research process*. London: Routledge.
- Child, I. (1954). Socialization. In G. Lindzey (Ed.), *Handbook of social psychology* (Vol. 3, pp. 655–692). Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley.
- Cohen-Cole, J. N. (2003). *Thinking about thinking in cold war America*. Doctoral Dissertation, Princeton University. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Cohen-Cole, J. N. (2005). The reflexivity of cognitive science: The scientist as model of nature. *History of the Human Sciences*, 18(4), 107–139.
- Cohen-Cole, J. N. (in press). *The open mind: Cold war culture, cognitive science, and the politics of human nature*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Cushman, P. (1990). Why the self is empty: Toward a historically situated psychology. *American Psychologist*, 45, 599–611.
- Danziger, K. (1990a). *Constructing the subject: Historical origins of psychological research*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Danziger, K. (1990b). Generative metaphor and the history of psychological discourse. In D. E. Leary (Ed.), *Metaphors in the history of psychology* (pp. 331–356). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Danziger, K. (1993). The practice of psychological discourse. In C. E. Graumann & K. J. Gergen (Eds.), *Historical dimensions of psychological discourse* (pp. 17–35). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Danziger, K. (1997). *Naming the mind: How psychology found its language*. London, UK: Sage.
- Daston, L. (2000). The coming into being of scientific objects. In L. Daston (Ed.), *Biographies of scientific objects* (pp. 1–14). Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Daston, L. (2009). Science studies and the history of science. *Critical Inquiry*, 35, 798–813.
- Daston, L., & Galison, P. (2007). *Objectivity*. Cambridge, MA: Zone Books & MIT Press.
- Dror, O. E. (1998). Creating the emotional body: Confusion, possibilities, and knowledge. In P. N. Stearns and J. Lewis (Eds.), *An emotional history of the United States* (pp. 173–194). New York, NY: New York University Press.
- Finison, L. J. (1976). Unemployment, politics, and the history of organized psychology. *American Psychologist*, 31(11), 747–755.
- Finison, L. J. (1986). The psychological insurgency: 1936–1945. *Journal of Social Issues*, 42(1), 21–33.
- Furby, L. (1979). Individualistic bias in studies of locus of control. In A. R. Buss (Ed.), *Psychology in a social context* (pp. 169–190). New York, NY: Irvington.
- Gadlin, H., & Ingle, G. (1975). Through the one-way mirror: The limits of experimental self-reflection. *American Psychologist*, 30, 1003–1009.
- Galison, P. (Ed.). (1996). *The disunity of science: boundaries, contexts, and power*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press.
- Galison, P. (1997). *Image and logic: A material culture of microphysics*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Gergen, K. J. (1973). Social psychology as history. *Journal of Social and Personality Psychology*, 26(2), 306–320.
- Giddens, A. (1984). *The construction of society*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press.
- Gigerenzer, G. (1991). From tools to theories: A heuristic of discovery in cognitive psychology. *Psychological Review*, 98, 254–267.
- Gigerenzer, G. (1996). From tools to theories: Discovery in cognitive psychology. In C. F. Graumann & K. J. Gergen (Eds.), *Historical dimensions of psychological discourse* (pp. 36–59). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Good, J. M. (2000). Disciplining social psychology: A case study of boundary relations in the history of the human sciences. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 383–403.
- Graumann, C. F. (1996). Psyche and her descendants. In C. F. Graumann & K. J. Gergen (Eds.), *Historical dimensions of psychological discourse* (pp. 83–102). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Greenwood, J. D. (2004). *The disappearance of the social in American social psychology*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Gruenberg, B. (1978). The problem of reflexivity in the sociology of science. *Philosophy of Social Science*, 8, 321–342.
- Hacking, I. (1995a). The looping effect of human kinds. In D. Sperber, D. Premack & A. J. Premack (Eds.), *Casual cognition: A multidisciplinary debate* (pp. 351–383). Oxford, UK: Clarendon Press.
- Hacking, I. (1995b). *Rewriting the soul: Multiple personality and the sciences of memory*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Hacking, I. (1999). *The social construction of what?* Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Hacking, I. (2002). *Historical ontology*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Halley, J. (2006). *Split decisions: How and why to take a break from feminism*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.

- Haraway, D. J. (1991). *Simians, cyborgs, and women: The reinvention of nature*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Harris, B. (1979). Whatever happened to Little Albert? *American Psychologist*, 34, 151–160.
- Harris, B. (1988). Key words: A history of debriefing in social psychology. In J. G. Morawski (Ed.), *The rise of experimentation in American psychology* (pp. 188–212). New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Hayles, N. K. (1999). *How we became posthuman: Virtual bodies in cybernetic, literature, and informatics*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Henrich, J., Heine, S. J., & Norenzayan, A. (2010). The weirdest people in the world? *Behavioral and Brain Sciences*, 33, 1–75.
- Henriques, J., Hollway, C., Urwin, C., Venn, C., & Walkerdine, V. (Eds.). (1984). *Changing the subject: Psychology, social regulation, and subjectivity*. London, UK: Methuen.
- Hill, D. B. (2006). Theory in applied social psychology: Past mistakes and future hopes. *Theory & Psychology*, 16(5), 613–640.
- Igo, S. E. (2007). *The averaged American: Survey, citizens, and the making of a mass public*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- James, W. (1890). *The principles of psychology*. New York, NY: Holt.
- Jones, E. E. (1985). Major developments in social psychology during the past five decades. In G. Lindzey & E. Aronson (Eds.), *Handbook of social psychology* (3rd ed., Vol. 1, pp. 47–107). New York, NY: Random House.
- Karpf, F. B. (1932). *American social psychology*. New York, NY: McGraw-Hill.
- Keller, E. F. (1985). *Reflections on gender and science*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Keller, E. F. (1994). The paradox of scientific subjectivity. In A. Megill (Ed.), *Rethinking objectivity* (pp. 313–331). Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Kohlberg, L. (1969). Stage and sequence: The cognitive–developmental approach to socialization. In D. A. Goslin (Ed.), *Handbook of socialization theory and research* (pp. 347–481). Chicago, IL: Rand McNally.
- Korn, J. H. (1997). *Illusions of reality: A history of deception in social psychology*. Albany, NY: State University of New York Press.
- Kroger, R. O., & Scheibe, K. E. (1990). A reappraisal of Wundt's influence on social psychology. *Canadian Psychologist*, 31, 220–228.
- Kruglanski, A. W. (2001). That “vision thing”: The state of theory in social and personality psychology at the edge of the new millennium. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 80, 871–875.
- Latour, B. (2005). *Reassembling the social*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press.
- Law, J. (2004). *After method: Mess in social science research*. New York, NY: Routledge.
- Leahey, T. H. (1986). The challenge from biology to cognitive science. *Theoretical and Philosophical Psychology*, 6(1), 31–36.
- Leary, D. E. (1990). Psyche's muse: The role of metaphor in the history of psychology. In D. E. Leary (Ed.), *Metaphors in the history of psychology* (1–78). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Leary, D. E. (1995). William James, the psychologist's dilemma and the historiography of psychology: Cautionary tales. *History of Human Sciences*, 8, 91–105.
- Leary, D. E. (2009). Between Peirce (1878) and James (1898): G. Stanley Hall, the origins of pragmatism, and the history of psychology. *Journal of the History of Behavioral Sciences*, 45(1), 5–20.
- Lopes, L. (1991). The rhetoric of irrationality. *Theory & Psychology*, 1(1), 65–82.
- Lubek, I. (2000). Understanding and using the history of social psychology. *Journal of the History of Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 319–328.
- Lubek, I. & Apfelbaum, E. (2000). A critical gaze and wistful glance at *Handbook* histories of social psychology: Did the successive accounts by Gordon Allport and successors historiographically succeed? *Journal of the History of Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 405–428.
- Lubek, I. & Stam, H. J. (1995). Ludicro-experimentation in social psychology: Sober scientific versus playful prescription. In I. Lubek, R. van Hezewijk, G. Pheterson, & C. Tolman (Eds.), *Trends and issues in theoretical psychology* (pp. 171–180). New York, NY: Springer.
- Lutz, C. (1997). Epistemology of the bunker: The brainwashed and other new subjects of permanent war. In J. Pfister & N. Schnog (Eds.), *Inventing the psychological: Toward a cultural history of emotional life in America* (pp. 245–267). New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Maasen, S. (1995). Who is afraid of metaphors? In S. Maasen, E. Mendelsohn & P. Weingart (Eds.), *Biology as society, society as biology: Metaphors* (pp. 11–35). Dordrecht, The Netherlands: Kluwer.
- MacIntyre, A. (1985). How psychology makes itself true—Or false. In S. Koch & D. E. Leary (Eds.), *A century of psychology as science* (pp. 897–903). New York, NY: McGraw-Hill.
- MacMartin, C., & Winston, A. S. (2000). The rhetoric of experimental social psychology, 1930–1960: From caution to enthusiasm. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 349–364.
- Mazlish, B. (1998). *The uncertain sciences*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- McCarthy, A. (2005). “Stanley Milgram, Allen Funt, and me”: Postwar science and the “first wave” of reality TV. In S. Murray & L. Oulette (Eds.), *Startling! Heartbreaking! Real! Reality TV and the remaking of television culture* (pp. 19–39). New York, NY: New York University Press.
- Mialet, H. (2003). The “righteous wrath” of Pierre Bourdieu. *Social Studies of Science*, 33, 613–624.
- Morawski, J. G. (1992). Self regard and other regard: Reflexive practices in American psychology, 1890–1940. *Science in Context*, 5, 281–308.
- Morawski, J. G. (1996). Principles of selves: The rhetoric of introductory textbooks in American psychology. In C. F. Graumann & K. J. Gergen (Eds.), *History dimensions of psychological discourse* (pp. 145–164). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Morawski, J. G. (1997). Educating the emotions: Academic psychology, textbooks, and the psychology industry, 1890–1940. In J. Pfister and N. Schnog (Eds.), *The history of emotional experience* (pp. 217–244). New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Morawski, J. G. (2005). Reflexivity and the psychologist. *History of the Human Sciences*, 18(4), 77–105.
- Morawski, J. G. (2010). *Querying the ontological status of subjects: The psychology laboratory and the Cold War*. Presented at “Human Science, Human Subjects”, Max Planck–University of Chicago Workshop.
- Morawski, J. G., & Bayer, B. (2003). The history of modern social psychology. In I. B. Weiner (Ed.), *Handbook of psychology* (pp. 223–248). New York, NY: Wiley.
- Morawski, J. G., & St. Martin, J. (2011). The evolving vocabulary of the social sciences: The case of “socialization”. *History of Psychology*, 14, 1–25.

- Morgan, M. S. (2003). Economics. In T. M. Porter & D. Ross (Eds.), *The Cambridge history of science: The modern social sciences* (pp. 276–305). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Morgan, M. S. (2007). The curious case of the Prisoner's Dilemma: Model situation? Exemplary narrative? In A. N. H. Creager, E. Lunbeck, & N. Wise (Eds.), *Science without laws: Model systems, cases, exemplary narratives* (pp. 157–188). Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Newcomb, T. (1950). *Social psychology*. New York, NY: Holt, Rinehart & Winston.
- Nicholson, I. (in press) Shocking masculinity: Stanley Milgram, obedience to authority and the crisis of manhood in postwar America. *Isis*.
- O'Donnell, J. M. (1979). The crisis of experimentalism in the 1920's: E. G. Boring and his uses of history. *American Psychologist*, 34, 289–295.
- Oliver, W. D. & Langfield, A. W. (1962). Reflexivity: An unfaced issue of psychology. *Journal of Individual Psychology*, 18(20), 114–124.
- Pandora, K. (1997). *Rebels within the ranks: Psychologists' critique of scientific authority and democratic realities in new deal America*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.
- Parlee, M. B. (1994). The social construction of premenstrual syndrome: A case study of scientific discourse as cultural contestation. In M. G. Winkler & L. B. Cole (Eds.), *The good body: Asceticism in contemporary culture*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Parkovnick, S. (2000). Contextualizing Floyd Allport's social psychology. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 429–441.
- Pettit, M. (2008). The new woman as “tied-up dog”: Amy E. Tanner's situated knowledges. *History of Psychology*, 11(3), 145–163.
- Pickering, A. (1995). *The mangle of practice: Time, agency, and science*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.
- Porter, T. M. (1986). *The rise of statistical thinking, 1820–1900*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Porter, T. M. (1994). Objectivity as standardization: The rhetoric of impersonality in measurement, statistics, and cost–benefit analysis. In A. Megill (Ed.), *Rethinking objectivity*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Porter, T. M. (1995). *Trust in the numbers: The pursuit of objectivity in science and in public life*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Porter, T. M., & Ross, D. (2003). Introduction: Writing the history of social science. In T. M. Porter & D. Ross (Eds.), *The Cambridge history of science: The modern social sciences* (pp. 1–12). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Rheinberger, H. J. (1999). Experimental systems: Historiography, narration, and deconstruction. In M. Biagioli (Ed.), *The science studies reader* (pp. 417–429). New York, NY: Routledge.
- Richards, G. (1987). Of what is history of psychology a history? *British Journal of the History of Science*, 20, 201–211.
- Richards, G. (2002). The psychology of psychology: A historically grounded sketch. *Theory & Psychology*, 12(1), 7–36.
- Rose, N. (1990). *Governing the soul: The shaping of private self*. London, UK: Routledge.
- Rose, N. (1996). *Inventing our selves: Psychology, power, and personhood*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Rose, N. (2007). *The politics of life itself: Biomedicine, power and subjectivity in the twenty-first century*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Rosenzweig, S. (1933). The experimental situation as a psychological problem. *Psychological Review*, 40, 337–354.
- Ross, D. (2003). Changing contours of the social science disciplines. In T. M. Porter & D. Ross (Eds.), *The Cambridge history of science* (pp. 205–237). Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press.
- Rouse, J. (1999). Understanding scientific practices: Cultural studies of science as a philosophical program. In M. Biagioli (Ed.), *The science studies reader* (pp. 442–456). New York, NY: Routledge.
- Rouse, J. (2006, April 20). *A new image of science and nature*. Lecture, Calvin College, Grand Rapids, MI.
- Rutherford, A. (2009). *Beyond the ox: B. F. Skinner's technology of behavior from laboratory to life, 1950s–1970s*. Toronto, Canada: University of Toronto Press.
- Samelson, F. (1974). History, origin myth and ideology: “Discovery” of social psychology. *Journal of the Theory of Social Behavior*, 4(2), 217–231.
- Samelson, F. (2000). Whig and anti-whig histories—And other curiosities of social psychology. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 499–506.
- Sampson, E. E. (1977). Psychology and the American ideal. *Journal of Personality & Social Psychology*, 36, 1332–1343.
- Sampson, E. E. (1981). Cognitive psychology as ideology. *American Psychologist*, 36, 730–743.
- Sarbin, T. (1998). The poetic construction of reality and other explanatory categories. In J. de River and T. R. Sarbin (Eds.), *Believed-in imaginings: The narrative construction of reality* (pp. 297–309). Washington, DC: American Psychological Association.
- Sedgwick, E. K. (2003). *Touching feeling: Affect, pedagogy, performativity*. Durham, NC: Duke University Press.
- Sklansky, J. (2002). *The soul's economy: Market society and selfhood in American thought, 1820–1920*. Chapel Hill, NC: University of North Carolina Press.
- Smith, R. (1997). *The Norton history of the human sciences*. New York, NY: W. W. Norton.
- Smith, R. (2005). The history of psychological categories. *Studies in History and Philosophy of Biological and Biomedical Sciences*, 36, 55–94.
- Solovey, M. (2004). Riding natural scientists' coattails onto the endless frontier: The SSRC and the quest for scientific legitimacy. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 40(4), 393–422.
- Stam, H. J. (2006). Introduction: Reclaiming the social in social psychology. *Theory & Psychology*, 16(5), 587–598.
- Stam, H. J., Lubek, I., & Radtke, H. L. (1998). Repopulating social psychology texts: Disembodied “subjects” and embodied subjectivities. In B. M. Mayer and J. Shotter (Eds.), *Reconstructing the psychological subjects: Bodies, practices and technologies* (pp. 153–186). London, UK: Sage.
- Stam, H. J., Radtke, H. L., & Lubek, I. (2000). Strains in experimental social psychology: A textual analysis of the development of experimentation in social psychology. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 36(4), 365–382.
- Stark, L. J. (2010). The science of ethics: Deception, the resilient self, and the APA code of ethics, 1966–1973. *Journal of the History of the Behavioral Sciences*, 46, 337–370.
- Stocking, G. W. (1965). On the limits of “presentism” and “historicism” in the history of the behavioral sciences. *Journal of the History of Behavioral Sciences*, 1, 211–217.
- Turkle, S. (1995). *Life on the screen: Identity in the age of the internet*. New York, NY: Simon & Schuster.
- Unger, R. K. (1983). Through the looking glass: No wonderland yet (The reciprocal relationship between methodology and models of reality.) *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 8, 9–32.

- Van Strien, P. J. (1997). The American "colonization" of the northwest European social psychology after World War II. *Journal of the Behavioral Sciences*, 33, 349–364.
- Walsh-Bowers, R. (2006). The theatre acting perspective on the dramaturgical metaphor and the postmodern self. *Theory & Psychology*, 16(5), 661–690.
- White, H. (1973). *Metahistory: The historical imagination in nineteenth-century Europe*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press.
- Winston, A. S. (1988). Cause and experiment in introductory psychology: An analysis of R. S. Woodworth's textbooks. *Teaching of Psychology*, 15, 79–83.
- Winston, A. (1990). Robert Sessions Woodworth and the Columbia Bible: How the psychological experiment was redefined. *American Journal of Psychology*, 103(3), 391–401.
- Winston, A. S. (2004). Controlling the metalanguage: Authority and acquiescence in the history of method. In A. C. Brock, J. Louw, & W. van Hoorn (Eds.), *Rediscovering the history of psychology: Essays inspired by the work of Kurt Danziger* (pp. 53–73). New York, NY: Kluwer Academic/Plenum.
- Winston, A., & Blais, D. J. (1996). What counts as an experiment? A transdisciplinary analysis of textbooks, 1930–1970. *American Journal of Psychology*, 109(4), 599–616.
- Woolgar, S. (1988). *Science: The very idea*. London, UK: Ellis Horwood.



Part II

Approaches



3 The emergence of cognitive social psychology: A historical analysis

Denis Hilton

In this chapter, I tell the story of how cognitive social psychology came to take the form it did after the Second World War. This “cognitive” social psychology emerged in the 1930s in opposition to other approaches to social psychology, notably those grounded in behaviorism, psychoanalysis, and sociology. It is also distinct from the “social cognition” movement that began in the 1970s, drawing on concepts and methods developed in the “cognitive revolution” that overtook psychology in the 1950s (see North and Fiske, this volume). My focus will be on the underlying scientific paradigms (Kuhn, 1970) that conditioned this earlier cognitive approach to social psychology. I will note their institutional support, and illustrate their key features by descriptions of prominent practitioners and key publications. In the first part I examine the disciplinary evolutions that led to a particular definition of the social mind. In the second part I describe the emergence of a Gestalt approach to social psychology before the Second World War. In the third part I show how Gestalt theory and other nonbehaviorist approaches addressed social perception and impression formation. In the fourth part, I describe how the institutions and dominant methodological practices of social psychology had changed by the end of the war. In the fifth part I analyze the effect of these changes on the rise and fall of cognitive consistency theory from the 1950s to the 1970s. In the sixth part I further show how the assumptions of systematic psychology influenced the development of attribution theory, which rose to prominence in the 1960s and 1970s, and which has since remained active (with revisions). In the final part I address the question of what these research programmes have contributed, and (with the benefit of hindsight) what errors there may have been in the way the original research has been represented to later generations of social psychologists.

Defining the social mind

The decline of sociological and psychoanalytic approaches

The intellectual landscape discovered by graduate students in social psychology returning from the Second World War must seem hardly recognizable to today’s graduate students. The contemporary eye finds itself looking on a lost world when thumbing through Lindzey’s (1954) *Handbook of Social Psychology*. After a first part comprising Allport’s chapter on

the “long past and short history” of social psychology, the second part presents five “contemporary systematic positions” which reflected more general “systems” in psychology (e.g., Chaplin and Krawiec, 1968). These macrotheoretical perspectives may be thought of as “paradigms” in the sense of Kuhn (1970). I give the list as presented by Deutsch and Krauss (1965), with names of illustrative practitioners in parentheses:

- 1 the approach of Gestalt psychology (Asch, Heider)
- 2 field theory in social psychology (Lewin, Festinger)
- 3 the reinforcement theorists (Miller & Dollard, Yale Communication Project, Bandura, Thibaut, & Kelley)
- 4 psychoanalytic theory (Bion, Bolwby, Erikson, McClelland, Parsons)
- 5 role theory (Mead, Merton, Goffman).

Historians of psychology have chronicled “the disappearance of the social in American social psychology” (Greenwood, 2003), and a clear manifestation of this trend is the decline of “sociological” social psychology from the late 1960s onwards. While the ratio of textbooks from social psychology written by psychologists and sociologists was approximately equal from 1949 to 1964, psychologists wrote three times as many textbooks as sociologists in the period 1973–80 (Jones, 1985), and the overall volume of production increased threefold. Role theory was extensively presented in social psychology textbooks primarily written by sociologists (e.g., Newcomb, Turner and Converse, 1965) but has largely disappeared from textbooks written by psychologists. It is now rare to see psychologists taking advantage of sociological thinking in formulating their theories, in the manner of French and Raven’s (1959) use of Weber in their theory of social power.

While there were attempts in the postwar years to build interdisciplinary programs in psychology, sociology, and anthropology at major universities such as Harvard and Michigan, these had disappeared under the strain of disciplinary rivalry by the 1970s (Jackson, 1988). Of course psychology alone was not responsible for this, as some sociologists, following Durkheim’s lead, deliberately sought to evacuate psychological explanations for behavior. For example, “institutionalists” believed that the facts of group structure (rules, roles, norms, culture, etc.) were independent of individuals, who were inessential and replaceable. The fracturing of an integrated

social science approach to social psychology can also be seen through the increasing specialization of journals along disciplinary lines. Social psychologists used to publish their work alongside sociologists in *Human Relations* (e.g., Festinger, 1954), a practice that has since lapsed.

In addition, clinical and social psychologists went their separate ways: *Journal of Abnormal and Social Psychology* divided into *Journal of Abnormal Psychology* and *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* in 1965. Although psychoanalytic ideas played an important role in the gestation of well-known theories in social psychology (e.g., Janis' work on fear appeals in persuasion and groupthink), few vestiges of psychoanalytic thinking now remain in mainstream experimental social psychology. What influence there is of psychoanalytic thinking in contemporary social psychology has mostly come in through the back door, such as Bowlby's attachment theory of relationship style which has been brought in via developmental psychology.

The scientific study of the social mind: Experimentation or a "second" psychology?

With the gradual evacuation of sociology, anthropology, and clinical perspectives from social psychology came the increasing adoption of the privileged methods of mainstream psychology, in particular experimentation. The belief that human behavior could be studied experimentally had taken widespread root in the scientific community by the early twentieth century, and the acceptance of the experimental technique brought a means of resolution to the question of whether the "group mind" could be studied scientifically. The solution adopted by experimental social psychologists to this problem was the "methodological individualism" pioneered by Floyd Allport in America and Walther Moede in Germany (Danziger, 2000). Psychologists came to adopt Floyd Allport's (1924) view that groups and institutions are "sets of ideals, thoughts and habits repeated in each individual mind and existing only in those minds." As examples, Allport (1924) was able to demonstrate experimentally that the mere presence of others influenced both performance (social facilitation effects) and judgment of odors and the heaviness of weights (normalization effects). These and similar studies (Sherif, 1936) provided a means of subjecting "group mind" to experimental analysis, and as Lewin (1951) noted, "the taboo against believing in the existence of a social entity is probably most effectively broken by handling this entity experimentally."

Nevertheless, not everyone accepted that the laboratory experiment is the only scientific way to study the social mind. For many philosophers such as Comte and Mill this problem presented itself in terms of how to develop a "second psychology" that goes beyond the study of individual experience to include the social in the science of mental life (Cahan and White, 1992). For a time, anthropology and psychology worked hand in hand. The groundbreaking Cambridge University expedition to the Torres Strait in 1898 included three members whose primary professional identity was as psychologists (McDougall, Myers,

and Rivers; the others were the ethnographers Haddon and Seligmann along with the oceanic linguist Ray). Back in continental Europe, Wundt's solution was two-pronged: He founded the first laboratory of experimental psychology in Leipzig (1879) to study mental processes, but he also privileged hermeneutic methods in his version of *Volkerpsychologie* (inherited from Humboldt and Herder) which might roughly be translated in modern terms as "cultural psychology." He devoted 20 years of his long life to this nonexperimental project, which in parts resembled modern linguistics, anthropology and cultural studies (Farr, 1996). Sitting in the audience for Wundt's lectures in 1908–9 was the young Bronislaw Malinowski, who never completed his projected dissertation on *Volkerpsychologie* but instead went on to revolutionize ethnology (Young, 2004). Malinowski nevertheless retained his interest in psychology, reading the treatise written by Wundt's student, Hugo Munsterberg, when with his friends in Melbourne between his field trips to Papua New Guinea from 1914 to 1918.

Munsterberg was to take a chair of psychology at Harvard in 1934. However, the tension between the "first" and "second" psychologies led the psychology department at Harvard to split in 1946. The hard-line experimentalists stayed in the reduced psychology department and studied low-level perceptual and learning processes, while the others founded the Department of Social Relations, which included social psychology, clinical psychology, and anthropology.

What the social mind came not to be

A look at the short-lived Department of Social Relations gives an idea of what a less exclusively experimental approach to cognitive social psychology might have looked like. It included luminaries such as Jerome Bruner and George Miller, who went on to found Harvard's Center for Cognitive Studies in 1960. The leading social psychologist was Roger Brown (1925–1997), whose 1965 textbook *Social Psychology* has a magisterial breadth of sweep. An impression of Brown's style can be gauged from the second chapter, which followed an introductory chapter reviewing social behavior in animals. In this chapter on language and social structure, Brown reviewed his own work with Albert Gilman (a professor of English at neighboring Boston University, and Brown's "partner" in domestic life). This work focused on pronouns of address, tracing the use of *tu* (T-form, 2nd person singular) and *vous* (V-form, 2nd person plural) in French, and their equivalents in languages such as German (*Du* and *Sie*), Italian (*tu* and *Lei*) and Shakespearian English (*thou* and *ye*). Brown also analyzed the analogous use of the first name (e.g., *Denis*) rather than the title and last name (e.g., *Dr Hilton*) to mark similar distinctions of social status and distance between speakers in modern English. Giving *vous* to one's superiors and *tu* to one's inferiors is a general pattern in continental Europe, which may be due to the common Roman heritage of French, German, Italian, and Spanish speakers. These groups may have taken over use of the T and V forms from their former Roman rulers, who used the V